

Forum IAS

RED BOOK

POST INDEPENDENCE INDIA

GENERAL STUDIES PAPER - I

For Civil Services Examination

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1. INITIAL YEARS OF INDEPENDENCE

On the midnight of 14th August, 1947, Prime Minister Jawaharlal Nehru addressed the Indian Constituent Assembly and said, “Long years ago we made a tryst with destiny, and now the time comes when we shall redeem our pledge, not wholly or in full measure, but very substantially. At the stroke of the midnight hour, when the world sleeps, India will awake to life and freedom.” With this speech, India woke to an era of independence, marking the culmination of the long-drawn freedom struggle against the oppressive British colonial regime. This journey to a new India, was marked by the leadership and sacrifices of crores of Indians, who also laid the foundation principles of an emerging nation.

1.1. Legacy of the British colonial rule

The British East India Company, which arrived in India in 1608, at the port of Surat, established an empire occupying almost 2/3rd of India by the Revolt of 1857. The political control over such vast territories was bound to have an impact on virtually all spheres of Indian society. Post-Independence, the imprints of these effects of political contact are still visible in our society and hence it becomes imperative to discuss the changes brought about by the colonial rule over India.

Colonialism led to the complete but complex integration of India's economy with the world capitalist system but India's vast continental resources were **subverted to the needs of Britain's Industrial Revolution**. To suit the British industry, a peculiar structure of means of production and distribution was forced upon us. A large part of India's social surplus or savings was appropriated by the colonial state and mispent. India got back no equivalent economic, commercial or material returns from the economic drain. An important aspect of the underdevelopment of India was the denial of state support to industry and agriculture. The colonial state imposed free trade in India and **refused to give tariff protection** to Indian industries as Britain, western Europe, and the United States had done. Ultimately, the net savings in the Indian economy from 1914 to 1946 was only 2.75 percent of Gross National Product (GNP). The small size of saving may be contrasted with the net savings in 1971-75 when they constituted 12 percent of GNP.

The policies of the colonial rule left us with economic backwardness, de-industrialization, ruralisation of Indian economy, lopsided industrial development and a limited transport revolution. Dadabhai Nauroji in his book “Poverty and Un-British Rule in India” (1901) propounded the **Drain of Wealth** theory which showed the ways and means via which India was drained of its wealth by Britain to the tune of 200-300 million pounds a year. Similarly, R.C. Dutt in his book “Economic History of India” (1902) analysed the economic policies of Britishers in India since 1757 (Battle of Plassey). It highlighted **economic exploitation** of India on a large scale. According to British Economist Angus Maddison, India's share of the world economy collapsed from 24.4% to 4.2% between 1700 and 1950.

After getting political control over Bengal (Battle of Plassey-1757) Britishers started to hire agents called *gomasthas* to make local weavers and artisans sign bonds, usually compellingly, to deliver goods to the Company, at fixed prices. This **destroyed indigenous handicraft industries** and artisans employed in different sectors of the economy. Further, Britishers imposed heavy tariff duties on Indian products whereas British goods were allowed cross-boundary movement without hindrances. This reduced the competitiveness of Indian products at pan Indian as well as the global level.

De-industrialisation led to the decline of many cities and resulted in ruralisation of India, with many artisans returning back to villages and taking up agriculture. Agricultural policies followed by the British, like Permanent Settlement (Bihar, Bengal, Orissa), Ryotwari Settlement (Madras and Bombay) and Mahalwari Settlement (Punjab and Central Province) resulted in heavy taxation and impoverishment of the peasants. Forced **commercialization of agriculture** via systems such as the *tinkathia* system (under which farmers were forced to grow indigo on 3/20th of their landholding) of Bengal caused economic hardship for the peasants. The net effect of British policies was a heavy load on the Indian agriculture sector and rural economy, which has its impinges even till today.

However, by 1940, India also had 65,000 miles of paved roads and nearly 42,000 miles of railway tracks. These numbers though look impressive, tell a false story about the Indian colonial administration. When the first railroad was laid between Mumbai and Thane in 1853, the intended objective of the contemporary Governor-General of India, Lord Dalhousie was to **spread British goods to the last possible village in India**. Thus, in the absence of the indigenous Industrial Revolution, developments in the transport sector served the purpose of British economic interests.

British rule over India resulted in the intermingling of ordinary people which had a great **impact on the Indian society** as it started to align itself along western ideals while keeping Indian traditions intact. This resulted in **division of society based on 'class'**. In the 18th and 19th century, Indians of various folds took westernized education and thereafter started to work under the Company administration. This class often called 'intelligentsia' constituted a middle class in due course of time. Similarly, the promotion of modern industries towards the end of the 19th century onwards created the 'proletariat' (working) and 'bourgeois' (capitalist) class in Indian society.

Moreover, the policy of **divide and rule** followed by British Raj after 1857 revolt ultimately resulted in India's partition and a permanent **religious schism** in the society. This problem not only is persistent today, but is also a dominant discourse in the Indian political arena. Additionally, the reservation policies followed by Britishers for certain backward sections of the society, under the guise of separate electorate, was continued in amended form in post-independent India. They were also responsible for the origination of certain caste-based terms in India on which there has been a wide debate in post-independent India. For example, the word Schedule Caste was introduced for the depressed classes in the Government of India Act 1935. The British government had also started conducting **census** i.e. official count of the population in the country in 1872. Since then the practice of decennial census has become a norm in India and has been continued post-independence. Population count helps in the formulation of government policies as per the changing needs of the society as reflected in Census.

The **Parliamentary system** is the biggest political legacy of the Britishers in India. Starting from Regulating Act 1773 to the Government of India Act 1935, this system was adopted by the founding fathers of the nation, post-independence, due to its familiarity among Indians. Even the **Indian Bureaucracy** was an invention of the Britishers in India that started during the era of Lord Cornwallis. After independence, this categorization was removed and the bureaucracy was continued as Indian Administration Services and is considered as a steel frame of India as it has provided a solid foundation of administration in India. Britishers were also responsible for implementing a **non-religious and secular law system** in India. The Indian Penal Code which was enacted in 1860, still forms the base of the existing legal system. The concepts of an independent judiciary, equality before the law and the rule of law are British in origin and have been adopted by the fathers of our nation post-independence.

After the famous '**Macaulay's Minutes**' (1835), English was adopted as the common language of education in India. This language forms the base of the higher education system in the country and also acts as an official language of communication in between Hindi speaking and Non-Hindi speaking states. The **Woods Dispatch of 1854** which is also called the *Magna Carta* of English education in India proposed University education system. This system still persists in the country with select few top educational universities catering to the vast majority of people. The education that Britishers provided was devoid of technical and science studies and mostly focused upon philosophy and social sciences. Further, it was inaccessible as Universities and higher educational institutions were located in capital towns only, with low means of transportation. Britishers also shrugged off the responsibility of education of the masses which ultimately resulted in nearly 82 percent illiteracy in 1951. Enforcing the English language among masses, divided society along the lines of Anglicists and Orientalists, a controversy which persists in society even till today. This kind of faulty education system was inherited by India after independence, which the Indian government is still trying to rectify with varying degrees of success.

The **healthcare system was totally neglected** by the British government in India. Due to exploitative policies of the Britishers, **famines and epidemics** were intermittent phenomena in India. Despite this state of misery, Britishers chose to tackle the problem as and when it arose, rather than building an institutional mechanism for it. Ultimately, it led to the dismal healthcare system in India and rural areas particularly bore the maximum brunt of it. In 1943, there were only 10 medical colleges turning out 700 graduates every year and 27 medical schools turning out nearly 7,000 licentiates. In 1951, there were only about 18,000 graduate doctors, most of them to be found in cities. **Electricity and a modern water supply system was unknown** in villages and absent in a large number of towns. Epidemics of smallpox, plague and cholera and diseases like dysentery, diarrhoea, malaria and other fevers carried away millions every year. Malaria alone affected one-fourth of the population.

It is a widely known fact that the Britishers furthered their political interest in India to preserve their economic interests. It is true that these exploitative policies crippled India in many ways but this also has certain **positive** aspects. The foremost among them is the **unification of India**. The means of transportation along with the modern technique of printing which was started by Britishers on wide-scale helped early nationalists to spread ideas of nationalism and patriotism. For example, books like Poverty and Un-British Rule in India and various other journals were used to criticize British policies. A uniform politico-administrative system for the first time established political unity within India and thus was continued by the founding fathers post-independence. The common language or lingua franca- English, was enforced in India. It helped people from different areas and speaking different languages to converse with each other which helped in fostering unity. Finally, the western ideals of liberty, equality and the rule of law brought about various social changes for good. For example, women's rights, movements against casteism and untouchability etc. were directly influenced by western ideas which have helped to reduce inequality in Indian society. The net result of all these factors was the emergence of nationalism and unification of the country as an **unintended consequence** of the British policies. And ultimately it was this unity that forced the British to quit India on 15th August 1947.

1.2. Legacy of the Indian National Movement

The country became independent on 15th August 1947, due to the consistent efforts of many nationalists and patriots under the able leadership of our founding fathers. This struggle is cumulatively called The Indian National Movement that lasted from 1857 to 1947. Such a large-scale political struggle spanning almost 90 years was bound to have a profound impact on the social, economic and political scenario of India and changed the course of the journey of India as a nation. Due to this impact, major changes occurred in the society which can be seen even in contemporary India.

The Preamble to the **Indian Constitution** defines India as a 'Sovereign Socialist Secular Democratic Republic' nation. However, the genesis of this definition can be traced back to the national movement. A prominent leader of the Indian National Congress, Dadabhai Nauroji, was the first person to take up the idea of '**Swaraj**' which was tantamount to 'Dominion Status' enjoyed by white colonies of the United Kingdom such as Australia and Canada. This demand of *Swaraj* was replaced by the demand of '*Poorna Swaraj*' i.e. total independence, in the 1929 Congress Session of Lahore and 26th January was decided to be celebrated as Independence Day. This date is now celebrated as the Republic Day of India and holds significance in the democratic journey of the country.

Karachi session of 1931, was presided by Sardar Patel and it was here that the Congress adopted a resolution on '**Fundamental Rights and Economic Policy**'. For the first time, the resolution tried to define what would be the meaning of *Swaraj* for common people. Perhaps the biggest political contribution of the national movement was the Constitution itself. The ideals of Democracy, Universal Adult Franchise, Liberty, Equality, Fraternity among others, were learned by founding fathers during the course of the national movement itself and have made India what it is today. The ideal of Unity in Diversity was imperative to hold a multi-religious and multi-diverse country together and one of the essential parameters of it was the

linguistic formation of states. This demand was first made by Lokmanya Tilak and accepted by political leadership post-independence after initial reluctance. For an independent country, its foreign policy defines its status in the international arena. In this regard, the policy of Panchsheel and Non-Alignment which was adopted under the able leadership of Jawaharlal Nehru, has imprints of ideals of the national movement in it.

For any country, stability in its society is an essential parameter for prosperity and this stability within Indian society was fostered during Indian National Movement. The biggest problem of Indian society was the presence of the system of untouchability. The practice of untouchability had not only divided society irrationally but was also the major hindrance towards its unity. With the efforts of leaders like Dr. Ambedkar and Mahatma Gandhi, Indian masses were sensitized against this malice during the course of national movement. After independence, to give firm effect to the practice of untouchability, **Article 17** was added to the Indian Constitution which **prohibited untouchability** in India. Gender bias or gender discrimination was another major issue that was taken up during the national movements. With national movement turning towards masses, **women participation** also increased and broke traditional shackles of forced aloofness. With more and more women coming out in the open, their problems too got highlighted and feminist movements rose in India. Today, to enhance the political participation of women, the Constitution has provided for reservation for women in local bodies under the 11th and 12th schedule.

The policy of divide and rule adopted by the British rulers after independence had a definite impact on Indian society via its partition in 1947 on religious lines. However, the **secular credentials** of the national movement kept alive the multi-diverse and multi-religious nature of Indian society by enshrining secularism under various provisions of the Indian Constitution. Finally, **equality** was ensured in the Constitution under Fundamental Rights, in order to foster unity among different sections of the Indian society. The necessity of such an action was felt during the course of the national movement itself, as divisions had caused problems in mass agitation.

The economic critique of the British Raj become more stringent in India after Dadabhai Nauroji propounded the Drain of Wealth theory. In its Karachi session (1931), Indian National Congress adopted Resolution on Fundamental Rights and Economic Policies which had **socialist-leaning** due to influence of Jawaharlal Nehru. Similarly, pre-independence India had witnessed various economic plans put forth by numerous eminent personalities. Prominent among them was **Bombay plan** (1944) given by 8 big industrialists including J. R. D. Tata, G. D. Birla, P. Thakurdas, Kasturbhai Lalbhai, Sir Shri Ram, Ardeshir Dalal, A. D. Shroff and John Matthai. The plan envisaged the capitalist model of the economy for the country. After independence, these different ideologies were coalesced into the **Socialist Model of Mixed Economy**, which was adopted for India in order to carry out an equitable distribution of resources and also to prevent concentration of wealth. The need for economic planning was first highlighted in the 1938 Haripura session of the Indian National Congress in which the **National Planning Committee** was established under Jawaharlal Nehru. This trend of the planned economy was continued by establishing the **Planning Commission and the National Development Council** post-independence.

During National movement, the Faizpur Session of the Congress (1936) which was held in Maharashtra, was the first rural session of INC. This session directed the attention of the Congress towards the **agrarian problems** faced by the countrymen. Thereafter, Congress Working Committee Election Manifesto in 1945 provided for **abolition of Zamindari** and when India became independent one of the earliest steps towards modernization was **land reforms** and abolition of *Zamindari*. Since the 19th century itself, nationalists demanded **technical education** in Indian universities and focus on the industrialisation of India. The post-independence government itself undertook heavy industrialisation despite having a vast agrarian population which is an everlasting legacy of the national movement in contemporary times.

The Father of the Nation, **Mahatma Gandhi** also had a profound impact on the Indian social, economic and political sphere as a torchbearer. His ideals of **Panchayat** at the village level were enshrined into the Indian Constitution under Article 40 and now act as the third tier to promote grass-root democracy.

Similarly, his ideal of the self-sufficient village was adopted post-independence and given priority due to the huge rural and agrarian population in the country. Gandhiji's principles of **secularism, tolerance**, respect towards elders, among others have formed the moral principles of Indian society even in the contemporary world. His insistence on **truth and non-violence** is reflected in government policies and initiatives as well as in shaping the base of the Indian policymaking system. For example, the limited role of the armed forces in the governance of the country, after freedom. In the field of education, Gandhiji had promoted his scheme of education widely known as the '**Wardha Scheme of Education**' which imparted **vocational education** to students in order to make them self-sufficient. However, this type of education could not gain much prominence in post-independent India due to the emphasis of the government on technical education. The New Education policy-2020 though, has re-introduced the concept of vocational education for children from class 6 onwards.

The past always has a bearing on the present and future which can be seen from the study of Indian National Movements. The position that India is in today is because of the solid foundation of ideals and policies provided during the National Movements. Today, India boasts of its **soft power status, truth and non-violence, industrialized credentials and multi-religious society**. However, none of this could have been possible without the struggle of the National Movement that our forefathers fought in order to bring independence closer and closer. Ultimately, the legacy of the National Movement has shaped today's India and it will continue to guide future generations to build a better India.

The freedom struggle laid the foundation of the independent nation in the making. Discuss.

1.3. Concerns after Independence

On August 15, 1947, British India was **divided on religious grounds** into two separate dominions of India and Pakistan. The division was a fatal blow to the nation and once partition was declared, there was a **mass exodus of people** from both India and Pakistan across the new borders according to their choices. There was a **scarcity of food** and other consumer goods, and a fear of administrative breakdown. Thus, independence had been accompanied by a multitude of problems, and centuries of backwardness, prejudice, inequality, and ignorance still weighed on the land. In this section, we will throw light on some of those challenges and how they were tackled by Indian leadership of that time.

The first and foremost concern was to **rehabilitate millions of refugees** who had crossed the border to settle down in India and to restore law and order machinery which had fallen down due to partition. The date of 16th August 1946 holds primary significance in the history of communalism in India as it was on this date, that 'Direct Action Day' was announced by Muhammad Ali Jinnah which led to large-scale violence between Hindus and Muslims in the city of Calcutta and spread to the entire nation. **Stopping this religious war** between the two major religions and shaping a nation that was united, yet accommodative of the diversity, was the next big concern of the nation. Also, the **fear of Balkanisation of India** was a reality as the question of Princely States had not been solved by the British administration while leaving. Thus, to integrate 565 Princely States into India was another task before the Indian leadership.

Another medium-term concern of the newly independent nation was to give to itself a supreme law of the land i.e. the **Constitution**, for which a Constituent Assembly was already existing. The country also had to build a representative democratic and civil libertarian political order by organizing **free and fair elections**. Establishing equality in a caste driven society and redistributing wealth among citizens to improve their standard of living via land reforms were other concerns in front of our founding fathers.

The long-term concerns included **restoring harmony** between the two dominant religions of the nation and to effectively bring about **national integration**. Moreover, the national leadership under Jawaharlal Nehru had been sure of **industrialization** of the country but its pattern was highly debated during that time. Hence, to establish a clear pattern of economic growth in the mostly agrarian country was

imperative. Evolving a **foreign policy** that would defend Indian independence and promote peace was another priority task, in a world increasingly engulfed by the Cold War.

Partition and its impact:

The immediate result of the partition was **communal riots** and mass casualties throughout India, destroying lives and wealth and disrupting harmony. The vulnerable sections such as **women and children were the main targets** of rioters which caused huge social tension. Partition and the violence which accompanied it, led to nearly **six million refugees** pouring into India having lost all their wealth. The Hindus and Sikhs in West Pakistan entered the Indian border by the shortest routes possible to evade rioters. There was also a mass exodus of the Muslim population who were on their way to the Pakistan border. Partition of India resulted in the communal migration from East Bengal as well, wherein the Hindus had to undergo severe adversity. The result was a huge refugee crisis, given the tight economic situation of the country. It also resulted in **demographic changes in bordering regions** such as Assam and Punjab.

The partition led to an **uneven distribution of area** and India had to share a greater burden of the population in proportion to land share. Migration involved a significant wealth shock for the households involved. Millions of people not only lost their livelihood but also had to leave their ancestral properties, which led to their penury. The flourishing **jute industry in East India was distorted** as the boundaries separating West Bengal from East Bengal separated the jute growing areas in East Pakistan from jute mills in West Bengal. India also had to bear the cost of rehabilitation of large numbers of refugees. As a result, India-Pakistan rivalry emerged over numerous issues. **Kashmir conflict** too came to the fore as a constant source of tension resulting in numerous border clashes. Another source of constant tension was the strong sense of insecurity among Hindus in East Bengal which emerged as a consequence of the communal character of Pakistan's political system. The myth of the two-nation theory was debunked when East Pakistan sought liberation from West Pakistan to form the independent nation of Bangladesh in 1971.

What were the major challenges that India faced right after independence? How were these challenges addressed?

1.4. Integration of Princely States

Even in the earlier stages of the Indian civilization there had rarely been an occasion when the whole country had completely been under a single government. The political integration of the country had never been possible. The beginning of the British domination in India was through a series of treaties with the various rulers of the country from time to time. Even after deploying the armed forces, the British Government was not fully successful in extending its control to the entire country. Till the breaking out of the First World War, nationalism in India did not grow to such an extent so as to pose a threat to the British rule and there was no upsurge of mass consciousness for the establishment of a responsible government in the country.

1.4.1. The Paramountcy

Paramountcy was a special system concerning the **relationship of the states with the British government**. The states had to **cooperate** with the government on matters of **all-India policies** in respect of railways, post and telegraphs, and defence. The crown representatives sometimes used to station an army, construct railways on a part of the states, and used to take the administrative control of the area. States had a series of agreements with the British government. In addition to that, the crown representative could seek **military assistance** from the Government of India in case he found it necessary for the protection of the ruler from external aggression or an internal revolt.



Figure 1: Princely States before and after Independence

The position of the Indian states and their relations with the British Government were well-defined through various treaties and declarations by the British Government. The position of the states became very much critical at the time of the transfer of power in 1947. It was a question whether, with the lapse of Paramountcy, the states would attain complete freedom or not. There were two **possibilities** with regard to the position of the states **after the lapse of Paramountcy**:

1. The states might become **completely free and independent sovereign states** without having any control exerted over them by the two newly formed states of India and Pakistan. Such a proposition would have led to the complete balkanization of the country.
2. With the withdrawal of the British power, the states would develop **new relationship with either of the States**-India or Pakistan, depending upon the **geographical continuity and political situation** prevalent. In order to maintain the unity of the country, such a solution was a must, but it was difficult to ascertain whether the Princes of the states, liked to surrender their power and join the newly formed states as federating units.

The **Cabinet Mission Plan** of 16th May, 1946 gave a clear picture of the transfer of power and the position of the native states in the new setup of free India. It stated:

1. Provision would be made for the participation of the Indian states in the Constitution making body.
2. The British government would accept the decision of the State, if it wants to maintain status quo and not join any of the two nations, until it decides to exercise this option in future.

1.4.2. The options available with the States

Problems arose due to the British policy towards more than five hundred Princely States as their exact position was not clearly defined even after the departure of the British. The native Princes were allowed to join either of the two proposed countries according to their choice. A country, invested with such a large number of free states, could not have dreamt of political consolidation in such an environment. It was quite likely that those Princes could have formed a third force and contributed towards its disintegration rather than its further consolidation. Faced with such a critical and complex situation, the mantle of finding out a solution fell upon **Sardar Patel**. By tactful methods, by promising privy purses, by offering friendly advice,

and sometimes by stern and strong administrative measures, Patel could succeed in bringing all the rulers together, merging their states into the Indian Union without any bloodshed.

At the dawn of independence, being convinced that the Princely States should form a part of the overall Union of India, Patel wanted that **democratic governments should be established in the states** and the Princes should join the Indian Union as federating units. In the process of nation-building, he wanted the citizens of the states to join him. He believed that the will of the people was supreme, and sovereignty rested not with the king but with the people only.

As per the clauses of the Cabinet Mission Plan of May 16th, the states were to send 93 representatives to the Constituent Assembly and the Princely States would be represented by a Negotiating Committee. Patel realized that in order to counteract any design by the Princes; the Congress and the Constituent Assembly, should hold full powers. Accordingly, on December 21, 1946, K.M. Munshi moved a resolution in the Constituent Assembly that there should be a committee to confer with the Negotiating Committee of the States regarding the distribution of 93 seats allocated to the States in the Constituent Assembly. To negotiate with the various states, a new department called “**States Department**” was formed and Patel assumed its office on 5th July 1947. As early as December 7, 1946, Patel made it clear that the Constituent Assembly would have the real authority to decide about the grouping of the states. He defined the policy of the Government of India with regard to the Princely States and persuaded them to accede to the Dominion of India on the subjects of-

1. Defence
2. Foreign Affairs
3. Communications.

Dr. Ambedkar too wanted that the native states should merge with the Indian Union and the States should realize that they could not remain independent, having only geographical boundaries with India and by acting against the will of the people.

1.4.3. Approach of Sardar Patel

Patel did not like to have confrontation with the rulers unless otherwise compelled. His approach towards the Princes was a peaceful one, with friendly advice and psychological treatment, but he did not rule out confrontation as the last resort. He explained that by acceding to the Indian Union, the future of the country, and simultaneously the future of the Princely States, would be brighter; even peace would return to the country. He thus gave a personal touch to the problem of the Princely States by considering the Princes as his friends and was sure that his appeal would rouse patriotism in the minds of native rulers.

Patel's approach to the Princes was multifarious in its composition. He knew that his appeal to the Princes might not influence all the rulers. Some rulers, who would not respond to his appeal, would need a different but a stronger treatment. When his appeal failed, Patel did not hesitate to go to the extent of warning the Princes with the worst consequences. He indicated that at the moment when the country was facing a heavy foreign onslaught, the Princes must follow the line of thinking of the government and the citizens of the respective states. He even pointed out that he would not hesitate even in taking strong measures with military contingency.

In spite of his strong action and warning, Patel behaved most sympathetically and realistically with the rulers. He persuaded the rulers to accede to the Indian Union and convinced them that there was no other alternative to accession. He also created popular opinion among the citizens of the native states, regarding the idea of merging with India. The tremendous changes of bringing the states under the banner of the Indian Union were brought about in a short span of two years. The entire process went on peacefully through democratic and peaceful means without the use of any military power, except in case of Hyderabad.

Initially the rulers' response was not favourable as most of them thought about their own sovereignty after the lapse of Paramountcy. The attitude of the rulers, however, softened when they took a realistic stock of the situation. Patel urged that the states, which were already represented in the Constituent Assembly, should immediately accede in respect of three subjects which would enable them to have a direct voice in shaping the policy of the Central Government. The States' Negotiating Committee, headed by Sardar, finalized the draft of the Instrument of Accession and Standstill Agreement on July 31st, 1947.

Patel kept the sacrifice of the rulers foremost in mind, he tried to look after their interests by safeguarding the payment of their privy purses. He also acknowledged the ability of some of the rulers by appointing them as *Rajpramukh* and afterwards as Governors or Ambassadors. It was Patel's large-heartedness that enabled him to ensure that the rulers did not find them in hardship after relinquishing their offices. The process of integration was so quick that by 15th August, 1947, all the native states except Hyderabad, Junagadh and Kashmir signed the Instrument of Accession.

"Patel, by integrating Native States, accomplished a silent and a bloodless revolution". Discuss.

Role of Mountbatten:

Lord Mountbatten believed that ensuring the accession of princely states to India was crucial in order to reach a negotiated settlement with Congress for the transfer of power. He was trusted by most of the Indian Princes and was a personal friend of many of them, especially the Nawab of Bhopal. His close association with the Queen and his position as the first Governor General of India, gave faith to the Princes that he would be in a position to ensure that independent India adhered to any terms that might be agreed upon. Mountbatten used this influence with the princes to push them towards accession. He declared that the British Government would not grant dominion status to any of the princely states, nor would it accept them into the British Commonwealth. This meant that British Crown would sever all connections with the states unless they joined either India or Pakistan. He also pointed out that the Indian subcontinent was one economic entity, and that the states would suffer the most if this link was broken. Mountbatten engaged in a personal dialogue with reluctant princes, for example the Nawab of Bhopal, who he asked through a confidential letter to sign the Instrument of Accession making Bhopal part of India. This letter was to be kept locked up in his safe and was to be handed to the States Department on 15th August, only if the Nawab did not change his mind before then, which he was free to do. The Nawab agreed, and did not renege over the deal.

1.4.4. The integration and aftermath

The accession of Indian States went side by side with their physical integration and reorganization, 310 states were organized into six unions while 215 were merged with their neighbouring provinces. Another 5 states were converted into Chief Commissioners' Provinces, but Hyderabad and Mysore were left untouched initially. In all, 15 administrative units came into existence by the late 1940s. Responsible governments were set up in all these units, and the former rulers were given the title of "*Rajpramukh*". Besides, they were allowed to retain their personal privileges, and tax-free privy purses were granted to them. The 1956 reorganisation of states left almost all the former states totally changed. It may be observed that Patel's approach to the problems of Princely States had some strategic considerations:

1. The first step of acceding to the Union in respect of three subjects was a wise decision, as it was acceptable to the rulers due to their inexperience in those matters.
2. Patel was fully aware of the political, social and economic conditions of the various states. He knew the weakness of the Princes of such states, so he tried to take advantage of the situation.
3. Patel could take Mountbatten into full confidence and the Cabinet entrusted the Viceroy to negotiate with the rulers regarding the accession and also to deal with Hyderabad.
4. He wanted not only a geographical integration, but also social and economic integration. He knew that once the country was integrated geographically, it would be easier to undertake the work for

social, constitutional and financial harmony.

5. Patel felt that the payment of privy purses was not a big thing in comparison to the amount spent by the rulers. He appealed to the members to give a realistic consideration to that aspect and agreed with him. Sardar, however, kept the issue open to review at a later date by carefully formulating the provision of the Privy Purse.

Unlike the scheme of 1935, our new Constitution is not an alliance between democracies and dynasties, but really a union of the Indian people built on the basic concept of sovereignty of the people. It removed all barriers between the people of the states and the people of provinces and achieves for the first time the objective of a strong democratic India. All the states came under the Indian Union on November 26th, 1949, when the members signed the final draft of the Constitution. Six years thereafter, came the States' Reorganisation Act and reference to Part-B states was removed and the Princely States merged into the Indian Union in all respects.

Patel's efforts for the constitutional guarantee of the Privy Purse met with a lot of opposition. Through the 26th Amendment to the Constitution, Articles 291 and 362 were repealed. With the introduction of Art 363A, the provision of the Privy Purse granted to the rulers of the erstwhile Indian States and certain personal privileges granted to them had been taken away.

The limited scope of the Instruments of Accession and the promise of a wide-ranging autonomy and the other guarantees they offered, gave sufficient comfort to many rulers, who saw this as the best deal they could strike, given the lack of support from the British, and popular internal pressures. Between May 1947 and the transfer of power on 15th August 1947, the vast majority of states signed Instruments of Accession. A few, however, held out. Some simply delayed signing the Instrument of Accession. The biggest problems, however, arose with a few border States

1. Junagadh- actually did accede to Pakistan,
2. Hyderabad and Kashmir- declared that they intended to remain independent.

"Hyderabad does not see the writing on the wall, it goes the way Junagadh has gone. Pakistan attempted to set off Kashmir against Junagadh. When we raised the question of settlement in a democratic way, they (Pakistan) at once told us that they would consider it, if we applied that policy to Kashmir. Our reply was that we would agree to Kashmir if they agreed to Hyderabad." - Sardar Patel

1.4.4.1. Junagadh

Junagadh created a big problem for the solidarity of the country. It was one of the strongest states in Saurashtra at that time and was ruled by a Muslim ruler but the inhabitants were mostly Hindus. The ninth and the last Nawab Mohammad Mahabat Khanji III ascended the throne as a minor on January 22, 1911. He was at the helm of affairs till 1947, when the drama of the instrument of accession unfolded at Junagarh. In the last months of British India, his Dewan was a Muslim League politician named Shah Nawaz Bhutto (father of future Pakistani Prime Minister Zulfikar Bhutto).

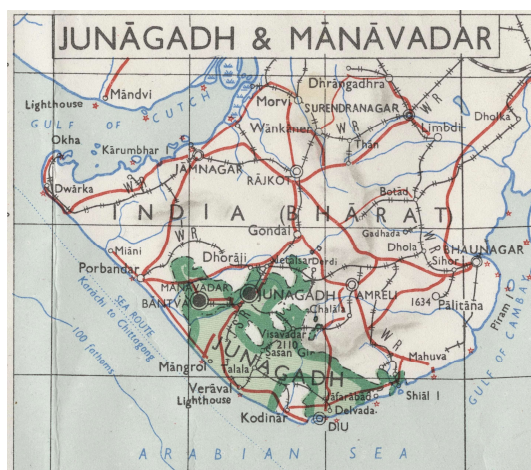


Figure 1: Junagadh at the time of Independence (University of Nottingham blogs)

In the beginning, Junagadh assured that it would accede to India. Till 14th August, 1947, Junagadh did not accede either to India or to Pakistan. However, on 15th August, 1947, the people of the state were shocked on hearing that the state had acceded to Pakistan and that the accession had been accepted by the other party. The Government of India press communiqué dated 25th September, 1947, strongly denounced such action of Nawab and asserted firmness in dealing with the situation. Under the leadership of Shamaldas Gandhi, Kathiawad People's Front was formed to mobilize people to step up the efforts from within, to join India. It was decided in New Delhi, to pressurize Junagadh into reversing their decision. This began by putting an embargo on the state by stopping the supplies of essential items like food and coal. Indian troops were deployed around the region as a show of strength. Bhutto kept on asking Pakistan for military and financial assistance, but the help never came. This was because of the fact that, before independence, Jinnah had not been properly briefed about the disarray Pakistani military was in, after the partition by his (British) military chiefs.

Violence started in the state and encouraged by the Kathiawad People's Front (provisional government), the subjects of the State started a demonstration against the Nawab, who fled to Karachi with his family. On October 27th, Bhutto fled to Pakistan after requesting the Union Government to take over the administration. A plebiscite was organized by the Government of India on February 29, 1949 where out of 2,01,457 registered voters, 1,90,870 exercised their franchise, of which only 90 cast their votes in favour of Pakistan.

According to Patel, the Government had tried its best through negotiations, to come to a peaceful settlement in the interest of the country. Though the things were moving in the proper direction, the Government of India had to take drastic steps due to a sudden change in the Nawab's policy, to bring the state under its control. Patel said that "in such cases possession is nine-tenths of the law".

Finally, Junagadh was merged with Kathiawad, which later became a part of the Gujarat state. The way Junagadh was made to accede to India was very clear from legal and democratic point of view. Junagadh's accession to Pakistan raised a lot of public controversy but from the point of the guidelines of the British Government's partition programme, Junagadh had to accede to India on geographical and economic grounds, even though the state was ruled by a Muslim ruler. Taking the population into consideration, the state having a majority of Hindus should be a part of India. On similar consideration, Bahawalpur, a state adjacent to India and Pakistan, was allowed to accede to Pakistan. The Pakistan government still recognizes Nawab Mohammad Jahangir Khanji, the grandson of the last Nawab Mohammad Mahabat Khanji, as the present Nawab of Junagarh and installed him with all pomp as the eleventh Nawab of a State in exile on October 9, 1991.

1.4.4.2. Hyderabad

Most of the states acceded to India while Hyderabad, the largest of the native states with a Muslim ruler and 86% Hindu population created a threat to the solidarity of the country. It was located in the south-central region of the Indian subcontinent, and was ruled, from 1724 until 1948, by a hereditary Nizam. In 1947, under the rule of the then Nizam, Osman Ali Khan, it was the oldest existing Muslim Empire in India.

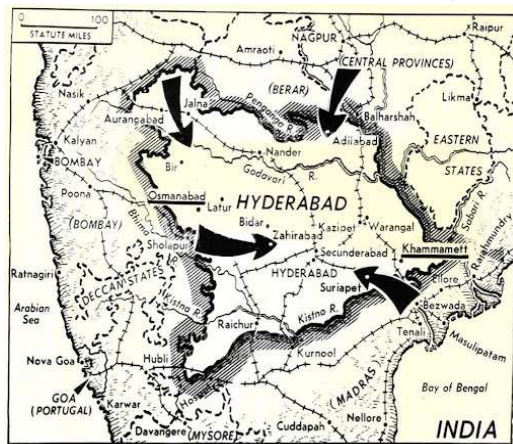


Figure 2: Operation Polo- Princely State of Hyderabad in 1948 (ebay, July 2010)

Although landlocked, with an area of over 200,000 sq. km and a population of over 16 million, Hyderabad was self-sufficient in food, cotton and coal. The Nizam owned over 10% of the land of the state and most of the rest was owned by large landlords and very rich nobles. The bulk of the population, both Muslims and Hindus, worked as factory hands, artisans, labourers and peasants. The Nizam had ascended the throne as far back as in 1911. It did not have any access to the sea but the Nizam had high aspirations and wanted to proclaim sovereignty, after the paramountcy was withdrawn. In order to negotiate with the Nizam, Lord Mountbatten was chosen and Sardar agreed to this. Sardar knew that, if the problem was handled by Mountbatten, it would be good for India since international and communal repercussions could be avoided. However, the decision on any point of controversy beyond the agreed formula was vested in the Congress High Command only.

The negotiations with the representatives of the Nizam started in July, 1947 but an accord could not be reached. Sardar clearly indicated that Nizam should accede to the Dominion of India in line with the Instrument of Accession prepared for the other states. Sardar stated that the Nizam should follow the same path as the other states and in case he did not agree to the same, he should agree to allow the people of the state to decide the issue of accession. But, in spite of the best efforts of Mountbatten, the negotiations failed. On 15th August, 1947, the same day India became independent, the Nizam declared the independence of Hyderabad. Ultimately with great reluctance an extension of two months was granted to Hyderabad to decide about the accession.

After some more discussions with a number of delegates from Hyderabad, some concessions were granted by Sardar to the Nizam and the Standstill Agreement was signed for one year while the collateral letters were signed on 29th November, 1947. The same day Sardar made a statement in the Constituent Assembly and explained that the period of one year granted to the Nizam would be helpful for final accession. Thus, he agreed with the settlement reached by the government on the ground that accession of Hyderabad would be peaceful. Lord Mountbatten also crafted an alternative proposal called the Heads of Agreement, which called for the disbandment of the Razakars, restriction of the Hyderabad army, the Nizam to hold a plebiscite and elections for a constituent assembly, and for eventual accession. While India would control Hyderabad's foreign affairs, the deal allowed Hyderabad to set up a parallel government and delay accession. The Nizam however, dismissed the plan therefore hastening the ultimate showdown.

In spite of Standstill Agreement for one year, the Nizam did not give up his hope of attaining

complete independence with the help of foreign powers. His doubtful actions, were reported to Sardar by K.M. Munshi, other trusted people and the reports of the news-papers regarding the reign of terror and the oppression of the Hindu community. The Nizam was supported by *Ittihad-ul-Muslimeen* party which in 1946-47 was getting increasingly radicalized by its new leader, Kasim Razvi. Under him, the Ittihad had developed a militia called the 'Razakars' whose armed members demanded an independent Hyderabad. The Razakars started arson and looting in the neighbouring States. The Razakars saw the entire struggle in communal light while the Congress on the other hand saw it as a fight between democracy and autocracy. As months passed the tension grew, as there were rumours of arms supply to Hyderabad from Pakistan and the flood of Hindu refugees kept flowing into adjoining Indian provinces. In Telangana, large groups of peasants, aided by the Communist Party of India and Andhra Mahasabha, revolted against local Hindu and Muslim landlords, and also came into direct confrontation with the Razakars, in what became known as the **Telangana Rebellion**. Meanwhile, parties like the Hyderabad State Congress were involved in non-violent protests against the Nizam's rule.

The Nizam wanted to represent his case to the Security Council to internationalize the issue. The Nizam's ambitions gained strength from the support of the Conservative Party of Britain. Even Winston Churchill stood in support of the Nizam and speaking in the House of Commons argued that Britain had a personal obligation not to allow one of its friendly states that had declared its sovereignty to be strangled, starved out or actually overborne by violence. The Nizam and specially the Razakars found further strength from the support shown by Pakistan. Jinnah had declared to Mountbatten that if Congress attempted to take over Hyderabad, every Muslim in the subcontinent would rise to defend it.

Operation Polo

When the situation became alarming, Sardar intimated Nehru that the time had come, to tell Hyderabad that the Nizam should accede unconditionally. Sardar sought information from Defence ministry and was informed that in case of any military action, it would not take more than three weeks to subdue the forces of Hyderabad. Though Nehru was hesitant due to the international reaction, Sardar was firm in his stand. It was decided that military would march into Hyderabad and C. Rajagopalachari, the then Governor-General called a meeting of the Cabinet to regularize the action. On 13th September, 1948, Indian troops invaded Hyderabad from all points of the compass in a campaign, code-named "Operation Polo". The name was chosen because at that time, Hyderabad state had 17 polo grounds, the largest number in India. The fighting lasted four days and was mostly between the Indian army and the Razakars. Around 32 Indian soldiers were killed in the operation while the losses suffered by Hyderabad state forces and irregular forces combined were 1,863 killed, 122 wounded, and 3,558 captured. Hyderabad was captured within a week's time. Though a lot of people were happy with the integration, there were some who were not. This led to many communal riots; according to very conservative estimates, around 27,000 to 40,000 died "during and after the police action".

There were suggestions regarding dividing Hyderabad into three linguistic parts, but Sardar indicated that this would be done at an appropriate time, if necessary. With the merger of the State with India, the next step for financial and social integration started automatically. For his final accession to India, the Nizam was rewarded with the designation of *Rajpramukh* (Governor) of the newly formed state of Hyderabad but resigned from this office when the states were re-organized in 1956 on linguistic basis and large parts of Hyderabad state went to Bombay State, Andhra Pradesh and Gujarat.

1.4.4.3. Kashmir

The state was ruled by a Hindu ruler, Maharaja Hari Singh, whereas the majority population was Muslim. It occupied a very important strategic position. Hari Singh, even though a Hindu, was equally hesitant about acceding to either India, as he felt that, his mostly Muslim subjects would not like joining a Hindu-majority nation, or Pakistan, an eventuality which he would personally prefer to avoid. He personally believed that Kashmir could exercise its right to stay independent, a belief, Sheikh Abdullah, the leader of Kashmir's largest political party- the National Conference, backed. On the other hand, Pakistan coveted the Himalayan

kingdom, while Indian leaders including Gandhi and Nehru, hoped that the kingdom would join India. Hari Singh signed a Standstill Agreement (preserving status quo) with Pakistan, but still withheld his decision by August 15.

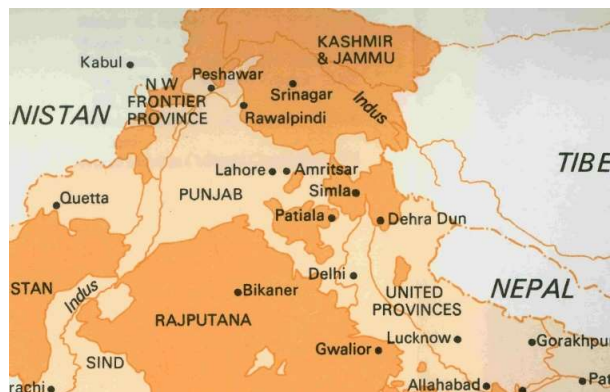


Figure 3: Jammu and Kashmir Princely State before 1947 (reddit.com)

Till August 15th, 1947, Kashmir did not accede to India. Sardar knew the importance of Kashmir from its geographical position and as the Minister of the States, wanted to tackle the problem himself, but Nehru wanted to deal with Kashmir, and Sardar did not object to it. Pakistan, concerned about the lack of movement on the front, attempted to force the issue by permitting the incursions of tribals from the North-West Frontier, followed by regular forces. On October 22, 1947, about 5,000 tribesmen led by Pakistani Army regulars attacked the region and quickly captured large parts of it. Instead of exploiting their initial success, however, the tribesmen stopped to loot and plunder, which gave a breathing space to the Raja of Kashmir.

The question of sending the assistance of the Army of India to help the Maharaja rebuff an armed attack by the intruders, was discussed at a meeting. Such assistance came on the condition of the Maharaja signing the Instrument of Accession, which he then did in panic and made Kashmir a part of India, the same day, when the raiders were just five kilometres from Srinagar. India decided to send an agent to Kashmir and Kunwar Sir Daleep Singh was posted as an agent in Jammu. India offered military assistance to the Kashmiri Government, which lacked an organized military. Indian troops secured Jammu, Srinagar and the valley itself during the First Kashmir War, but the intense fighting flagged with the onset of winter, which made much of the state impassable.

Prime Minister Nehru, recognizing the degree of international attention brought to bear on the dispute, declared a ceasefire and sought **U.N. arbitration** with the promise of a plebiscite, a decision for which he would be forever targeted. Patel had argued against both, describing Kashmir as a bilateral dispute and its accession as justified by international law. Patel had feared that the U.N.'s involvement would stall the process and allow Pakistan to reinforce its presence in Kashmir. Additionally, the outcome of a plebiscite remained highly uncertain. At the insistence of Mountbatten, the Kashmir dispute was referred to the United Nations on 1st January, 1948, of which Patel was sceptical. There, India accused Pakistan of sending both regular troops and tribesmen into J&K. This led to the establishment of the **U.N. Commission in India and Pakistan** (UNCIP) by the Security Council to assess the claims and counterclaims of the two countries. Although Pakistan initially denied any involvement, it later on admitted that its army had been involved in the aggression.

On August 13, 1948, the UNCIP passed a resolution asking Pakistan to withdraw its troops and tribesmen from J&K. "Once Pakistan withdraws them, the administration by the local authorities needs to be restored, India will reduce its troops to the barest minimum and then a plebiscite will be held to ascertain the wishes of the people of the state." The cease-fire went into effect on January 1, 1949, and the cease-fire line became the Line of Control (LOC), which later became de-facto border of India and Pakistan.

By taking the matter to the U.N., India internationalized the issue and made Pakistan a party to the

issue. By signing the Instrument of Accession, however, Maharaja Hari Singh had made J&K, a part of India. This was completely legal under the Indian Independence Act of 1947, signed by both India and Pakistan, which gave sovereignty of the state to Maharaja Hari Singh after the lapse of British Paramountcy. The Act contained no provision for ascertaining the wishes of the people of the Princely States through plebiscite. It was thus completely wrong on the part of India to agree to a plebiscite in a territory that was a legal part of India. Nevertheless, the plebiscite was conditional upon Pakistan withdrawing its troops and tribesmen from the state and restoration of the administration to the local authorities. In last 50 years, Pakistan has not fulfilled the first two conditions.

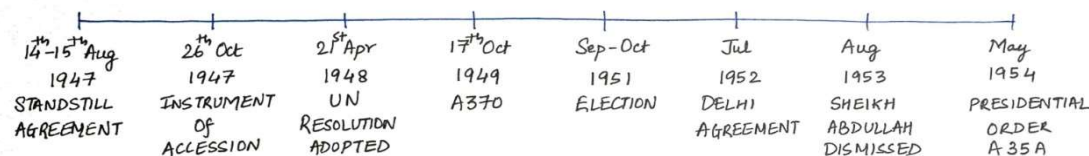


Figure 4: Timeline of Kashmir issue

With the accession of the State of Jammu and Kashmir to India, jurisdiction in matters of External Affairs, Defence and Communications was transferred to the Government of India and the Union Parliament was given power to make laws for the State for the purposes of those three matters only. In June 1949, Yuvraj Karan Singh, on the advice of his Council of Ministers nominated four representatives to the Indian Constituent Assembly. Whereas all the other 564 Princely States decided to surrender all their residual autonomy to the Indian Union and accepted all the terms of the Indian Constitution in full, the State of Jammu and Kashmir decided to retain its autonomy. Moreover, under clause (7) of the Instrument of Accession, the State of Jammu and Kashmir did not commit itself to the acceptance of any future Constitution of India nor fetter its discretion to enter into agreements with the Government of India under any such future Constitution. So, the Government of Jammu and Kashmir did not accept the Constitution of India as a Constitution for the State.

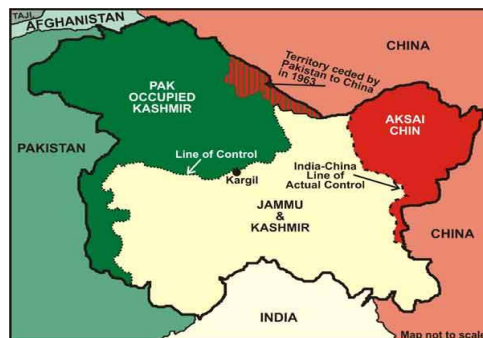


Figure 5: State of Jammu and Kashmir prior to revocation of A370 (indiandefencereview.com)

Even after accession to India Dominion, the State of Jammu and Kashmir continued to be governed by the Jammu and Kashmir Constitution Act, 1939. The Government of India could not force the State to accept the Constitution for that would violate the agreed terms of the association of Kashmir with India. The State had voluntarily surrendered three matters only and the Government of India could not enlarge the sphere of its jurisdiction at its own discretion. So, whereas the Constitution of India laid down Constitutional provisions, not only for the former Provinces of British India but also for the other Princely States as full-fledged Constituent units of the Union, it was not the same in case of Kashmir. In 1957, Kashmir officially integrated into the Union, but with special provisions made for it in the Constitution's Article 370. The north western portion, remaining under control of the Pakistan army remains today as Pakistan-administered Kashmir. In 1962, China occupied Aksai Chin, the north eastern region bordering Ladakh.

The merger with the Indian State was an extension of democracy to the people of the Princely States. Discuss.

2.RE-ORGANIZATION OF STATES

2.1. Political Reorganization of States

The 1947 partition of India on communal lines had shaken the Indian leadership and therefore, they were scared that the demand for the linguistic reorganization of India might lead to the Balkanisation of India. At the time of Independence, India was divided into 565 Princely States, which were given the choice to join either of the two Independent states i.e. India or Pakistan. However, these Princely States were successfully merged into India by 1950 by the efforts of Jawaharlal Nehru and Sardar Patel. The Constitution in 1950 contained a four-fold classification of the states of the Indian Union:

1. Part-A: It comprised the erstwhile nine governor's provinces of British India.
2. Part-B: The erstwhile Princely States with legislatures (nine in number) were added to this part.
3. Part-C: All the previous chief commissioner's province of British India and remaining Princely States (total 10 in number) were added to this part.
4. Part D: It included the Andaman and Nicobar Islands.

The classification of these states was done on the basis of administrative convenience and not on a linguistic basis. This setup could not meet the regional aspirations of the people who demanded the linguistic organization of the states. Henceforth, the wave of linguistic division of states was again sparked in the newly independent India.

Linguistic reorganisation demands and the British government

The demand for linguistic states in India emerged for the first time in 1874 during the British regime, when Sylhet was transferred from Bengal to Assam. The people of Sylhet protested against this transfer on the ground that they formed a part of the Bengali-speaking group; hence their demand for a reunion with Bengal is genuine. In 1876, the Oriya speaking people also demanded a separate state on the basis of language. Bal Gangadhar Tilak also supported this demand for linguistic reorganization for the sake of the homogeneity and development of the people via his Marathi newspaper 'Kesari' in 1891.

The British Indian government under the Governor-General Lord Curzon, divided the Bengal area on administrative and linguistic basis in 1905. (Though the real motive was to divide Hindu-Muslim unity in India. It was annulled in 1911's Delhi darbar after a widespread agitation by the nationalists). In 1912, Bengal was further bifurcated. Bihar and Orissa were separated from Bengal to form the 'Bihar and Orissa Province' and their boundaries were fixed on linguistic lines. The Telugu speaking people had been holding conferences in support of their demand for a separate Andhra Province since 1913. The Kannada speaking people had been demanding a separate Karnataka province since 1916 on the same lines. Various organizations like Karnataka Vidya Vardhak Sangha and Ekikarana Sabha were part of this agitation.

The Muslim League made similar efforts in separating Sind from Bombay and it succeeded when Sindh was declared a separate province with effect from April 1, 1936 on linguistic lines. After the Government of India Act 1935, the province of Bihar and Orissa was bifurcated, creating a separate Orissa province in 1936 on the recommendation of the Joint Parliamentary Committee. The setting up of Orissa in 1936 is an example of British acceptance of the linguistic principle for states; though this was not granted because of a people's movement, but by considerations of administrative expediency in Bengal province. After the creation of these provinces, the movements for creating new provinces on a linguistic basis started among Andhras, Kannadiyas, and Malayalees. But the British government did not attempt to create provinces on linguistic basis.

Indian National Congress: Pre-Independence period

The Indian National Congress also, from time to time, supported the demand for creation of provinces on linguistic basis. Congress supported the *Andhradesa* Movement that was started in 1913 for separate Andhra State. In 1916, as the first step in this direction, Congress formed the **Provincial Congress Committees** for different regions to support the demand for the creation of provinces on linguistic ground. Such Provincial Committees had already been formed for Bihar in 1908 and then for Sind and Andhra in 1918. Mahatma Gandhi also supported the linguistic reorganization demand as in 1918 he said that unless we give Hindi its national

status and the provincial languages their new place in the life of the people, all the talk of *Swaraj* is useless.

At Nagpur Session in 1920, Congress passed a resolution on the formation of linguistic provinces in India. The Communist movement also supported the linguistic claims (The move was opposed by C. Rajagopalachari). In 1927 Madras session, the Congress supported the Sind, Andhra and Karnataka demand of separate provinces. Motilal Nehru Committee of the All Parties Conference in 1928 also favoured this demand for the provinces to be regrouped on a linguistic basis. The Nehru Report of 1928 also contained the provision of organizing Indian provinces on linguistic lines. Even the Congress election manifesto of 1935 declared that it is freedom of each group and the territorial area within the nation to develop its own life and culture within the larger framework and for this purpose, such territorial areas or provinces should be considered and arranged on a linguistic and cultural basis. The Congress, after this, in its every session and election manifesto of 1945-46, reiterated its pledge to set up the linguistic provinces.

Scenario Post Independence

With the formation of the Constituent Assembly in 1946, again the demands popped up for the creation of states on linguistic basis. Soon after the partition in 1947, Prime Minister Nehru while conceding the linguistic principle remarked that 'first things must come first and the first thing is the security and stability of India'. The fear of Balkanisation changed the view of Indian National Congress leaders. Leaders like Nehru, Sardar Patel, Maulana Azad, Jaya Prakash Narayan, K. M. Munshi, and C. Rajagopalachari were also strongly opposed to the linguistic idea, fearing the weakening of the integration of the country. Due to rising regional pressure for linguistic organization of Indian States, Government of India and the Indian National Congress set up the following commissions to consider the possibility of state reorganization:

1. **S.K. Dhar Commission:** June 1948
Also known as the first Linguistic Provinces Commission of independent India, it was set up under the chairmanship of S. K. Dhar, a retired judge of the Allahabad High Court. The commission submitted its report in December 1948 and recommended the reorganization of states on the basis of administrative convenience rather than linguistic factor. Commission argued that the country was not yet free from the dangers of external aggression (The Kashmir war had just concluded in a cease-fire) and the Indian states have not been properly integrated. It said that the country could not bear the financial and administrative strain of creating new provinces at the time of its economic crisis situation after Independence.
2. **JVP Committee:** December 1948
The rise of resentment among the people led to the appointment of another Linguistic Provinces Committee by the Indian National Congress in December 1948. The members of the committee were Jawaharlal Nehru, Vallabhbhai Patel and Pattabhi Sitaramayya. Hence it was popularly known as JVP Committee. The committee in its April 1949 final report also rejected the language as the basis for a reorganization of Indian states.
3. **Fazl Ali Commission:** December 1953
At the time of the commencement of the Constitution in 1950, Indian states were organized on the basis of administrative convenience by grouping them into four parts.

Indian Territorial Division in 1950			
Part - A States	Part - B States	Part - C States	Part - D States
1. Assam 2. Bihar 3. Bombay 4. Madhya Pradesh	1. Hyderabad 2. Jammu and Kashmir 3. Madhya Bharat 4. Mysore	1. Ajmer 2. Bhopal 3. Bilaspur 4. Cooch-Behar	1. Andaman and Nicobar Islands

5. Madras	5. Patiala and East Punjab	5. Coorg	
6. Orissa	6. Rajasthan	6. Delhi	
7. Punjab	7. Saurashtra	7. Himachal Pradesh	
8. United Provinces	8. Travancore-Cochin	8. Kutch	
9. West Bengal	9. Vindhya Pradesh	9. Manipur	
		10. Tripura	

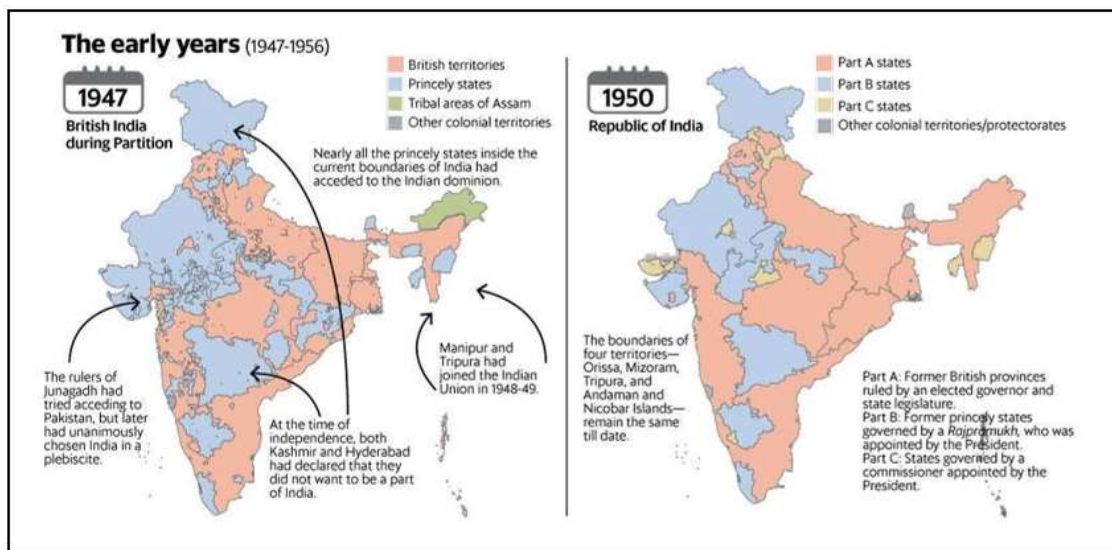


Figure 6: India in 1947 and 1950 (Livemint)

There were mass agitations against Dhar and JVP committee reports across India especially in the Andhra region, where a state leader Potti Sriramulu died in 1952 after 58 days of indefinite hunger strike. This event added fuel to the fire and the Central government was forced to separate Telugu speaking region from Madras. In this way, **Andhra Pradesh** became the **first state to be carved out** (from erstwhile Madras state) on a **linguistic basis** after independence on 1st November, 1953. The creation of a separate Andhra on linguistic lines intensified the other linguistic demands from various regions. Under popular pressure, the Government of India appointed a three-member **“States Reorganisation Commission”** in December 1953. It was chaired by Fazl Ali and the other two members were KM Panikkar and H N Kunzru. The States Reorganisation Commission submitted its report on September 1955. The commission broadly accepted language as the basis of the reorganization of states, however, it rejected the theory of ‘one language – one state’. It suggested to include the following four factors before making any plans for state reorganization:

- Unity and Security of the country must be preserved.
- Cultural and Linguistic homogeneity to be promoted.
- Financial, economic and administrative aspects must be considered.
- Planning must be done by keeping in the forefront the welfare of the people in each state as well as of the nation as a whole.

It also suggested to abolish the four-fold classification of states as done under the original Constitution and further suggested the creation of 16 states and 3 centrally administered territories. The commission rejected the demand for the formation of Punjabi Suba, a Sikh majority Punjab state and Haryana as separate Hindu majority state.

The recommendations of the Fazl Ali commission were accepted by the Government of India with minor modifications. Government did away with the fourfold distinction via the **States Reorganisation Act of 1956** and the **7th Constitutional Amendment Act of 1956**. Some of the areas were merged with adjacent states and while others were designated as union territories. Government also rejected the recommendations of the commission to form Vidarbha (a separate state by splitting majority Marathi speaking areas from

Madhya Pradesh) and Telangana State (as a separate Telugu speaking state from Andhra State). The following six Union Territories and fourteen States were formed by the Indian government in 1956:

1. Indian States:

a. Andhra Pradesh: by merging Telugu-speaking areas of Hyderabad state with the Andhra state	b. Kerala: by merging the Travancore-Cochin State with Malabar District of Madras state and Kasargod of South Kannada	c. Madhya Pradesh: by merging the Madhya Bharat state, Vindhya Pradesh state, and Bhopal state	d. Bombay: by merging Saurashtra state and Kutch state into that of the Bombay state
e. Assam	f. Jammu and Kashmir	g. Orissa	h. West Bengal
i. Bihar	j. Mysore: Coorg state was merged into it	k. Punjab: Patiala and East Punjab States Union (Pepsu) was merged into it	l. Rajasthan: Ajmer state was added to it
m. Uttar Pradesh	n. Madras		

2. Six Union Territories were:

a. Andaman and Nicobar Islands	b. Delhi	c. Himachal Pradesh
d. Laccadive, Minicoy and Amindivi Islands: created as a new territory after separating it from erstwhile Madras state	e. Manipur	f. Tripura

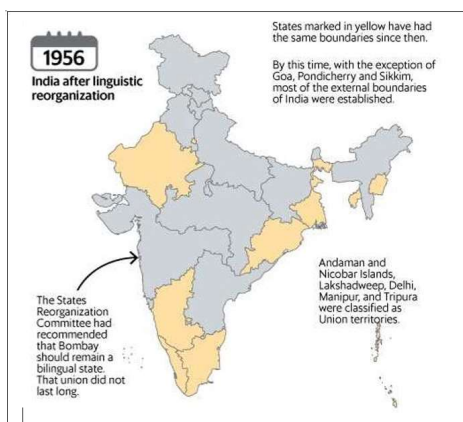


Figure 7: India after State Reorganization Act, 1956 (Livemint)

The first state reorganization of 1956 prepared the ground for further rise in regional demands for separate state formation. The states formed after 1956 were:

State	Related Information
Gujarat (1960)	It became the 15th state of India under the Bombay Reorganization Act, 1960 .
Nagaland (1963)	The Thirteenth Amendment Act, 1962 gave the status of a separate state to Nagaland.
Punjab and Haryana (1966)	Punjab State Reorganisation Act 1966 bifurcated the erstwhile Punjab state and formed Haryana as a separate state.

Himachal Pradesh (1971)	The State of Himachal Pradesh Act, 1970 elevated the status of Himachal Pradesh to a full-fledged State from earlier Union Territory.
Manipur (1972), Tripura (1972) and Meghalaya (1972)	North-Eastern Areas (Reorganisation) of 1971 elevated the status of two union territories of Manipur and Tripura to a full-fledged state. Meghalaya was also made a separate state under it. (The Twenty-Second Amendment Act of 1969 had made Meghalaya an autonomous state within the state of Assam). It also separated Mizoram and Arunachal Pradesh from Assam and conferred them the status of Union Territories.
Sikkim (1975)	In 1950, a treaty was agreed between India and Sikkim which gave Sikkim the status of an Indian protectorate. Sikkim therefore came under the suzerainty of India, which controlled its external affairs, defence, diplomacy and communications. In 1975, acting on the request of the Sikkim Prime Minister, the Thirty Sixth Amendment Act was passed to make Sikkim a full-fledged state of the Indian Union and its protectorate status was taken away.
Mizoram (1987)	The Fifty-Third Amendment Act, 1986 changed its status from a union territory to a separate state.
Arunachal Pradesh (1987)	Till 1972, it was known as the North-East Frontier Agency (NEFA). It gained the Union Territory status on 20 January 1972 and was renamed as Arunachal Pradesh.
Goa (1987)	Liberated in 1961 from Portuguese, The Goa, Daman and Diu Reorganisation Act, 1987 conferred statehood to Goa on 30 May 1987 and Daman and Diu was made a separate union territory.
Chhattisgarh (2000)	Madhya Pradesh Reorganisation Act 2000 separated the Chhattisgarh area from Madhya Pradesh and provided it the status of a separate state owing to its distinct identity and culture, proper distribution and utilization of resources and to remedy the neglect in its growth and development.
Uttarakhand (2000)	Uttar Pradesh Reorganisation Act, 2000 separated the hilly area of Uttar Pradesh and conferred it the status of a separate state, so that development plans could be based on its hilly topography and the 'pahari identity' could be maintained.
Jharkhand (2000)	Bihar Reorganisation Act, 2000 bifurcated earlier Bihar state and formed Jharkhand as a homeland for tribals who had been demanding for a separate state since a long time owing to their distinct identity, culture, mineral & natural resources and yet economic backwardness.
Telangana (2014)	The Andhra Pradesh Reorganisation Act, 2014 , bifurcated the state of Andhra Pradesh to form a separate Telangana state.

2.2. Linguistic State formation

The first state reorganization of 1956 prepared the ground for further rise in regional linguistic state demands. Coupled with strong agitation, the demands were continued for separate states of Maharashtra and Gujarat, Punjab and Haryana, etc. From the above-mentioned chronology of new state formation, the following were formed on linguistic lines:

1. **Formation of Gujarat and Maharashtra:** 1st May 1960
The mass movement by the Samyukt Maharashtra Samiti and the Maha Gujarat Parishad forced the Government of India to accept the demand for linguistic reorganization of Marathi speaking Bombay area into Maharashtra and Gujarati speaking Saurashtra and Kutch area into Gujarat State (15th Indian state) under the Bombay Reorganization Act, 1960.
2. **Formation of Punjab and Haryana:** 1st November 1966
Akali Dal continued their agitation to demand a separate 'Sikh Homeland' (Punjabi Suba). In a response to it, the Government of India set up Shah Commission in 1966 under the chairmanship of Justice J. C. Shah, to divide and set up the boundaries of Punjab and Haryana. By the Punjab State Reorganisation Act 1966, the erstwhile Punjab state was bifurcated and the Punjabi-speaking areas were constituted into the unilingual state of Punjab, the Hindi-speaking areas were constituted into the State of Haryana (the 17th state of India) and the hill areas were merged with the adjoining Union Territory of Himachal Pradesh. The bifurcation also resulted in formation of Chandigarh as a Union Territory, which would serve as the common capital of Punjab and Haryana states.
3. **Formation of Goa:** 30th May 1987
The Portuguese territories of Goa, Diu and Daman were liberated on December 20, 1961, and were formally incorporated into the Union on March 12, 1962. They were constituted as a union territory by the 12th Constitutional Amendment Act, 1962. There were also proposals to merge the area of Goa with Maharashtra. In 1967, an "opinion poll" (actually, a referendum) that took place to settle the question of Goa's integration with Maharashtra decisively tilted the scales in favour of a "separate" Goa. The demand for separate Goa state was to retain a distinct Goan identity and with Konkani as its main language. Considering the popular demand of people over the period and its distinct culture, the Government of India enacted The Goa, Daman, and Diu Reorganisation Act, 1987 and conferred statehood to Goa on 30th May 1987. Daman and Diu was made a separate union territory.

The linguistic division of states led to the following **positive** outcomes:

1. **Consolidation of federal structure:** Meeting the regional aspirations of the people created a sense of security of their culture and language in India. This allowed people to accept India's regional diversity in a better way along with suppressing the separatist demands in India. For example, the formation of separate Punjab state on a linguistic basis reduced to some extent, the impact of the separatist movement of Punjab in the 1980s and 1990s.
2. **Grassroots level participation:** This linguistic arrangement led to the administration of various states in their own language, which was in the reach of many state residents who did not know English or any other language except their regional one. This deepened the concept of Indian democracy by giving voice to many minority communities in the Indian governance system.
3. **Improved justice delivery mechanism:** The official language of the state also got implemented in its justice delivery system or the courts at various levels. People were able to convey their grievances in their own language and could understand the various laws and provisions made by their state government. It ended the hassle work of translating the court judgments and other statutory laws and regulations.
4. **Removal of disharmony among people:** It also ended the resentments and discord between the people of nearby regions and was successful in promoting regional harmony. Example the formation of Telangana state ended the decade long conflicts between the people of these two regions.
5. **Better development of regions:** The relation between linguistic attachment and economic development was highly seen in the Indian context. The states with high cultural affinity like Kerala, Maharashtra, Tamil Nadu, Andhra Pradesh etc. have better performed in social, economic and

human development parameters than the states where this regional affinity is less.

6. **Promotion to Indian diversity:** It provided an opportunity for the Indian states to promote and protect their regional culture at the state and national level, which further added to India's cultural and linguistic diversity. For example, Chhath celebrations have become popular in Gujarat.

However, this division of states also created the following **issues**:

1. **Rise of further regional demands:** It further gave promotion to local identities of people, creating a sense of distinctiveness among people within the regions. This extreme feeling of regionalism has created a system of parochialism in various pockets of India. There have been rising demands for separate statehood from different areas of India such as demand of Harit Pradesh and Purvanchal as a separate state by bifurcating the present Uttar Pradesh state; Gorkhaland as a separate hilly state from the present West Bengal state; Tulunadu and Kodagu regions in the southern area of Karnataka; and Rayalaseema as a separate region from the present Andhra Pradesh state etc.
2. **Language as vote bank politics:** This language division has further evoked the psychological and emotional feelings among people at various levels to preserve their separate identity. These emotions have been exploited by various political parties from time to time to maintain their vote bank politics.
3. **Threat to national feeling:** The rising linguistic loyalty is also seen coming in the way of national integration. Some people are more concerned about their regional gains than keeping the national interest at the forefront.
4. **Rise of narrow regionalism:** The extreme feelings of sub-regionalism has distorted the peaceful situation in various regions of India. It has also led to several unintended consequences such as linguistic chauvinism and the foundation of the "Sons of the soil" doctrine.
5. **The emergence of many small regional political parties:** Though it gave voice to many minority sections of India, it also created a situation of political instability in India. This phenomenon was highly seen in the 1990s when there was a frequent change in the governments in India.

Has the creation of linguistic states worked in favour of strengthening Indian unity? Think. (UPSC Mains 2016)

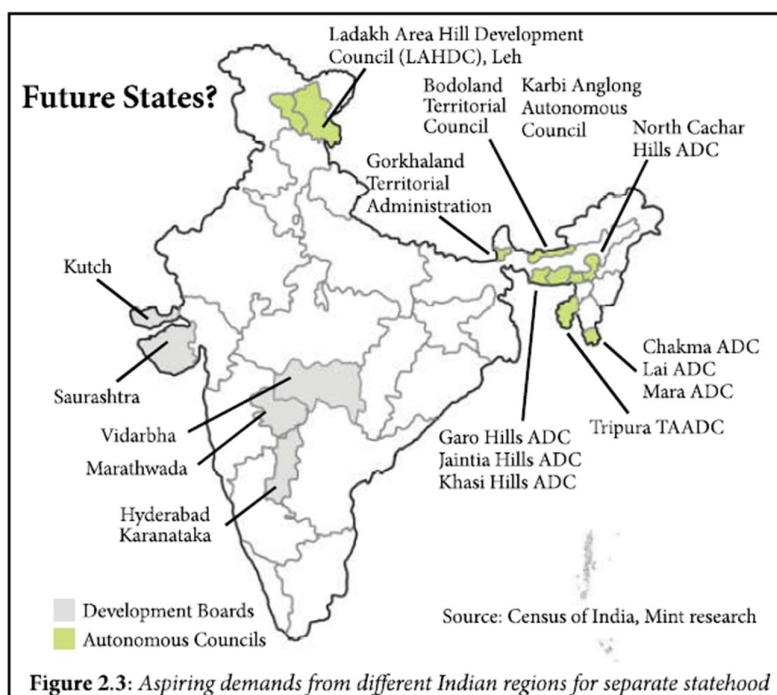


Figure8: Aspiring demands from different Indian regions for separate statehood (Livemint)

Considering the high degree of regional, cultural and ethnic diversity in India, there is a need to develop a feeling of national affinity among people to maintain India's federal structure in a peaceful manner. From time over, language has played an important role in binding together people of different regions. India needs to develop a national language which is accepted by every section of society. This is only possible if regional identities and their cultures are securitized in India. India can also follow the three-language formula as favoured by the Sarkaria Commission of 1983 (appointed to examine the language problem in India). Considering the rising demands of further state division or smaller states in India, there is a need to set up another state reorganization commission to mainstream these aspirations of the people, instead of aggravating or suppressing them.

Issue of Official language:

There was a huge controversy surrounding the push for Hindi as the National language during the early years of our independence. In the Constituent Assembly, Hindi was voted as the official language by a single vote. However, it added that English would continue to be used as an associate official language for 15 years. The **Official Languages Act** came into effect on the expiry of this 15-year period in **1965**. However, as early as in **1959**, Union government had given an assurance in Parliament that English would continue to be in use **as long as non-Hindi speaking people** wanted it.

Those who support Hindi as the national language argue that it is spoken by more than 50% of the citizens of the country. This makes it the most **popular language**. Thus, selection of Hindi as the national language will **reduce** the existing language barrier among people in a country as diverse as India, especially in North and South India. Hindi as a national language will bring a **feeling of cohesiveness** among people of India thereby contributing to integrity of the nation. Many non-Hindi states like Nagaland have already accepted the Hindi language as union language. Moreover, even **Article 351** directs to the Union to develop and promote Hindi language.

Despite the **virtual advantages**, Hindi has not been adopted as the National language as both **Fundamental rights** and the Eighth schedule provide constitutional basis for sustaining linguistic diversity of India. Governance since **75 years of independence** has already demonstrated the ability of states to govern without adoption of a National language. State governments and political parties resist attempts for accordance of National language Status to Hindi due to populism. E.g. **Shivsena** in Maharashtra, **DMK** in Tamilnadu. Language is **the vehicle of culture** and therefore, forms one of the most important foundation for **regionalism** in India. Recognition of Hindi as the National language, would aggravate the **secessionist voices** and might even weaken **unity of India**.

To conclude, any effort to unilaterally impose Hindi as a National language would dilute the ethos of democracy. However, involving **stakeholders** and moving ahead on a **consensus** basis can be the way forward for introducing Hindi as a national language.

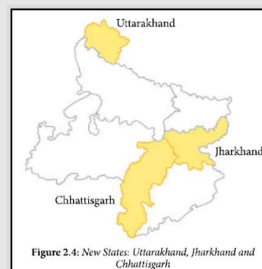
Discuss whether formation of new states in recent times is beneficial or not for the economy of India? (UPSC Mains 2018)

Debate Related to Small State Vs Big State:

India witnessed the demands for smaller states since independence. However, over the period, there has been a shift in the reason behind this demand i.e. from linguistic state to efficient and development as the new basis. The formation of three states of Chhattisgarh, Jharkhand and Uttarakhand from their parent states of Madhya Pradesh, Bihar and Uttar Pradesh respectively presents the modern case of development-based demand of smaller states. India is witnessing the rising regional demands of further splitting the larger states into smaller ones like separating:

1. Gorkhaland and Kamtapur area in West Bengal.
2. Coorg region in Karnataka.
3. Mithilanchal area of Bihar.

4. Saurashtra region in Gujarat.
5. Vidarbha and Marathwada region of Maharashtra.
6. Harit Pradesh, Purvanchal, Braj Pradesh and Awadh Pradesh in Uttar Pradesh.
7. Bundelkhand region comprising areas of Uttar Pradesh and Madhya Pradesh.



Statistics of smaller states: Comparison of Uttarakhand, Chhattisgarh and Jharkhand with parent states

As per 2011 Census	Uttarakhand	Uttar Pradesh	Chhattisgarh	Madhya Pradesh	Jharkhand	Bihar
Literacy Rate	78.82%	67.68%	70.28%	69.32%	66.41%	61.80%
Sex Ratio	963	912	991	931	948	918
Population Increase Rate as compared to the 2001 Census	18.81 %	20.23 %	22.61 %	20.35 %	22.42 %	25.42 %

As per NITI Aayog's Second Edition of "Healthy States, Progressive India" Report 2019, for the period of 2016-17 and 2017-18:

Madhya Pradesh, Uttarakhand, Uttar Pradesh, and Bihar were categorized as Aspirants states. They did not see any performance improvement in their health indicators. Chhattisgarh was categorized in the 'Achievers' category (a next level to the aspirant states). However, its performance was 'Least Improved' among its category. Jharkhand was also categorized in the 'Achievers' category, but it was the 'most performance improved' state in its category.

Smaller States	Big States
Pros- Smaller states provide efficient administration of smaller areas by the creation of separate institutions like courts, election commission, policing, etc. Public welfare schemes are better targeted in a smaller state as they provide better targeting and identification of beneficiaries. They provide a balance between demand and supply of services as required by the people. Grievances of people are resolved locally and in a timely manner due to better monitoring by the state. Backward regions receive an improved attention for their development due to the smaller size of the state.	Pros- Larger states provide economies of scale in terms of using their natural resources like river water, energy resources, etc. They also provide better opportunities to voice the rights and demands of the people via wide popular agitation. Larger states provide better mixing of regional identities and increase the cultural diversity of a region. The larger states provide opportunities for the economic development of every section of society as a large state is able to develop its agricultural as well as service and industrial sectors simultaneously due to the availability of physical as well as human resources.
Cons- Setting up of various separate institutions can burden the state financially and can reverse the benefits. Smaller states are less efficient in the utilization of natural resources as they are not able to build economies of scale. Issues in the distribution of Natural resources like River water and fossil resources can become a major bone of contention between the two states. As India is primarily an agrarian economy, the smaller states which are formed with a majority of agricultural areas may lack in development of its industrial and service sector.	Cons- Administration of large and diverse states is more complex as compared to smaller states as the large bureaucracy and government institutions. Lack of monitoring may result in their inefficiency. Larger states provide complexities not only at an economic level, but also on cultural and linguistic level which may sometimes give rise to various conflicts. Equal allocation of resources to all regions of a large state is in itself, a bigger challenge. The physical distance between the main power centre of the state and the grass-root demands may not voice the concerns of people

effectively.

India's track record of carving out smaller states has produced mixed results. Therefore, an optimum size of the state, common culture or identity, availability of resources, visionary leadership and administrative efficiency are the key to achieving developmental goals.

3. RISE IN REGIONAL ASPIRATIONS

3.1. Punjab

Historically, the region around Punjab had been ruled by the confederacy of Sikh Misls founded by Banda Bahadur who ruled over the entire Punjab from 1767 to 1799. After his death Sikhs were divided into several misls or confederacies. These confederacies were unified into the Sikh Empire by **Maharaja Ranjit Singh** who ruled from 1799 to 1839. After his death, the British captured the entire territories of Punjab by 1848 and ruled it till 1947.

In 1947, the Punjab Province of British India was partitioned along religious lines into West Punjab (in Pakistan) and East Punjab. Immediately following independence in 1947, due to the ensuing communal violence and fear, most Sikhs and Punjabi Hindus who found themselves in Pakistan, migrated to India. In the 1950s, there was a demand for linguistic reorganization of the state of Punjab, which the government finally agreed in 1966 after protests. Haryana was carved out of Punjab as a separate state for Hindi speaking people and Himachal Pradesh was made Union Territory. However, this failed to fulfil the aspiration of Sikhs who were demanding more autonomy apart from the linguistic state.

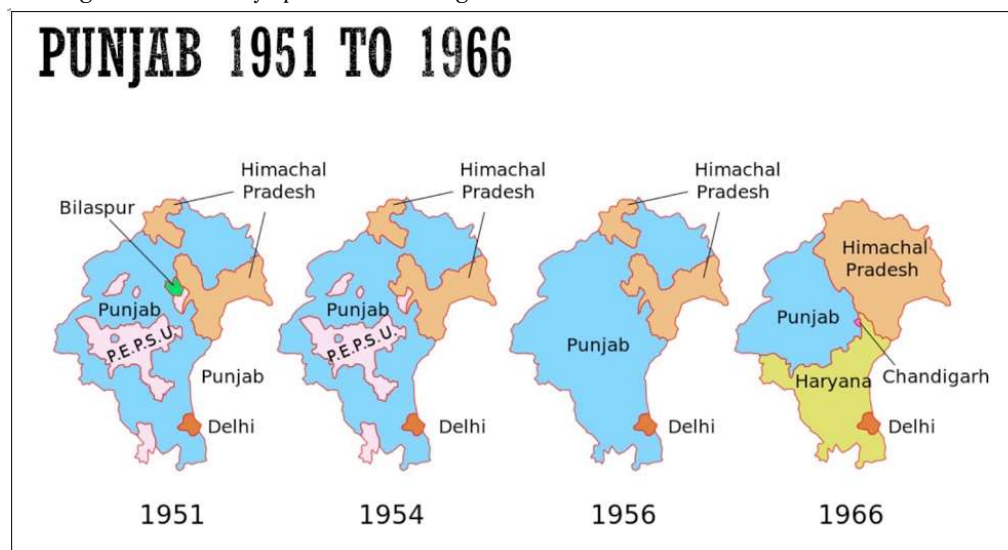


Figure 9: Political re-organization of Punjab from 1951 to 1966 (Wikimedia Commons)

Roots of post-1947 Communalism:

Along with the partition, there were two major issues which were themselves secular but were communalized by Sikh and Hindu communalists and dominated Punjab politics till 1966.

1. Partition in 1947:

Sikhs did not form a majority in a single district in pre-partition Punjab. The partition of the country was done based on the population census of 1941. Sikhs were spread across Punjab and were only 14.9% of the Punjab population. But after the partition, there was an influx of the Sikh population from Pakistan to Punjab on the Indian side which led to an increase in the Sikh population to 55%. Most of the peasants and poor farmers were Sikhs and the traders were rich Hindus. This led to further polarization between Hindus and Sikhs.

2. Issue of state language:

The Hindu communalists wanted the state language status for Hindi while the Sikh communalists wanted the status for Punjabi in Gurmukhi script. The government tried to resolve the problem by dividing Punjab into two— Punjabi and Hindi—linguistic zones. Hindu communalists opposed the decisions to make the study of Punjabi, along with Hindi, compulsory in all schools and Punjabi being made the only official language for district administration in the Punjabi linguistic zone. Traditionally, for centuries, Punjabi had been written in Urdu, Gurmukhi, and Devanagari (Hindi)

scripts. The Akalis demanded that Gurmukhi alone should be used as the script for Punjabi. The Hindu communal organizations insisted that Devanagari should be used along with the Gurmukhi script.

Punjabi Suba movement:

In the 1950s, the linguistic groups across India sought statehood, which led to the establishment of the States Reorganisation Commission in December 1953. The Government of India was afraid of carving out a separate Punjabi language state because it would mean dividing the state along religious lines as Sikhs would form a 60% majority in the resulting Punjabi state. Hence, the Punjabi Suba movement was launched. In September 1966, Union Government accepted the demand and Punjab Reorganisation Act, 1966 was passed in Parliament according to which, Punjab was trifurcated creating Punjab, Haryana and transferring certain areas to Himachal Pradesh. **Chandigarh** was claimed by both Haryana and Punjab. As a result, it was declared as a separate Union Territory which would serve as the capital of both the states.

The introduction of the Green Revolution in 60's and consequent mechanized agricultural techniques led prosperity as well as the uneven distribution of wealth in Punjab. Agricultural prosperity led to a rapid increase in higher education opportunities. However inadequate rise in the jobs as compared to the level of education resulted in the increase in the unemployment of educated youth. These unemployed rural Sikh youths provided fertile grounds for militancy in later times and formed the backbone of the militancy. On the other hand, the Indian government had been reluctant to set up heavy industries in Punjab because of its status as a high-risk border state with Pakistan. Additionally, the dispute regarding the sharing of **Beas- Ravi** river water started after Punjab was reorganized in 1966, and the state of Haryana was created. In order to make full use of the allocated water, a **Sutlej-Yamuna Link Canal** was proposed. The decision was met with opposition in Punjab.

Jarnail Singh Bhindranwale

In the late 1970s and the early 1980s, the separatist movement began to militarize and saw the increasing involvement of the Sikh religious preacher Jarnail Singh Bhindranwale who was the leader of Sikh religious organization called **Damdami Taksal** in Punjab politics. In the late 1970s, Indira Gandhi's Congress party supported Bhindranwale in a bid to split the Sikh votes and weaken the Akali Dal, its chief rival in Punjab. This later turned out to be a miscalculation as Bhindranwale's separatist political objectives became popular among the agricultural Jat Sikhs in the region. The **Dharam Yudh Morcha** movement was later on hijacked by Bhindranwale who declared that it will continue until all the demands in the Anandpur Sahib Resolution were fulfilled.

After the reorganization, the Akalis came to power in 1967 and then in 1977. In both of the terms, it was a coalition government. The Akalis discovered that despite the redrawing of the boundaries, their political position remained precarious as their government was dismissed by the Centre mid-way through its term by applying President's Rule, they did not enjoy strong support among the Hindus and the Sikh community; and were internally differentiated on caste and class lines. The Congress got more support among the Dalits, whether Hindu or Sikh, than the Akalis. It was in this context that during the 1970s a section of Akalis began to demand political autonomy for the region. Akali Dal then put forward the **Anandpur Sahib Resolution in 1973** to demand the devolution of power and autonomy to Punjab. It asked for recognizing Sikhism as a separate religion from Hinduism and the transfer of Chandigarh and certain areas to Punjab. It also demanded devolution of power from the Centre to the state government. Later, Akali Dal and Jarnail Singh Bhindranwale joined hands to launch the Dharam Yudh Morcha in 1982 in order to implement the Anandpur Sahib Resolution. Thousands of people joined the movement, feeling that it represented a real solution to demands such as a larger share of water for irrigation and the return of Chandigarh to Punjab. There was also a section of the religious leaders, who raised the question of autonomous Sikh identity. The more extreme elements started advocating secession from India and the creation of '**Khalistan**'.

After the launch of the Morcha, Sikh extremists began committing acts of political violence. The assassination of **Chief Minister of Punjab Darabara Singh** was attempted and two Indian Airlines flights were hijacked by the terrorists. There were widespread murders in Punjab by followers of Bhindranwale. One such murder was that of **DIG Avtar Singh Atwal**, who was killed on 25 April 1983 at the gate of the Darbar Sahib. On 12 May 1984, Ramesh Chander, Son of Lala Jagat Narain and editor of media house Hind Samachar group, was murdered by pro-Bhindranwale militants. Akali leader Longowal announced that the Akali Dal would disrupt the **Asian Games in 1982** that were to be held in Delhi by sending teams of Akali workers to Delhi to court arrest. By April 1984, it appeared as if Bhindranwale would be successful in driving Hindus away from Punjab to Haryana and other states, due to the terror of violent attacks and riots. The militants responsible for bombings and murders were taking shelter in some gurudwaras. However, the Congress-led government declared that it could not enter the gurudwaras for the fear of hurting Sikh sentiments.

In the twenty-two months since the launching of the Akali Dharma Yudh Morcha, until June 1984, Bhindranwale's militants killed 165 Hindus and Nirankaris, per the official figures. The government sent a team led by **Narasimha Rao** to try to convince Bhindranwale to back out but he was adamant about his demands. Indira Gandhi tried to persuade the Akalis to support her in the arrest of Bhindranwale peacefully. However, due to local politics and fear of backlash from public Akalis did not cooperate and talks ended up being futile. In his final interview, Bhindranwale stated that **Sikhs can neither live in India nor with India**. Bhindranwale made the sacred Golden Temple complex an armoury and headquarter, for his armed uprising for Khalistan. In this background with stated intention and reports of amassing arsenal at Golden Temple an action was imperative from the government side. Thus, Indira Gandhi gave her permission to initiate Operation Blue Star on the recommendation of **Army Chief**.

Operation Bluestar:

There were intelligence reports of intercepted messages from Bhindranwale and Shabeg Singh to their followers in the state asking them to start a movement of mass killings of Hindus on 5 June. In June 1984, the Army was called out to help the civil administration in Punjab in response to a request from the Punjab Governor, B. D. Pande, "*in view of the escalating violence by terrorists in Punjab.*" **Operation Blue star** was an Indian military operation carried out between **1 to 8 June 1984** led by **Major General Kuldeep Singh Brar**, ordered by Prime Minister Indira Gandhi to remove militant religious leader Jarnail Singh Bhindranwale and his armed followers from the buildings of the Harmandir Sahib complex in Amritsar. A variety of army units along with paramilitary forces surrounded the temple complex on 3 June 1984. The army kept asking the militants to surrender, using the public address system. Tanks and heavy artillery were used to attack the militants using anti-tank and machine-gun from the heavily fortified Akal Takht. After a 24-hour firefight, the army finally wrested control of the temple complex. The forces had full control of Harmandir Sahib by the morning of 7 June. There were casualties among the Army, civilians, and militants. Bhindranwale was killed in the operation, while many of his followers managed to escape.

Operation Bluestar was criticized by many Sikhs bodies, who interpreted the military action as an assault on the Sikh religion. On the morning of 31 October 1984, **Indira Gandhi was assassinated** by her two Sikh personal security guards Satwant Singh and Beant Singh in New Delhi in retaliation for Operation Blue Star. Public outcry over Gandhi's death led to the killings of more than 3,000 Sikhs in the ensuing 1984 anti-Sikh riots.

The separatists used Operation Blue star and the riots following the assassination to claim that the interest of the Sikhs were not safe in India and fostered the spread of militancy among the Sikhs in Punjab. The financial funding from the Sikh diaspora sharply increased and the Sikhs in the US, UK, and Canada donated thousands of dollars every week for the insurgency. In January 1986, the Golden Temple was again occupied by militants belonging to the **All India Sikh Students Federation and Damdami Taksal**. On 26 January 1986, the gathering passed a resolution (*gurmatta*) favouring the creation of **Khalistan**. In December 1986, a bus was attacked by Sikh militants in which 24 Hindus were shot dead and 7 were injured and shot

near Khuda in the Hoshiarpur district of Punjab. **Operation Black Thunder** - name given to two operations that took place in India in the late 1980s, to flush out remaining Sikh activists from the Golden Temple. **'Black Cat'** commandos of the National Security Guards were deployed in this operation. During the late 1980s and the early 1990s, there was a dramatic rise in radical State militancy in Punjab.

Pakistani ISI provided military support and modern sophisticated weapons to the Sikh extremists, causing a large number of casualties in Punjab. According to **KPS Gill**, the terrorists mainly used crude bombs but since the 1990s more modern explosives supplied by Pakistan had become widespread in usage. The Khalistan movement was brought to a decline only after India fenced off a part of the Punjab border with Pakistan and the Benazir Bhutto government agreed to joint patrols of the border by Indian and Pakistani troops. Chiefs of Babbar Khalsa International (BKI), International Sikh Youth Federation (ISYF) and Khalistan Zindabad Force (KZF) are permanently based in Pakistan and have been coordinating militant activities of their outfits in Punjab and elsewhere in India under the guidance of Pak ISI.

After coming to power following the election in 1984, the new Prime Minister **Rajiv Gandhi initiated a dialogue** with moderate Akali leaders. In **July 1985**, he reached an agreement with Harchand Singh Longowal, then President of the Akali Dal. This agreement known as the **Rajiv -Longowal Accord or the Punjab Accord**, was a step towards bringing normalcy to Punjab. Its provisions are as follows-

1. Compensation to the families of the innocent person killed in agitation or any action after 1 August 1982.
2. Part of the Anandpur Sahib Resolution dealing with the Centre-State relations will be referred to the Sarkaria Commission.
3. Inquiry into the 1984 killings will be extended to Bokaro and Kanpur.
4. Merit will remain the sole criteria for selection in the Indian Army.
5. Chandigarh will be given to Punjab and a separate commission would be appointed to resolve the border dispute between Punjab and Haryana.
6. A tribunal would be set up to decide the sharing of Ravi-Beas river water among Punjab, Haryana, and Rajasthan
7. Armed Forces Special Power Act (AFSPA) from Punjab will be withdrawn.
8. Prime Minister will re-instruct the Chief Ministers of the various states to protect the interests of the minorities.
9. The Central Government may take steps to promote the Punjabi language.

Between 1987 and 1991, Punjab was placed under an **indefinite President's rule** and was governed from Delhi. The Sikh terrorists also targeted other Sikhs with opposing viewpoints and this led to further loss of public support and the militants were eventually brought under the control of law enforcement agencies by 1993. Peace returned to Punjab by the middle of the 1990s, when the alliance of Akali Dal and the BJP scored a major victory in 1997, in the first normal elections in the state after the militancy era.

NANAVATI COMMISSION: This was a one-man commission headed by G.T. Nanavati, a retired Judge of the Supreme Court of India, appointed by the government in May **2000**, to investigate the "killing of innocent Sikhs" during the 1984 anti-Sikh riots. The commission report details accusations and evidence against senior members of the Delhi wing of the then ruling Congress Party. They were accused of instigating mobs to avenge the assassination of Indira Gandhi by killing Sikhs in their constituencies. The Commission also held the then Delhi police commissioner as directly responsible for the riots. There was a widespread protest against the report as it did not mention clearly the role of Tytler and other members of Congress Party in the 1984 anti-Sikh riots. The report led to the resignation of Jagdish Tytler from the Union Cabinet. A few days after the report was tabled in the Parliament, the Indian Prime Minister Manmohan Singh also apologized to the Sikh community for Operation Blue Star and riots that followed.

The major weakness of the struggle against terrorism was the failure to grasp that the real and the long-term problem in Punjab was not terrorism but communalism. There was some degree of a psychological divide between Hindus and Sikhs, especially in the urban areas, and a few incidents of Hindu– Sikh clashes, there was not even one major communal riot in Punjab throughout the years of the terrorist sway; i.e., on the whole, the people of Punjab remained secular. Hindus did not support the efforts of the Shiv Sena and other Hindu communal organizations to create a volunteer corps of Hindus alone to fight against terrorism. The refusal of the people of Punjab to imbibe the values and ideology of the terrorists and the extreme communalists was mainly because the secular tradition was quite strong in Punjab, due to the work and influence of the Ghadr Party and the Ghadr Babas, Bhagat Singh and his comrades, Kirti Kisan groups, the Communists and the Socialists, the peasant movements and the Congress and the national movement.

The Punjab experience is quite relevant to the country as a whole, as it could face similar problems in the future in other parts of it. There are important lessons to be learned. First, communalism has to be confronted both politically and ideologically; separation of religion from politics has to be enforced necessarily. Second, communal violence in all its forms, including terrorism, has to be handled firmly and decisively and suppressed as quickly as possible through the full and timely use of the law and order machinery of the state. Third, communalists, however moderate, cannot be expected to or depended upon to fight extreme communalism or communal terrorism. Though religious identity is important for people, politics have moved back to secular lines.

3.2. North East India

North East India is the easternmost division of India comprising of eight states of Arunachal Pradesh, Assam, Manipur, Meghalaya, Mizoram, Nagaland, Sikkim and Tripura. This region is connected to the mainland India via narrow Siliguri corridor in-between the state of Assam and West Bengal. The 8 states comprising the North East are populated by nearly 40 million inhabitants who vary in language, race, tribe, caste, religion, and regional heritage. This region shares an international border with countries like China, Nepal, Bhutan, Myanmar and Bangladesh. **North-East India was a separate unit since 1912 under the British rule as ‘Assam Province of British India’.** However, since independence, the region has witnessed a lot of changes. **Tripura, Manipur and Khasi Hills of Meghalaya were erstwhile Princely States**, which merged with India after independence. The entire region of North-East has undergone considerable political reorganisation:

1. Nagaland State was created in 1963;
2. Manipur, Tripura and Meghalaya in 1972;
3. Mizoram and Arunachal Pradesh became separate States only in 1987.

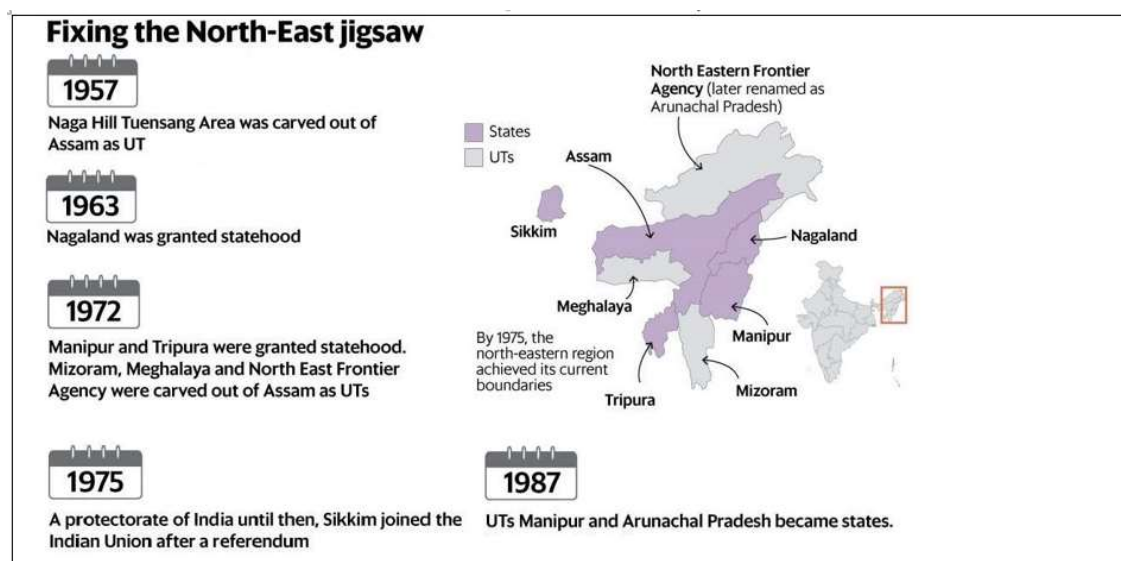


Figure 10: Political re-organization of North East (Livemint)

North-East is ethnically, linguistically and culturally very distinct from the other states of India. The historical connections among the traditional tribes in the North East are largely of Tibeto-Burman/Mongoloid stock and closer to South-East Asia than to South Asia. One of the major problem areas is that the North East is territorially organized in such a manner that ethnic and cultural specificities were ignored during the process of delineation of state boundaries in the 1950s. This gave rise to discontentment and assertion of one's identity. This caused various issues to surface themselves in due course of time.

Issues of North East India:

8 issues dominate the political and social unrest of the North Eastern Region:

1. Backwardness compared to the rest of India.
2. International border.
3. Issues of governance.
4. Influx of migrants.
5. Demand for Autonomy.
6. Identity crisis.
7. Internal Factional conflicts.
8. Inner Line Permit

The partition of India in 1947 had reduced the North-East to a **landlocked region** due to loss of Eastern Pakistan (now Bangladesh) and affected its economy. Due to narrow access to this region combined with **difficult geographical terrain** and perpetual conflicts, development has fallen back. The isolation of the region, its complex social character and its **backwardness compared to other parts of the country** have all resulted in the complicated set of demands from different states of the North-East. There are strong and persistent grievance among the communities of North Eastern states that severe underdevelopment of their region was due to unfair treatment being meted out to it by the central government. Even after 75 years since independence, the capitals of some of the North Eastern states are still not connected by railway lines as of yet.



Figure: International boundary of North

The vast **international border** and **weak communication** between the North-East and the rest of India have further added to the delicate nature of politics there. North East has been a prisoner of its own geography, which was also a reason for its alienation from the freedom struggle in the rest of the country. Four of India's North-Eastern states: Tripura, Meghalaya, Mizoram and Assam share 1,880-km long border with Bangladesh, while Mizoram, Manipur, Nagaland and Arunachal Pradesh share a 1,640-km long unfenced border with Myanmar.

Specific issues faced by North-Eastern States:

Assam

At the time of independence, the entire North Eastern region except Manipur and Tripura comprised the State of Assam. **Demands for political autonomy** arose when the non-Assamese felt that the Assam government was imposing Assamese language on them. There was opposition and protest riots throughout the State. Leaders of the major tribal communities wanted to separate from Assam. They formed the Eastern India Tribal Union which later transformed into a more comprehensive All-party Hill Leaders Conference in 1960. They demanded a tribal State to be carved out of Assam. The **United Liberation Front of Assam (ULFA)** was also formed in 1979, to establish a sovereign state of Assam through armed struggle. Finally, instead of one tribal State, **several states were carved out of Assam**.



Figure 12: Bodoland area in Assam

The National Democratic Front of **Bodoland** (NDFB) was formed in 1986 as the Bodo Security Force. Its demand was to establish an autonomous region for Bodos. Demand for autonomy was also raised by Tani group of people living along Assam – Arunachal Pradesh border. The National Liberation Council of **Taniland** (NLCT) was formed by the Tani groups who are Mongoloid people in India, to form a separate Taniland.

Another movement was started in the 1950s demanding preference for Assamese speakers in recruitment to state government services and making **Assamese the sole official language**. The movement for a change in the official language, led to the gradual building up of **hostility between Bengali and Assamese** speakers. In July 1960, it erupted in tragic language riots. In 1960 itself, the state assembly passed a law, against the wishes of Bengali speakers by making Assamese the sole official language. This effort to impose the Assamese language became one of the factors which hampered the process of evolution of the Assamese identity, prevented it from encompassing the entire state and led to many of the hill tribes demanding separation from Assam.

Additionally, most States in this region underwent major demographic changes due to an **influx of migrants** from neighbouring states and countries. This gave rise to various movements against the outsiders in almost all North-Eastern states. **Anti-foreigner movement of Assam** in 1979, was against the large-scale illegal migration in a relatively short span of time, from Bangladesh and to some extent from Nepal. The All Assam Students Union (AASU) and the Assam Gana Sangram Parishad (Assam People's Struggle Council), a coalition of regional political, literary and cultural associations, started a massive, anti-illegal migration movement. Finally, the **Assam Accord** was signed with the leaders of the movement on 15th August 1985, according to which:

1. All those foreigners who had entered Assam between 1951 and 1961 were to be given full citizenship, including the right to vote.
2. Those who had done so after 1971 were to be deported.
3. The entrants between 1961 and 1971 were to be denied voting rights for ten years but would enjoy all other rights of citizenship.

In August 2021, clashes between Assam and Mizoram police led to firing on the inter-state boundary, which left at least 6 Assam police personnel dead and over 50 injured. Boundary disputes between both the states have a history, dating back to the times when Mizoram was a district in Assam and was known as the Lushai hills. Subsequent boundary demarcations were unable to resolve this issue which snowballed into a major law and order situation in 2021. Both the states would need to exercise restraint and find the solution to this festering issue in an atmosphere of peace and understanding.

*NRC for Assam will be explained in subsequent sections.

The Assam movement (1979–1985) was a combination of cultural pride and economic backwardness. Discuss.

Manipur

In the beginning itself, the Maharaja of **Manipur** had signed the Instrument of Accession with the Indian government on the assurance that their internal autonomy would be maintained. Later, he had also conducted elections in 1948 and the state became the first part of India to hold an election, based on universal adult franchise. However, there were sharp differences over the question of merger of Manipur with India as the state Congress wanted the merger, but the other political parties were opposed to this. The Government of India succeeded in pressurising the Maharaja into signing a Merger Agreement in September 1949, without consulting the popularly elected Legislative Assembly of Manipur. This caused a lot of anger and resentment in Manipur, the repercussions of which are still being felt.

Manipur had experienced years of insurgency and inter-ethnic violence while it was part of Assam. It also saw armed opposition by local groups like the United National Liberation Front (UNLF) (founded in 1964) to gain more rights or outright independence from India. After several rounds of negotiations, **Manipur became a full state** in 1972, along with several other sister states of the North East. Like in other states, the **migrants** in Manipur too were seen as outsiders and encroachers on scarce resources like land and potential competitors to employment opportunities and political power. The lack of job opportunities, the significant role of 'outsiders' in the North Eastern industry and trade, and the fear of being culturally dominated produced a sense of deprivation in the minds of middle-class communities.

Post statehood, **Manipur** saw rise of different groups like People's Liberation Army (1978), Kangleipak Communist Party (1980), with different goals and deriving support from diverse ethnic groups in Manipur. These groups began a spree of bank robberies and attacks on police officers and government buildings. It was due to this **unrest** that in 1980, the central government brought the entire state of Manipur under the **Armed Forces (Special Powers) Act (AFSPA)**. The AFSPA was passed on 18 August **1958**, as a short-term measure to allow deployment of the army to counter an armed separatist movement in the Naga Hills, has been in place for the last five decades and was extended to all the seven states of the North East region in 1972 (except for Mizoram). As per MHA records in 2020, AFSPA is operational in entire States of Assam, Nagaland, Manipur (except Imphal Municipal area), 3 districts of Arunachal Pradesh and the areas falling within the jurisdiction of the eight police stations in the districts of Arunachal Pradesh, bordering the State of Assam.

Manipur was also one of the most insurgency affected states. It suffered from an influx of illegal immigrants as well as conflicts between various factional groups for the control of power like the NSCN groups in Nagaland. Due to this, the Kuki tribes created their Kuki National Organisation (KNO) and its armed Wing, Kuki National Army (KNA). Skirmishes between Nagas and Kukis are common in that region.

Arunachal Pradesh and Tripura

Arunachal Pradesh and Tripura saw the **influx of Chakma (Buddhist) and Hajong (Hindu) ethnic groups from Bangladesh** due to religious persecution in East Pakistan (Bangladesh) since independence and the displacement caused by the Kaptai Hydel Power Project in the 1960s. After a long struggle by the Chakmas and Hajongs for their rights in India, Supreme Court passed a judgment directing the Government of India and of Arunachal Pradesh to grant Indian citizenship rights to all the Chakmas, holding that they cannot be discriminated against any other Indian. However, the **Citizenship (Amendment) bill of 2016**, which proposed to give citizenship rights to Chakma and Hajong tribes, faced a large-scale upsurge and anti-bill sentiments from the local tribes and organizations like All Arunachal Pradesh Students Union, etc. of North Eastern states.

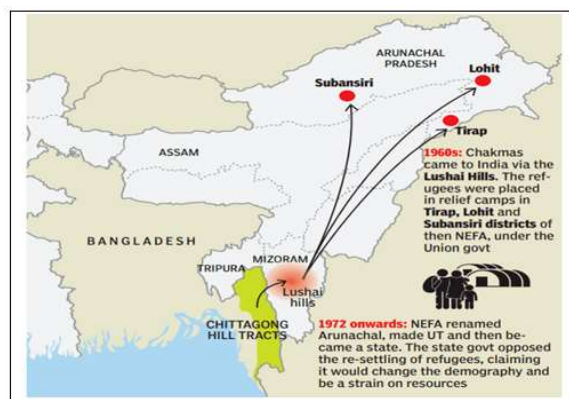


Figure 13: Chakma community in India

Arunachal Pradesh also shares a large international border with China (approx. 1100 km), which is an important area of concern as China claims a good portion of Arunachal Pradesh as South Tibet. In the 1962 Indo-China war, China had transgressed the border and occupied the disputed area, but withdrew to the international boundary (McMahon line) after announcing ceasefire. However, it continues to claim Arunachal Pradesh as its territory under Indian occupation, which is why, the visit of Dalai Lama to Tawang monastery in Arunachal had become a huge bilateral controversy.

As for **Tripura**, it also saw conflicts due to illegal Bangladeshi infiltration in the state. The immigrants outnumbered the native tribal population and created troubles for them. There was a fear of becoming a minority in their own native state. This identity crisis gave voice to various groups like National Liberation Front of Tripura (1989) and the All Tripura Tiger Force (formed by local aboriginal tribes in 1990) which worked for **expulsion of all Bengali-speaking immigrant settlers** who entered Tripura after 1956 and restore land to tribals under 'Tripura Land Revenue and Land Reforms Act, 1960.

Mizoram

After independence, there was a **general opposition by many Mizo people in demarcation of Manipur and Burma** (Myanmar). Voices were raised by Mizo people to either attain independence or join Burma. A social organisation Mizo National Famine Front was formed for this purpose in the late 1950s and in 1961, it officially became a political party with Laldenga as its President. Mizoram saw continuous unrest during this period. Mizoram Mizo insurgency ended with **1986 Mizo Accord**, with the Mizo National Front conceding to work within the Indian Constitution and to renounce violence and turmoil that had prevailed throughout Mizoram.

Nagaland

The situation in **Nagaland** became difficult when Nagas unilaterally declared themselves independent on 14th August 1947. Since then peace has been elusive to this state. The first insurgent group was Naga National Council (NNC) led by AZ Phizo, who infused the Naga Nationalism among Naga youth. In 1956 they went underground. In **1958, the Armed Forces Special Powers Act (AFSPA)** was enacted by the Government of India. In 1960, a Sixteen Point Agreement was signed between members of the Naga People's Congress and the Government of India. As part of this agreement, a new state of Nagaland was created in 1963. This new state could not meet the aspirations of Nagas as many Naga areas were left outside the state. In 1975, **Shillong Agreement** was signed. According to this agreement, NNC agreed to give up arms and accept the Indian Constitution.



Figure 14: Greater Nagaland sought by National Socialist Council of Nagaland (NSCN)

Later National Socialist Council of Nagaland (NSCN) was formed in 1980 to establish a **Greater Nagaland**, encompassing parts of Manipur, Nagaland, and the North Cachar Hills (Assam). The NSCN **split** in 1988 to form two groups, NSCN(IM) and NSCN(K). In 1988, the National Socialist Council of Nagaland (NSCN) insurgent group split into NSCN (IM) and NSCN (K) following a violent clash. The period from the 1950s to the 1990s was a turbulent period with insurgency and counterinsurgency resulting in civilian deaths. In 2007, the ceasefire agreement between NSCN (IM) and the Government of India was extended indefinitely. In August 2015, Government of India signed a Framework Agreement with National Socialist Council of Nagaland (NSCN) IM to resolve the long-standing Naga issue in a peaceful manner.

Meghalaya

Meghalaya's separate statehood of 1971 could not meet the demands of Khasi, Garo and other tribes. The wave of newly infused Garo and Khasi nationalism was creating a conflict with Indian Nationalism. The internal factional conflicts of this hill region gave rise to Meghalaya's first militant group: Hynniewtrep Achik Liberation Council (HALC), formed in 1992 to protect Meghalaya's indigenous population from rise of non-tribal immigration. It later split into Garo dominated Achik Matgrik Liberation Army (AMLA), and the joint Systeng-Khasi alliance of Hynniewtrep National Liberation Council (HNLC). HNLC wanted to set up Meghalaya into an **exclusive Khasi region**. Another active outfit of Meghalaya, the Garo National Liberation Army (GNLA) which was formed in 2009, is raising its demand for a '**Sovereign Garoland**' in the Western areas of Meghalaya.

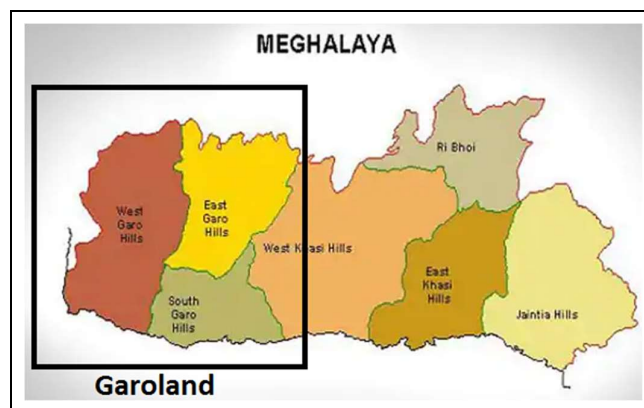


Figure 15: Garoland.

Inner Line Permit:

Inner line permit system is issued by the central government to restrict movement beyond the line to people having permit only. Presently, **Arunachal Pradesh, Mizoram, Manipur and Nagaland** are covered under the ILP system. It was imposed to prevent the flow of illegal migrants especially from neighbouring countries and to prevent encroachment by outsiders without the residents' permissions. ILP benefited in preventing the rise of insurgent and extremist feelings, giving confidence to the region that their culture and tradition is

being preserved. However, this quasi-visa regime hampers integration and developmental activities and can be used by a community to hold hegemony in the region.

Before the ILP regime was extended to Manipur in 2019, “Regulation of Visitors, Tenants and Migrant Worker’s Bill 2015” of Manipur made it mandatory for non-Manipur persons upon entering the state, to register themselves with the government for the reasons of their safety and for maintaining public order. This had hampered the economic growth of Manipur.

Government Measures:

1. **Separate statehood for each state**

Keeping in mind the regional demands and conditions of different areas of North Eastern Region, Government of India provided separate statehood to them- Nagaland in 1963; Manipur, Meghalaya and Tripura in 1972; Meghalaya in 1972 and Arunachal Pradesh and Mizoram in 1987.

2. **Assam Accord 1985**

Government implemented the Assam accord of 1985. Clause 6 of the Accord provides 'Constitutional, legislative, and administrative safeguard for protection of Assamese culture and identity. It states that any person who came after 24th of March, 1971 into India be identified as foreigners. All those foreigners who had entered Assam between 1951 and 1961 were to be given full citizenship, including the right to vote. The entrants between 1961 and 1971 were to be denied voting rights for ten years but would enjoy all other rights of citizenship.

3. **National Register of Citizen (NRC)**

The National Register of Citizens contains the names of all Indian citizens. Only once before has an NRC been prepared, in 1951. The 1951 NRC is now being updated for Assam, which has had a longstanding foreigner problem, to weed out illegal immigrants and deter further influx. The process of NRC update was taken up in Assam as per a Supreme Court order in 2013, under The Citizenship Act, 1955, and according to rules framed in the Assam Accord of 1985. For a person's name to be included in the updated NRC list of 2018, he/ she will have to furnish existence of name in the legacy data (The legacy data is the collective list of the NRC data of 1951 and the electoral rolls up to midnight on 24th March, 1971.) or prove linkage with the person whose name appears in the legacy data. People whose names have been left out of the NRC Assam can once again appeal to have their case reconsidered.

Current status of National Register of Citizen (NRC):

Government published the final citizenship list of Assam residents on 31st August 2019, to identify legal residents and weed out illegal immigrants. The citizens' list was updated after 68 years, ending four years of work and a four-decade-old demand seeking detection of illegal immigrants. This list excluded more than 19 lakh people in Assam, of the total 3.30 crore people who applied for it. As per the Union Home Minister, 'Non-inclusion of a person's name in the final list of National Register of Citizens (NRC) does not by itself amount to him or her being declared a foreigner.' The excluded people could file an appeal in Foreigners' Tribunal within 120 days (By 31st Dec, 2019) as per Section 8 of the Schedule to the Citizenship (Registration of Citizens and Issues of National Identity Cards) Rules, 2003. Cases are to be disposed of within 6 months by the Foreign Tribunal. The NRC updation process has also delayed the Aadhar seeing of more than 27 lakh residents of Assam, as their accounts have been frozen after the publication of NRC list.

4. **Citizenship (Amendment) Act 2019**

Passed in the Parliament, this amendment proposes to permit members of six communities — Hindus, Sikhs, Buddhists, Jains, Parsis and Christians from Pakistan, Bangladesh and Afghanistan — to continue to live in India if they entered India before December 14, 2014. It also reduced the requirement for citizenship from 11 years out of the preceding 14 years, to just 6 years. However, a large number of organisations in Assam protested against this Bill as it could grant citizenship to Bangladeshi Hindu illegal migrants.

5. Constitutional provisions

Constitution has special provision for the Tribal areas of 4 North-Eastern states of Assam, Meghalaya, Tripura and Mizoram under its Sixth Schedule. The sixth schedule to the Constitution includes 10 autonomous district councils in 4 states:

- a. **Assam-** Bodoland Territorial Council, Karbi Anglong Autonomous Council, Dima Hasao Autonomous District Council.
- b. **Meghalaya-** Garo Hills Autonomous District Council, Jaintia Hills Autonomous District Council, Khasi Hills Autonomous District Council.
- c. **Tripura-** Tripura Tribal Areas Autonomous District Council.
- d. **Mizoram-** Chakma Autonomous District Council, Lai Autonomous District Council, Mara Autonomous District Council

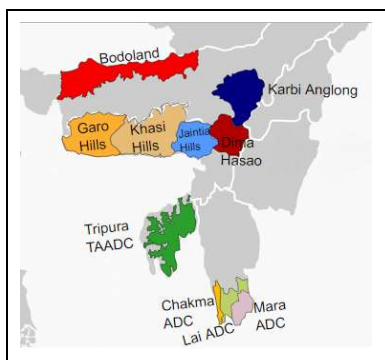


Figure 16: Autonomous District Councils of North Eastern states

Article 244 of the Constitution deals with the administration of these tribal areas. Governor is empowered to organise and re-organise the autonomous districts. If there are different tribes in an autonomous district, the Governor can divide the district into several autonomous regions. Each autonomous district has a district council consisting of 30 members, of whom four are nominated by the Governor and the remaining 26 are elected for 5 years. Each autonomous region also has a separate regional council. The district and regional councils within their territorial jurisdictions can constitute village councils or courts for trial of suits and cases between the tribes. The acts of Parliament or the state legislature do not apply to autonomous districts and autonomous regions or apply with specified modifications and exceptions. The Governor can appoint a commission to examine and report on any matter relating to the administration of the autonomous districts or regions. He may dissolve a district or regional council on the recommendation of the commission.

6. Nagaland Peace Agreement

The NSCN-IM signed a ceasefire agreement with the Indian government in 1997 for an indefinite period. Central government appointed R. N. Ravi as interlocutor in 2014 to solve the Nagaland issue. These efforts of the government led to the signing of a Framework Agreement with National Socialist Council of Nagaland (NSCN) IM to resolve the long-standing Naga issue in a peaceful manner. With progressive steps taken from both ends, centre signed a preamble in November 2017 with six Naga National Political Groups for further participative discussions to include all groups together.

The conflicts of the North-Eastern region showed that while communal and secessionist movements disruptive of the nation cannot be accommodated and have to be opposed and defeated. It is necessary to accommodate politics of identity-based on language or culture, or economic deprivation and inequality, for they are quite compatible with progressive and secular nationalism. While it was and is necessary to stop the entry of foreigners, massive detention and deportation of the existing illegal entrants is not easy and perhaps not possible. Rather, their gradual integration and assimilation is the only long-term and realistic solution.

India is a nation with high ethnic, cultural, linguistic and religious diversity. A democratic nation should use its diversity to bind itself together by giving voice to all types of aspirations and promoting equal opportunities for growth and development of all sections. Regional aspirations are very much a part of democratic politics. Expression of regional issues is not an aberration or an abnormal phenomenon. The best way to respond to regional aspirations is through democratic negotiations rather than force. Though the North-Eastern region has suffered from various issues in the past, there is a need to develop this region holistically, from providing infrastructural connectivity to understanding the different needs and demands of the region. Regional imbalance in economic development must be corrected to dissipate the feeling of regional discrimination. North Eastern Region is India's gateway to South-East Asia and it can play a crucial role in India's 'Act East Foreign Policy' if the grievances of the region are addressed with proper dialogue and in a peaceful manner.

3.3. Telangana

The Nizam of Hyderabad had declared Hyderabad as an independent nation on August 15, 1947 and had entered into a **standstill agreement** with India on 29th November 1947 to maintain the status quo. However, there was a rise in people's movement against the oppressions of Nizam, to join India. The **Telangana movement that was started in 1946 by Communists** against the oppressive feudal lords, also raised the voice for a merger with India. Meanwhile, Hyderabad state had been steadily becoming more theocratic since the beginning of the 20th century. The Razakars also terrorized the Hindu population and its sympathizers, causing many to flee to safety into the jungles or neighbouring Indian provinces. Therefore, Sardar Patel described the idea of an independent Hyderabad as "an ulcer in the heart of India which needed to be removed surgically." Hence under his overall guidance, it was decided that police action would be taken to annex the Princely State of Hyderabad. Accordingly, police action was carried out by the Government of India in September **1948** under the codename of '**Operation Polo**' in which Nizam's forces known as Razakars, were easily defeated and Hyderabad was annexed.

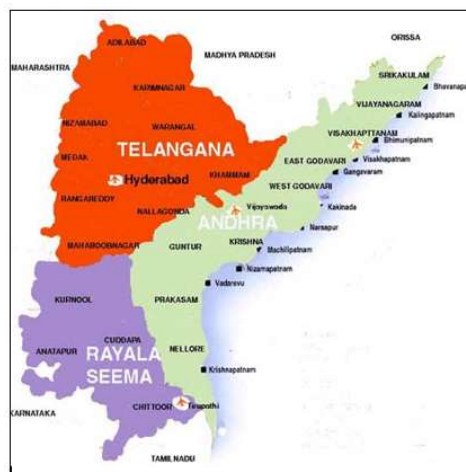


Figure 27: Regional statehood demands

Mulki Rules and Gentlemen's Agreement: The Nizam's government in Hyderabad had accepted as early as 1918 that in all state services those who were born in the state or had lived there for fifteen years (i.e., **Mulkis**) would be given preference, while restrictions would be imposed on the employment of outsiders. The 1956 '**Gentlemen's Agreement**' provided for the retention of the Mulki Rules in a modified form, a fixed share of places in ministry for Telangana leaders, and preference for students from Telangana in admission to educational institutions including to Osmania University.

Andhra was the first state to be carved out (from erstwhile Madras state) on a linguistic basis on 1st November 1953 and later, **Telugu-speaking Telangana area of Nizam's Hyderabad state was merged with the Andhra region** after the final report of Fazl Ali or 1st State Reorganisation Commission in 1955, which broadly accepted language as one of the basis of reorganization of states. Hyderabad state travelled its course from **monarchy** (under Nizam of Hyderabad) **to democracy** via various people led movements, mainly the Communist-led peasant revolt which started in Telangana in 1946 and lasted until 1951. Telangana was the largest of the three regions of Andhra Pradesh state, inhabiting about 40% of the state's population. The merger was hoped to cement the Telugu people culturally, politically and economically. The merger was followed by a **1956 'Gentlemen's Agreement'** between the leaders of the two regions with promises to safeguard Telangana's interests like retention of the Mulki Rules in a modified form and a fixed share of places in the ministry for Telangana leaders.

The state of Andhra saw a rising people movement for the **division of 'Vishalandhra'** (present Andhra and Telangana states together) by **carving out a separate 'Telangana' state from it**. There were various disparities that existed between Telangana and Andhra region:

1. Telangana's per capita income was less than coastal Andhra districts;
2. The literacy rate in Telangana was less compared to coastal Andhra
3. Road development was also very low in Telangana compared to coastal Andhra.
4. The number of hospital facilities were much less compared to coastal Andhra.
5. Unlike the Andhra region, Telangana's sources of irrigation were scanty, consisting mostly of rain-fed tanks and wells.

Majorly the separatist sentiment was based on the **notion of injustice and discrimination** in employment in state institutions. There was a popular belief that the politics and administration of the state were dominated by people from the Andhra region (Andhrans). People protested for the failure of the government to implement the Gentlemen's Agreement and implementation of the **Mulki Rules**.

Towards the end of 1968, the students of Osmania University went on a strike on the question of discrimination in employment and education. The strike soon spread to other parts of Telangana. Supreme Court judgement in March 1969 declaring the reservation of posts under the 1956 agreement to be constitutionally invalid. This further intensified the movement. A massive, often violent, agitation demanding separation of Telangana from Andhra Pradesh now spread all over Telangana where schools and colleges remained closed for nearly nine months.

The agitation was soon joined by organizations of non-gazette government employees, who went on an indefinite strike. There was the participation of a large number of teachers, lawyers, businessmen and other sections of the middle classes. To lead the movement for a separate Telangana state in an organized manner, **the Telangana Praja Samiti (TPS)** was soon formed in 1969. The central government strongly resisted the demand for bifurcation and tried to play a mediatory role. It urged the Andhra government to adopt a sympathetic attitude towards Telangana's economic demands and to redress its grievances. However, the movement declined over a period of time and petered out after the summer of 1969 due to Central government's firm opposition to the breakup of the state. The movement suffered from inevitable fatigue and failed to mobilize the peasantry. A compromise was reached between the Centre and regional party after the 1971 elections to continue the Mulki Rules and to form a **Telangana regional committee with statutory powers** for looking after the special needs of the region.

As a counter to the Telangana struggle, there was a rise of the **Jai Andhra Movement** in 1972 in Andhra-Rayalaseema regions. Andhra middle class were convinced that the Mulki Rules, however much amended, would adversely affect recruitment of Andhrans to state services. The political storm broke when the Supreme Court made a judgement in October 1972 sanctioning the continuance of Mulki Rules. As in the case of Telangana, students and non-gazette employee's unions took the initiative in organizing meetings, strikes, and demonstrations, which sometimes turned violent and demanded the repeal of the Mulki Rules and other acts of alleged discrimination against Andhra government employees. Doctors, Lawyers, and Businessmen, the big landowners and rich peasants also took an active part in the agitation.

The Centre announced a compromise formula, according to which the Mulki Rules would be further modified and would continue in Hyderabad city till the end of 1977 and in the rest of Telangana till the end of 1980. The formula was seen as favourable to Telangana and Andhra agitation now turned against both the central government and the concept of a united Andhra Pradesh. The Andhra non-gazette employees went on an indefinite strike. Demands for the creation of a separate state for the Andhra region were raised continuously. The movement turned violent in many places. The Central Reserve Police Force and the army had to be brought in at many places.

In December 1972, the Lok Sabha passed the Mulki Rules Bill and on 17 January 1973, the President imposed President's Rule in the state. Faced with a determined central government and as 'agitation fatigue'

set in, the separatist movement subsided, especially as it could not mobilize the mass of the peasantry and the working class. Moreover, the epicentre of the movement remained in the coastal districts. Though the Rayalaseema region was opposing the Mulki Rules it did not feel strongly about the demand for a separate state. Finally, in September 1973, the Central government put forward a **six-point formula**:

1. **Discontinuation of Mulki Rules.**
2. Accelerated **development of the backward areas** of the State by the formation of State-level Planning Board and Sub-Committees.
3. Adequate **preference to be given to local candidates** in the matter of admission to educational institutions.
4. Preference to local candidates in matters of direct employment.
5. A high-power administrative tribunal should be constituted to deal with the grievances of services regarding appointments and other allied matters.
6. In order that implementation of measures based on the above principles does not give rise to litigation and consequent uncertainty, the Constitution should be suitably amended to implement above provision without any uncertainty by conferring on the President enabling powers in this behalf.

Thereafter, the demand for division of the state gradually petered out in both parts of Andhra Pradesh.

Re-rise of the movement for separate statehood:

1. **Period till 2010:**
Employees of the Telangana region accused state government in 1985 for the violation of Six Point Formula. As a result, the state government, headed by N T Rama Rao, brought out a Government Order to safeguard the interests of Telangana people in government employment. The order was able to maintain peace in the region until 1999 when the Congress demanded the creation of Telangana state. Kalvakuntla Chandrasekhar Rao launched Telangana Rashtra Samiti on 27 April 2001 with a demand for seeking the constitution of a second States Reorganisation Commission to look into Telangana state demand. The Central government rejected the proposal saying smaller states were “neither viable nor conducive” for the integrity of the country. The agitation continued till the central government in 2010 constituted a five-member Srikrishna Committee to look into statehood demand.
2. **Period from 2011-2014:**
The Srikrishna Committee report suggested establishing definite constitutional and statutory provisions for socio-economic development and political empowerment of Telangana region. However, if the consensus is not built on the above recommendation, bifurcation of the state to be seen as the second preference. People and state political parties organize a ‘**Telangana March**’ in Hyderabad on the lines of the ‘Dandi March’ in 2012. 2013 witness **Chalo Assembly March** to lay siege to the state legislative Assembly in Hyderabad and demand the formation of Telangana. The Congress Working Committee (CWC) passed a resolution on July 2013 to create the State of Telangana. As a reaction to this bifurcation, a fresh protest was sparked off as **Samaikyandhra Movement** to keep the Andhra state united. It was supported by people of Coastal Andhra & Rayalaseema regions. A Group of Ministers (GoM) was created to settle issues concerning the new state and the State of Andhra Pradesh. The Central Government later approved the Telangana draft bill prepared by this GoM. After the parliamentary procedure, the Andhra Pradesh Reorganisation bill received the assent of the President and Government of India declared 2 June 2014 as Telangana Formation Day.
3. **Current Status:**

Telangana is the 28th state of the Union of India with Hyderabad as its capital. Andhra Pradesh and Telangana both will share the capital Hyderabad for 10 years until Andhra Pradesh can establish its

Article 371D: Special provisions for the state of Andhra Pradesh

The President may by order made with respect to the state of Andhra Pradesh provide, having regard to the requirements of the state as a whole, for equitable opportunities and facilities for the people belonging to different parts of state, in the matter of public employment and in the matter of education and different provisions may be made for various parts of the state.

own capital Amaravati (on the southern banks of the Krishna river in Guntur district). The revenues of Hyderabad and state governing power are under Telangana state only. The Government of India in 2014 extended Article 371-D to the state of Telangana by the **Andhra Pradesh Reorganisation Act of 2014** providing similar benefits to the people of the state. This also raised a debate that whether Centre could for bifurcation of a State, even if the State did not pass a resolution for the same.

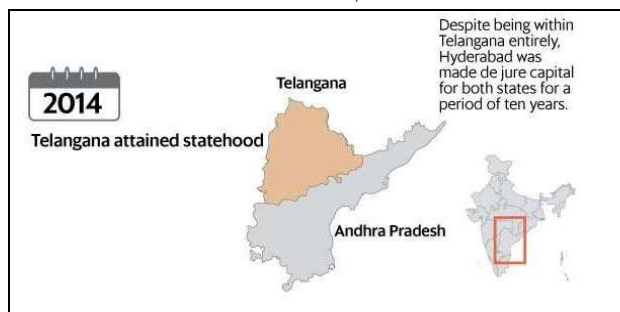


Figure 18: Bifurcation of the State of Andhra Pradesh (Livemint)

The movement highlights that it is necessary not only to alleviate economic disparities between different states but also to promote integrated development within a state. Regional demands must be addressed to create a sense of economic, social, administrative and political security of the voices of the people. Mere linguistic and cultural unity might not be enough to inculcate a feeling of oneness and solidarity among a state's people. Many regions of India including Telangana, Rayalaseema, etc. suffer from regional disparities that need to be corrected to dissipate the feeling of regional discrimination among the people. Giving a channel to different voices and representation to the minority section is the best suitable way to address any future challenges of rising regional aspirations.

3.4. Gorkhaland

Gorkhaland is an autonomous district hill council region in the northern area of India's West Bengal state. This region included in Schedule six of the Constitution, is administered by the **Gorkhaland Territorial Administration** and includes areas of Darjeeling and Kalimpong. The region witnesses agitations, shutdowns and even instances of violence over demand for creation of Gorkhaland.

Around 1788, the Gorkhas invaded Sikkim and captured most of it which include Darjeeling with Siliguri. They administered it for 40 years when finally, after the British-Nepal war, Nepal ceded its territory to the British. The ceded territory included Darjeeling, Siliguri, the entire terai, Shimla, Nainital, Garhwal hills, Kumaon up to the Sutlej i.e., the entire region from Teesta to Sutlej. Lepchas were nomadic tribes and were engaged in Jhoom (shifting) cultivation in the hill regions of Nepal and Sikkim. When the British started tea cultivation in the 1850s and the narrow-gauge railway line in Darjeeling, a lot of people came here and started residing permanently. These people did not have the modern concept of international borders. They understood that the land was

India-Nepal Friendship Treaty

Signed in **1950**, this bilateral pact permits free movement of people and goods between the India and Nepal. It envisages close relationship and collaboration on matters of defence and foreign affairs. Articles 6 and 7 allow same privileges to each other's citizens, in matter of residence, ownership of property, participation in trade and commerce, movement and other privileges of similar nature. It **allows Indian and Nepali nationals to move freely across border without passport or visa.**

under the possession of their king and when they came to work under British enterprise as labourers, they thought they were actually following the orders of the Gorkha King and were present in their own land. When these events were happening, India, as we know today, was still not formed. But after 1947, India entered into an infamous treaty with Nepal in **1950- The Treaty of Peace and Friendship** to allow Indian and Nepali nationals to move freely across border without passport or visa.

The Gorkhaland movement is a long-standing quest for a separate State of Gorkhaland within India for Nepali-speaking Indian citizens (often known as 'Gorkhas'). With roots dating back over a century, Gorkhaland is a classic sub nationalist movement, not unlike those that have produced other States, most recently Telangana, Uttarakhand, Jharkhand, and Chhattisgarh. Beyond all else, Gorkhaland is a desire for the recognition, respect, and integration of Gorkha people in the Indian nation-state. Contradictory to popular misunderstanding, the movement is neither separatist nor anti-nationalist; it is about inclusion and belonging in India. As Gorkha National Liberation Front founder Subash Ghisingh explained during the first Gorkhaland agitation in the 1980s, "We Nepali-Indians who have nothing to do with Nepal are constantly confused with 'Nepalis', that is, citizens of Nepal, a foreign country. But if there is Gorkhaland then our belonging to an Indian State, just like your identity, will be clear."

With those demands unrequited, a second Gorkhaland movement emerged in 2007 under the leadership of Bimal Gurung of the **Gorkha Janmukti Morcha (GJM)** and has flared intermittently. Heralding self-governance, recognition, and belonging in India, Gorkhaland remains the dream for Darjeeling citizens and many Nepali-speaking Indians across the country. It stands as a key means to redress the Gurkhas' enduring history of discrimination, misconception, and marginalization in India. Herein lies the rub — and primary antagonism with West Bengal. By demanding Gorkhaland, the people of Darjeeling-Kalimpong are opting out of West Bengal's domination, and opting into the democratic frameworks of India writ large. Understanding Gorkhaland requires understanding its underlying histories. In many ways, the Gorkhas of Darjeeling have yet to taste the liberation of India's Independence. The local economy illustrates the continuities between the colonial and postcolonial eras: Gorkhas remain pegged to the lowest levels of employment, while outsiders own the tea industry, meaning its profits flow out of the hills. These economic constraints are exacerbated by the misunderstandings Gorkhas face when they seek education and work in places like Kolkata, Bengaluru, and New Delhi. Called 'foreigners', 'outsiders' and 'chinkis', racial discrimination affects aspiring Gurkhas at every turn.

Reasons for Resurgence:

1. Instances like the attempted imposition of compulsory Bengali are not read as one-off events or mere slights in Darjeeling. They are seen as extensions of precisely the histories of domination that the Gorkhas are trying to escape. Trinamool Congress (TMC) has lately made significant inroads into the hills. West Bengal's recent creation of the Kalimpong district (2017) and the State's doling out of Tribal Development Boards to ethnicities within the Gorkha conglomerate (Tamang, Sherpa, etc.) might appear well-intended gestures but in paving the way for the TMC's electoral gains, they appear to many as clear examples of 'divide and rule'— causing splits in the Gorkha electorate and undermining the already-limited authority of the GTA.
2. The sudden resurgence of Gorkhaland has caught many by surprise. But today's turmoil mustn't obscure deeper histories. For Gorkhas, the troubling realities of colonial and present-day Darjeeling are eerily similar: linguistic chauvinism, ethnic and racial discrimination, resource extraction, unilateral territorial claims, the denial of self-governance, political suppression; and ultimately, an unwillingness to respect the 'native point of view'.
3. This double bind of colonial nostalgia and neo-colonial regional domination produces a sense of constant déjà vu, leading to the desperate feeling that genuine progress is out of reach. These unsettling truths demand some soul-searching.

Gorkhaland Territorial Administration (GTA):

GTA was created in 2012 through a tripartite agreement signed by Government of India, Government of West Bengal and Gorkha Janmukti Morcha (GJM), replacing the Darjeeling Gorkha District Hill Council. It is a semi-autonomous administrative body. It has administrative, executive and financial powers but no legislative powers. GTA presently has three hill subdivisions Darjeeling, Kurseong and Mirik and some areas of Siliguri subdivision of Darjeeling district and the whole of Kalimpong district under its authority. Lack of legislative powers means that the people of the region have no control over laws to govern by themselves. Conciliatory set-ups like the Darjeeling Gorkha Hill Council (1988-2012) and the GTA (2012-present) have failed to provide meaningful autonomy. Dooars again have been left out and instead, a verification team has been set to identify “Gorkha majority” areas in the Dooars.

These cases have shown us that even after seven decades of Independence, some of the issues of national integration are not fully resolved. We have seen that regional aspirations ranging from demands of statehood and economic development to autonomy and separation keep coming up. The period since 1980 accentuated these tensions and tested the capacity of democratic politics to accommodate the demands of diverse sections of the society. A reconsideration is in order. Brisk air, Himalayan vistas, and beautiful tea plantations may be Darjeeling’s enduring attributes, but these do not define the life experiences of those who call this embattled place home.

3.5. Kashmir

The Union Territory of Jammu & Kashmir is located in the northernmost part of India near the Karakoram Range and western Himalayas. The State has two capitals i.e. Jammu being the winter capital and Srinagar, the summer capital. J&K was a princely state during the rule of the British East India Company and also during the British Raj in India from 1846-1947. It was created as a princely state post the First Anglo Sikh War (1845-1846) between the East India Company and the Sikh Kingdom. The East India Company annexed Gilgit Baltistan, Kashmir Valley, Jammu, and Ladakh and as war indemnity sold the region to Gulab Singh Dogra (Raja of Jammu). Gulab Singh became the King in 1822. Post his death Ranbir Singh came to power around 1857 and after him, Hari Singh was in charge of the state in 1925.

Kashmir Conflict:

After India’s independence, three rulers had still not merged their territories with India. These were Maharaja Hari Singh of Kashmir, Nawab of Junagadh, and the Nizam of Hyderabad. Kashmir’s ruler Maharaja Hari Singh (great-grandson of Gulab Singh) did not exercise his option to join India or Pakistan. He wanted to remain independent, otherwise, he would lose his power to rule, as he was a Hindu king but the majority in his state were Muslims who would have chosen to join Pakistan. Before he could take a decision for the future of his state, thousands of tribals, from the other side of the border, invaded into Kashmir on 20th October 1947 and wreaked havoc in the border areas. On 26th October 1947 Hari Singh acceded to India via **Instrument of Accession** in return for the Indian military intervention to save Kashmir, and to engage against the Pakistan-supported forces, in what would be called the first India-Pakistan war. According to the instrument, Indian jurisdiction would extend to defence, external affairs, communications.

On 27th October, India’s 1st Sikh battalion flew into Srinagar in what is called as the first India-Pakistan war, and it was secured from the invaders. However, in the other areas, the fighting between Indian troops, Pakistani army and the tribesmen continued for more than a year after the accession. The western and northern regions presently known as **Azad Kashmir and Gilgit Baltistan** passed under the control of Pakistan, while the remaining territory stayed under Indian control, later becoming the Indian administered state of Jammu and Kashmir. On 5th March 1948, setting up of a **popularly elected interim government** with **Sheikh Mohammed Abdullah** as the Prime Minister was announced by Maharaja Hari Singh.

India referred the dispute to the United Nations. At last, a ceasefire was arranged at the end of 1948. After prolonged negotiations, the cease-fire was finally agreed to by both countries and came into effect. The terms of the cease-fire were laid out in a United Nations resolution of 13th August 1948, and were adopted by the UN on January 5th, 1949.

1. **Decision on the basis of plebiscite** - On 5 January 1949, UNCIP (United Nations Commission for India and Pakistan) resolution 47 stated that the question of the accession of the State of Jammu and Kashmir to India or Pakistan will be decided through a free and impartial plebiscite. (A continued demand for plebiscite is not feasible as the people of the erstwhile state of Jammu and Kashmir, already participated in the Indian democratic process in 1951 when Sheikh Abdullah was appointed as the Prime Minister of the state.)
2. **United Nations Military Observer Group for India and Pakistan** - It also established the United Nations Military Observer Group for India and Pakistan (UNMOGIP) to monitor the cease-fire line.



Figure 19: Jammu and Kashmir before 2019 re-organization

Jammu and Kashmir in 1950-1959 Period:

The representatives of Jammu and Kashmir government conferred with the representatives of Indian Government and arrived at an agreement in order to endorse the main decisions of the Constituent Assembly of the State of J&K. The state was given a special position under this arrangement and was later on known as the "**Delhi Agreement, 1952**". On February 6th, 1954, the Constituent Assembly voted to ratify the state of Jammu and Kashmir's accession to India. After consultation with the state's Constituent Assembly, the **1954 Presidential Order** was issued, specifying the articles of the Indian Constitution that applied to the state. The Constituent Assembly formally adopted the Constitution of the Indian state of Jammu and Kashmir on November 17, 1956, and entered into force on January 26, 1957. Accordingly, elections were held in the state of Jammu and Kashmir.

Article 370 was incorporated into the Indian Constitution, which stipulated that the other articles of the Constitution that gave powers to the Central Government would be applied to Jammu and Kashmir only with the concurrence of the State's constituent assembly. Article 370 in Part XXI of the Constitution grants special status to the state and became operative on 17th November 1952. Legislative powers of the Centre over the State were limited, to the three subjects of foreign affairs, defence, and communications. The President had no power to declare a financial emergency in relation to the state. It clearly stated that the provisions with respect to the State of J&K are only temporary and not permanent but Article 370, itself, could be abrogated or amended only upon the recommendation of the State's Constituent Assembly.

Article 35 A was incorporated into the Constitution on 14 May 1954, by a Presidential Order- **The Constitution (Application to Jammu and Kashmir) Order, 1954**, after the Delhi Agreement was signed between the then Prime Minister of Jammu and Kashmir, Mr Sheikh Mohammad Abdullah and Prime Minister

of India Pt. Jawahar Lal Nehru. It gave a carte blanche to J&K Legislature to define the classes of persons who are, or shall be, permanent residents of the State of Jammu and Kashmir and to confer on them special rights and privileges in public sector jobs, acquisition of property in the State, scholarships and other public aid and welfare. Article restricts the Right of the Non-Residents of the State of Jammu and Kashmir to hold, acquire any immovable property within the State. It also restricts their right to get any government job, scholarship, aid from the State Government. It protects laws of state from being challenged on the grounds of violation of fundamental rights in the Indian Constitution. It also provides powers to the state to give and abstain privileges to people who migrated there during independence. Addition or deletion of an Article in the Constitution requires an amendment to the Constitution which could be done only by Parliament as laid down in Article 368. But, Article 35A was never presented before Parliament. This meant the route of law-making through the Parliament was side-tracked by the President in this order to add Article 35A.

Jammu and Kashmir in 1960-1989 Period:

In 1959, China annexed Tibet. Tensions rose between China and India on the issue of the boundary between Tibet and India, especially in Aksai Chin. Chinese launched simultaneous offensives in Ladakh and across the McMahon Line known as **Sino-India war** on 20 October 1962. In 1963, the Chinese government signed an agreement with Pakistan on the boundary between the Northern Areas and the Xinjiang province, ceding to the Chinese, the Trans-Karakoram Tract which was part of J&K State and is now administered by China. In November 1964, Articles 356 and 357 of the Indian Constitution were extended to the State, by virtue of which the Central Government could assume the powers for governance of the State and exercise its legislative powers.

Indo- Pak War 1965 began on 5th August 1965 under the name '**Operation Gibraltar**'. Pakistan was involved in infiltration into Jammu and Kashmir by trained 'irregulars' assisted and guided by its armed forces. Their effort failed forcing the Pakistani army to take on Indian forces along the Chamb-Akhnoor-Jurian salient. The aim was to sever the main communication link between India and the Kashmir valley. Pakistan plans soon lay in ruins as Indian Army responded with vigour and determination. Indian troops captured the strategic Haji Pir Pass and crossed the international border at Lahore. Finally, India and Pakistan met in **Tashkent** in January 1966 where they agreed to withdraw to their pre-war positions.

Bangladesh Liberation War began on 26th March 1971 and culminated in December 1971 with the defeat of Pakistan and creation of Bangladesh. In 1972, India and Pakistan agreed to respect the cease-fire as Line of Control (LOC) as part of the **Shimla Agreement**. The agreement also stated that the final settlement of Kashmir would be decided bilaterally in the future. On 13th April 1984 the Indian Army took control of the **Siachen Glacier** region of Kashmir in **Operation Meghdoot**. In **1999 Kargil War - Operation Vijay** was an Indian operation to clear the Kargil sector and **Operation Safed Sagar** was undertaken to flush the Pakistani Army from vacated Indian positions in the Kargil sector along the Line of Control.

Kashmir Insurgency 1989:

Post-1987 elections, protests and anti-India demonstrations began in the Valley, followed by police firing and curfew. The end of the Soviet occupation of Afghanistan released a great deal of militant energy and weapons to Kashmir. Pakistan provided arms and training to both indigenous and foreign militants in Kashmir. There were some groups that supported the complete independence of Kashmir, while others sought Kashmir's accession to Pakistan resulting into a fight between insurgents and the government as well as thousands of civilians who died as a result of being targeted by the various armed groups.

After Sheikh Abdullah's death, his son Farooq Abdullah took over as Chief Minister of Jammu and Kashmir. He reached an accord with the Prime Minister Rajiv Gandhi and announced an alliance with the Congress party for the elections of 1987. The **elections were allegedly rigged in favour of Abdullah**. This further alienated the local population. Moreover, the Pakistani Inter-Services Intelligence had been encouraging and aiding the Kashmir insurgent movement through an insurgency as it was an easy way to keep Indian troops distracted and cause international condemnation of India. Also, after the invasion of Afghanistan by the Soviet Union, Mujahedeen fighters, with the aid of Pakistan, slowly infiltrated Kashmir

with the goal of spreading radical Islamist ideology. The government's decision to transfer 99 acres of forest land near Amarnath in the Kashmir valley to a Hindu organisation (for setting up temporary shelters and facilities for Hindu pilgrims) solidified communal feelings and led to one of the largest protest rallies in Jammu and Kashmir. After insurgency started in Kashmir valley in the late 1980s, Indian troops entered the valley to control it. Since then, the troops have been accused and held accountable for several humanitarian abuses and having engaged in mass extrajudicial killings, torture, rape and sexual abuse. The insurgents have also abused human rights, engaging in what some have called an ethnic cleansing by exterminating Kashmiri Pandits from the valley of Kashmir.

During the early period of militancy in 1989, multiple militant groups strived to Islamise Kashmiri culture and political setup to create a conducive environment for the merger of Kashmir with Pakistan. Numerous Islamist groups were formed in early 1990 who advocated *Nizam-e-Mustafa (Rule of Muhammad)* as the objective for their struggle. Militant groups like **Hizbul Mujahideen and Jamaat-e-Islami** asserted that the struggle of Kashmir will continue till Islamic Caliphate is achieved in Kashmir. Murder of Kashmiri Hindus, intellectuals, liberals and activists were described as necessary to get rid of un-Islamic elements. Concurrently, all cinema houses, beauty parlours, wine shops, bars, video centres, use of cosmetics and similar things were banned by militant groups. Apart from militants, Kashmir witnessed Islamization when Kashmir government changed the names of about 2,500 villages from their native names to new Islamic names.

Jammu and Kashmir after 1989 to till now:

In the second half of 1989, the alleged assassinations of the Indian spies and political collaborators by **JKLF (Jammu and Kashmir Liberation Front)** intensified. The daughter of the then interior affairs minister, Mufti Mohammad Sayeed was kidnapped in December 1989 and four terrorists had to be released for her release. This event led to mass celebrations all over the valley. Farooq Abdullah resigned in January after the appointment of Jag Mohan Malhotra as the Governor of Jammu and Kashmir. Subsequently, J&K was placed under Governor's Rule under Article 92 of the state constitution. In 1990, the insurgency escalated after the Indian Army killed about 100 demonstrators at Gawakadal Bridge. Attacks and threats led to the flight of almost all Hindus from the Kashmir valley and Central government had to impose Armed Forces Special Powers Act (AFSPA) in Jammu and Kashmir.

In 1994, **Masood Azhar** was arrested in Kashmir by Indian Government and was released in 1999 in exchange of hostages of hijacked Indian Airlines flight IC 814. Soon after his release, Azhar founded the **Jaish-e-Mohammed in 2000** with the motive of separating Kashmir from India and merging the province with Pakistan. The 2016 Pathankot attack on Indian airbase is said to be masterminded by Masood Azhar and his brother. The responsibility of February 14, 2019 attack in **Pulwama** on the convoy of CRPF was also claimed by Azhar's terror group.

The Indian army has conducted various operations to control and eliminate insurgency in the region such as **Operation Sarp Vinash (2003)** in which a multi-battalion offensive was launched against terrorists from groups like Lashkar-e-Taiba, Harkat-ul-Jihad-e-Islami, al-Badr and Jaish-e-Mohammad who had been constructing shelters in the Pir Panjal region of Jammu and Kashmir over several years. Former PM Atal Bihari Vajpayee, in 2003, gave the doctrine of '**Insaniyat, Jamhooriyat and Kashmiriyat**', meaning- **humanity, democracy and keeping the sanctity of the people of Kashmir**, which later became a cornerstone of the forces of reconciliation in the State.

Fidayeen attacks fell off steeply after 2003, and the influx of insurgents from the Pakistani side of the LoC also declined sharply. The LeT and smaller groups of "jihadi" persuasion retained a presence in Kashmir - as they still do - but the offensive posture of 1999-2003 yielded to a low profile. Beginning in 2004, Pakistan began to end its support for insurgents in Kashmir. This happened because terrorist groups linked to Kashmir twice tried to assassinate Pakistani President General Pervez Musharraf. His successor, Asif Ali Zardari has continued the policy, calling insurgents in Kashmir "terrorists". By 2006, the insurgency in

Kashmir declined to a few limited instances of car bomb and an occasional ambush of security forces, due to frequent raids by Indian security forces on hideouts.

A new generation of resistance

The summer of 2008 saw the valley's largest demonstrations since 1994 against Indian authority due to Amarnath land transfer controversy, as hundreds of thousands joined rallies and marches. Since 2008 the turmoil has taken a new dimension when people, particularly **youngsters** of the Kashmir valley have started **pelting stones** on security forces to express their aggression and protest for the loss of freedom. In turn, they get attacked by the armed personnel with pellets, rubber bullets, slingshots and tear gas shells. This leads to eye-injuries and several other kinds of injuries to many people.

Kashmiri Jaish-e-Mohammed member **Mohammad Afzal Guru** was hanged on February 2013 for his role in 2001 Indian Parliament terror attack. It led to protests in Kashmir in which two young men were killed. In July 2016, **Burhan Wani**, a commander of Kashmiri militant and separatist group Hizbul Mujahideen was killed by Indian security forces during insurgency operations. After the news of his death spread, violent protests erupted in some areas of Kashmir Valley. Separatist leaders called for a shutdown in Kashmir which was repeatedly extended and police stations and security forces were attacked by mobs.

The Kashmir Valley has become a **militarized zone**, effectively occupied by Indian security forces. According to the United Nations, Indian soldiers have been accused of excesses, including firing on protesters and denying due process to people arrested. An entire generation of young Kashmiris have been raised during the 30-year insurgency and they are deeply alienated from India. Additionally, Kashmir valley serves as a conduit for infiltrators who conducts various terrorist activities in India. The tussle between national parties and regional parties for power in the state is perceived negatively and portrayed as a clash between the Kashmiris and the Centre and sometimes between Islam and Hinduism. The media has also helped escalate the conflict in Kashmir. The void between (mainland) India and Kashmir has widened. The people of Kashmir now fear sending their young ones to other parts of India as people's perception of Kashmiris is being influenced adversely by the media. Tourism in Kashmir has suffered because of violent activities and is affecting the economy of the state. Even projects like TAPI gas pipeline, SAARC summits etc. are suffering because of tensions between Indo-Pak relations.

Current status:

Article 370

Government abrogated Article 370 of the Constitution which gives special status to Jammu and Kashmir and said the state will be split into **two Union Territories** - Jammu and Kashmir with an Assembly and Ladakh without an assembly.

Article 35A

On 5 August 2019, the President of India issued a Presidential Order, whereby all the provisions of the Indian Constitution are to apply to the State without any special provisions. This would imply that the State's separate Constitution stands abrogated, including the privileges allowed by Article 35A. As a result of this provision, Indian citizens from other states can purchase land or property in Jammu & Kashmir. Females will get their right to property even if they decide to marry an individual who is not from Jammu and Kashmir.

The resolution of the "conflict in Kashmir" is a prerequisite for the resolution of the "conflict over Kashmir," which has been boiling since 1947. The Kashmir issue should not be politicised for narrow electoral gains. It should also not be emotively laced to the idea of "national integration". Any solution to the conflict in Kashmir will require goodwill gestures and compromises not just from New Delhi, but also from Kashmiris themselves and all the other major state and non-state actors involved in the conflict. The Kashmiris have to understand that radicalisation and wielding a gun is not a solution. New Delhi has to change its perceived bullet-for-bullet stance towards Kashmir. To mitigate the conflict in Kashmir, the "Vajpayee days" have to be revived to create more **Confidence Building Measures (CBMs)** on his well-articulated philosophy within the

realms of *Insaniyat* (Humanity), *Jamhooriyat* (Democracy) and *Kashmiriyat* (Identity of the people of Kashmir) that is still reverberating among the conflict-hit Kashmiris. In a diverse country like India, disaffection and discontent are not uncommon. Indian democracy has the necessary resilience to accommodate genuine grievances within the framework of our sovereignty, unity and integrity.

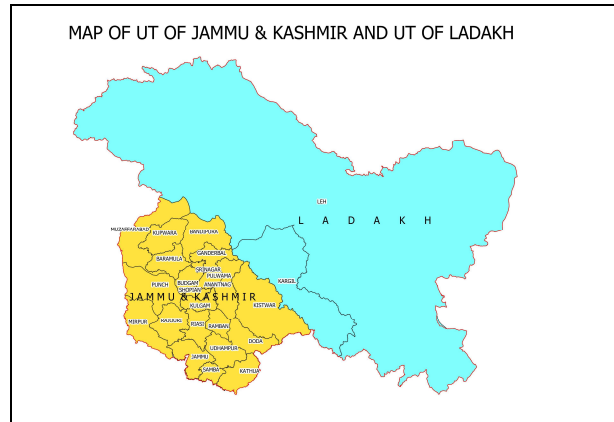


Figure 30: UTs of Jammu & Kashmir and Ladakh (PIB)

The recent crisis in Kashmir has its roots in the nature of accession post-Independence and the events from 1987. Comment.

4. JAWAHARLAL NEHRU ERA

The newly independent country of India, with a scar of division on its map, started its journey with the leadership of prominent freedom fighters under Jawaharlal Nehru. In an unfortunate turn of events, India lost Mahatma Gandhi in 1948 and Sardar Vallabhbhai Patel in 1950. In this background, the responsibility to give direction and vision to the country fell on the shoulders of Jawaharlal Nehru. Whatever India is today as a nation is because of the solid foundation of democratic institutions and policies of the first government of the country and as a leader of that government Jawaharlal Nehru played a prominent role in it. In this section, we will study the overall policies of the government and its impact on India during the term of our first Prime Minister Mr. Jawaharlal Nehru.

The major achievements of this time include consolidation of the nation, the process of independent and planned economic development, independent and innovative foreign policy, initiation of the electoral process, rooting of democracy, development of science and technology and the beginning of a welfare state. Held from 25 October 1951 to 21 February 1952, the Indian general election, was the first election to the Lok Sabha since India became independent in August 1947. With 17.32 crore voters (excluding Jammu and Kashmir), it was considered as the largest democratic exercise of the world of that time. Universal Adult Franchise under Article 326 of the Constitution and an independent Election Commission to conduct free and fair elections, proved useful not only in the 1951 elections but also in the future course of the nation to maintain its democratic credentials.

4.1. Community development programmes (1952)

It was a flagship programme of the Nehru government to take the development initiatives up to village level by government machinery. All the districts of the country were divided into “Development Blocks” and a “Block Development Officer (BDO)” was made in charge of each block. Below the BDO, were appointed the workers called Village Level Workers (VLW) who were responsible to keep in touch with 10-12 villages. A year later, in 1953, the National Extension Service (NES) programme was launched with the idea of having wider coverage at less cost and more people's participation. Each NES block had about 100 villages and about 65 thousand population with an officer (BDO) and had a number of Extension Officers (EDs). Thus, a countrywide network of administration was created for the holistic development of the nation. However, due to excessive bureaucratic control, the scheme failed to garner much speed and soon the demand for reforms in the administrative system began to surface its head.

4.2. Panchayati Raj

The Constitution of India, under Article 40, had provided for the organization of the Panchayati Raj in the country. The first step in this direction was taken with the implementation of the recommendations of the Balwant Rai Mehta Committee in 1959. The Balwant Rai Mehta Committee was a committee originally appointed by the Government of India on January 16, 1957, to examine the working of the Community Development Programme of 1952 and the National Extension Service of 1953 and to suggest measures for their better working. The committee submitted its report on November 24, 1957, and recommended the establishment of the scheme of 'democratic decentralization' which finally came to be known as Panchayati Raj. The main aim of the Panchayati raj system was to settle the local problems locally and to make the people politically conscious.

The prime recommendations included the establishment of 3-tier Panchayati Raj system and periodic elections after 5 years. These recommendations were accepted by the National Development Council in 1958. On 2nd October 1959, the first official Panchayat in India was inaugurated by Jawaharlal Nehru

in Nagaur, Rajasthan and the country took the first step towards democratic decentralization. However, lack of countrywide legislation and apprehension of the state governments towards local bodies resulted in an inefficient Panchayati Raj system in the country. The increasing bureaucratic control over these local institutions in due course of time was an added disadvantage. The state governments showed less enthusiasm, devolved no real power on the Panchayat Samiti, curbed its powers and functions and starved them of funds. There were issues of politicization and bureaucratization as well. Thus, Panchayati Raj could not perform the role assigned to it by Balwant Rai Mehta Committee and Jawaharlal Nehru.

The basic weakness of the Community Development programme, Panchayati Raj and the cooperative movement was that they ignored the class division of the rural society where nearly half the population was landless or had marginal holdings, and was thus quite powerless. The village was dominated socially and economically by the capitalist farmers and the rich and middle-class peasantry. Neither dominant rural classes nor the bureaucrats could become the agents of social transformation or popular participation. Ultimately, the nation had to wait till 1993 for efficient Panchayati Raj when 73rd and 74th Constitutional Amendment Acts were enacted, providing pan India uniformity and a Constitutional status to these local bodies.

4.3. Planning Commission

The Planning Commission was set up by a resolution of the Government of India in March 1950 in pursuance of declared objectives of the government to promote a rapid rise in the standard of living of the people by efficient exploitation of the resources of the country, increasing production and offering opportunities to all for employment in the service of the community. The Planning Commission was charged with the responsibility of making an assessment of all resources of the country, augmenting deficient resources, formulating plans for the most effective and balanced utilization of resources and determining priorities. Jawaharlal Nehru was the first Chairman of the Planning Commission. The first Five-year Plan was launched in 1951 and two subsequent five-year plans were formulated until 1965 when there was a break because of the Indo-Pakistan conflict. Two successive years of drought, devaluation of the currency, a general rise in prices and erosion of resources disrupted the planning process and after three Annual Plans between 1966 and 1969, the fourth Five-year plan was started in 1969.

Planning Commission was established as an advisory body but gradually, it became powerful and emerged dominant in policy decisions of the government. Many critics labelled it as a super cabinet, a parallel cabinet, and an economic cabinet and so on. The presence of the Planning Commission had encroached upon the authority and functions of the Finance Commission as there was no clear boundary between the roles and responsibilities of the two bodies. The Commission was also empowered to make discretionary grants to the states. This made the states dependent on the Centre and hence was criticized for encroaching upon the federal system of the country.

4.4. Tribal Panchsheel

Prime Minister Nehru favoured the policy of integrating tribal community with the mainstream, even while maintaining their distinct identity and culture. Tribal Panchsheel is the set of five fundamental principles for tribal development in India laid down by him. The Five Principles are as follows:

1. The tribals should develop along the lines of their own genius; there should be no imposition or compulsion from outside. They should not be made to do things that are alien to them in nature.
2. Tribal rights in land and forests should be respected and no outsider should be able to take possession of tribal lands. The incursion of the market economy into tribal areas had to be strictly controlled and regulated.
3. It was necessary to encourage the tribal languages which 'must be given all possible support and the conditions in which they can flourish, must be safeguarded'.
4. For administration, reliance should be placed on the tribal people themselves, and administrators should be recruited from amongst them and trained.

5. There should be no over-administration of the tribal areas. The effort should be to administer and develop the tribals' through their own social and cultural institutions.

As a result, Article 46 was inserted in the Constitution, which says, "The State shall promote with special care, the educational and economic interests of the weaker sections of the people, and, in particular, of the Scheduled Castes and the **Scheduled Tribes**, and shall protect them from social injustice and all forms of exploitation." Even after the Constitutional safeguards and inclusive initiatives of the government, tribal development has been slow and they continue to be poor, landless and unemployed. Reasons behind this include, exploitation by forest officials and bureaucracy, illegal mining activities that impact their environment, misappropriation of funds and corruption, negation of their land rights and rights to minor forest produce, etc. Recent initiatives like Van Dhan Yojana, Adi Mahotsava, setting up of tribal schools (Eklavya Model Residential schools) in all tribal districts, setting up of TRIFED (Tribal Cooperative Marketing Development Federation of India), etc., are a step in the right direction.

In Nov 2018, John Allen Chau – a 26-year-old evangelical missionary – was killed by the self-isolated Sentinelese tribe in the Andaman and Nicobar Islands, when he attempted to convert them to Christianity. There have been several attempts by various religions in imposing their culture and practices on the tribals who have their unique culture, God, etc. Thus, Nehru's Tribal Panchsheel should be followed and implemented properly so as to save the unique way of living of the tribals.

How do the problems of tribal societies in India differ from region to region? How far did the policy of Tribal Panchsheel help in integration of tribal areas?

4.5. Hindu Code bill

Article 44 of the Indian Constitution refers to the creation of a uniform civil code for the citizens of the country. To give effect to this provision, Prime Minister Nehru introduced the Hindu Code bill into the Parliament but was met with a huge opposition. Hindu Code bill had meant to provide a civil code in place of the Hindu personal law that governed systems like marriage, adoption, re-marriage, hereditary rights, etc. However, it was perceived as an attack on the Hindu religion. In Parliament N.C. Chatterjee and Shyama Prasad Mukherjee protested vehemently against what they took to be a threat to stability and integrity of traditional forms of family and marriage in Hindu society. Hindu Mahasabha opposed the bill as it involved legislative interference in religious matter, while the Jan Sangh was of the view that any far reaching changes should not be made unless there is a popular demand for them. Nehru was also criticized for being soft on the Muslim minority and not including them under the purview of the civil code, as was originally envisaged in the Constitution. Shyama Prasad Mukherjee opined that the government did not dare to touch the Muslim community and called it minority appeasement. The Prime Minister, on the other hand, had wanted to reassure the Muslims who had chosen India and decided to stay back. He believed that the majority had a duty towards the minority and it would be wise to offer concessions to make them feel at ease.

The most active support for the bill came from women's organizations. Speaking before the All India Women's conference, Mrs. Jayshree Raiji, the vice president of the conference and a member of the lower house of parliament called on women to redouble their efforts to educate the public so as to assure the early passage of the bill. The Communist party also supported the decision for women's emancipation. They wanted to establish equality for both women and men and remove social barriers for all. The controversy was finally resolved when the Hindu Code Bill was broken down into four subsidiary bills- The Hindu Marriage Bill (outlawed polygamy and gave provisions for inter-caste marriages and divorces), The Hindu Adoption and Maintenance Bill; The Hindu Minority and Guardianship Bill; and The Hindu Succession Bill. Members of Buddhist, Jain, Christian and Sikh community also fall under the purview of these laws. There are still demands for the passing of a Uniform Civil Code in order to bring all religions under the same civil laws and also to empower women who are sometimes at a disadvantage due to personal laws of religions.

4.6. Formulation of an independent Foreign Policy

Apart from his handling of India's domestic situation in the years immediately after independence, Nehru's major contribution lies in the field of foreign policies. At the time of India's independence, the world was still reeling under the effects of the second World War. Attempts at creating a new international body for maintaining peace had resulted in the formation of United Nations. Many European colonies had already won their independence or were still fighting for it against the colonial powers. There was a threat of France trying to expand its influence in South East Asia. In the 1940s and 50s, Nehru was an ardent supporter of Asian unity. It was due to his efforts that the Asian Relations conference was organized in New Delhi in 1947. He wanted to pursue a foreign policy which should be advantageous for the country. It should be based on peace and should aim at establishing friendly relations with other countries of the world. A basic objective of Indian foreign policy was extending support to colonial and ex-colonial countries in their struggle against colonialism. Nehru emphasized that peaceful coexistence of countries with different ideologies, differing systems was important. The basic tenets of Indian foreign policy, namely, Panchsheel, Non-Alignment, strategic autonomy, anti-colonialism, anti-imperialism, anti-racism and providing international aid, were laid during his tenure.

India's foreign policy was built around the principles of peace and cooperation. But India fought three wars in a space of ten years between 1962 and 1971. Would you say that this was a failure of the foreign policy? Or would you say that this was a result of international situation?

Panchsheel: On the eve of the Bandung Conference, Nehru in association with the Chinese Prime Minister Zhou-En-Lai declared in 1954 the fundamental principles of international understanding and cooperation. These were-

1. Mutual respect for each other's territorial integrity and sovereignty,
2. Non-aggression,
3. Non-interference in each other's internal affairs,
4. Equality and mutual benefit, and
5. Peaceful coexistence.

By April 1955, Burma, China, Laos, Nepal, Democratic Republic of Vietnam, Yugoslavia and Cambodia had accepted the Panchsheel. Under his guidance, India became the first state to have pursued a policy that was new in the history of international relations- the policy of Non-Alignment.

Non-Aligned Movement (NAM): The Non-Aligned Movement (NAM) is a forum of 120 developing world states that are not formally aligned with or against any major power bloc. After the United Nations, it is the largest grouping of states worldwide. Drawing on the principles agreed at the Bandung Conference in 1955, the NAM was established in 1961 in Belgrade, Yugoslavia through an initiative of the Indian Prime Minister Jawaharlal Nehru, Yugoslav President Josip Broz Tito, Egyptian President Abdul Nasser, Ghanaian President Kwame Nkrumah and Indonesian President Sukarno. This led to the first Conference of Heads of State or Governments of Non-Aligned Countries. The term non-aligned movement first appears in the fifth conference in 1976, where participating countries are denoted as "members of the movement".

Non-alignment means not to side with any superpower i.e. the U.S.A or U.S.S.R. By doing this, Nehru kept India away from 'Cold War' or 'Bloc politics'. He never wanted to side with one and become the enemy of the other. The country was guided by its own foreign policy where no supremacy of any power bloc was entertained. Requirements for membership of the Non-Aligned Movement coincide with the key beliefs of the United Nations. The current requirements are that the candidate country has displayed practices in accordance with the ten "**Bandung principles**" of 1955.

1. Respect for fundamental human rights and for the purposes and principles of the Charter of the United Nations.
2. Respect for the sovereignty and territorial integrity of all nations.
3. Recognition of the movements for national independence.
4. Recognition of the equality of all races and of the equality of all nations, large and small.

5. Abstention from intervention or interference in the internal affairs of another country.
6. Respect for the right of each nation to defend itself singly or collectively, in conformity with the Charter of the United Nations.
7. Refraining from acts or threats of aggression or the use of force against the territorial integrity or political independence of any country.
8. Settlement of all international disputes by peaceful means in conformity with the Charter of the United Nations.
9. Promotion of mutual interests and cooperation.
10. Respect for justice and international obligations.

India being a founder and largest member in NAM was an active participant in NAM meetings till the 1970s but India's inclination towards erstwhile USSR created confusion in smaller members. It led to the weakening of NAM and small nations drifted towards either the USA or USSR. Further disintegration of the USSR led to the unipolar world order dominated by the US. India's New Economic Policy and inclination towards the US, raised questions over India's seriousness over non-alignment. The Vice President represented India at the 17th and 18th Non-Aligned Movement (NAM) summits held in 2016 and 2019; it was only the second such instance when the Head of State didn't participate in the NAM conference. However, Prime Minister Modi attended the 2020 NAM Virtual Summit and pledged \$10 Million contribution to the COVID-19 Emergency Fund.

NAM has played an active role in preserving world peace. It still stands by its founding principles, ideals, and purposes i.e. to establish a peaceful and prosperous world. It prohibited invasion of any country, promoted disarmament and sovereign world order. For the third world countries fighting against socio-economic problems, NAM has acted as a protector against the western hegemony. NAM's total strength comprises of 120 developing countries and most of them being a member of the UN General Assembly. It represents two-third members of the General Assembly; hence NAM members act as important vote blocking groups in the UN. NAM is a platform where India can assert its soft power and provide an active leadership and by being a torchbearer for smaller countries at multilateral platforms. In the environment of gross human rights violation, it can provide a platform to raise such issues and resolve the same through its principles.

NAM as a concept can never be irrelevant, principally it provides a strong base to the foreign policy of its members. It should be seen as "Strategic Autonomy", which is the need of the hour of today's world. The principles of NAM still can guide the nations towards it. However, NAM has to adapt and change itself to suit the newly emerging challenges and geopolitics. The world has again moved towards multi-polarity, one led by the US and others by China-Russia. War-Torn Syria is a prime example of this, where both the US and Russia is asserting power. The escalating tension in the Indo-Pacific region due to China's assertion and the US acting as a counterweight to check the Chinese expansionist policy requires attention of NAM. The large-scale migration in Europe and Asia due to the unstable regimes and ethnic conflict in different parts of the world, issue of global climate change and the occurrence of catastrophic disasters, changing US policies, protectionism, prevalent terrorism and nuclearization of the middle east, etc. are the issues which demand formation of a global consensus to deal with them.

Non Alignment 2.0: This concept identifies the basic principles and drivers that would make India a leading player on the world stage while preserving its strategic autonomy and value system. The core philosophy of the document is that – success of India's own internal development will depend decisively on how effectively we manage our global opportunities in order to maximize our choices. The report deals with India's approach towards the 'Asian theatre,' the international order, hard-power, internal security, non-conventional security issues like energy and nuclear options, the knowledge and information foundations of power as well as the state and democracy.

International role:

As Prime Minister of the interim government in 1946, Nehru had stressed the strong "cultural" links between **India and the United States**. India needed technology, machines, and aid for its development effort, food for its people, and moral support from the US for its nation-building efforts. But US was more focused on potential danger from USSR and China, freedom and peace through NATO and military alliances, offering

them US aid to toe the line and a purely commercial approach with a want of business in other countries. Accordingly, United States expected that India would accept the American line of policy, but was disappointed with Indian commitment to non-alignment and independence from power blocs. As a result, the UN Security Council (dominated by the US and its allies) evaded decisions on Indian charge of Pakistani aggression even after UN Commission reported the presence of Pakistani troops in Kashmir. US also did not appreciate India's recognition of Communist China in 1950 and did not like India's stand that the People's Republic of China be given representation in the UN.

Relations between **India and USSR** also started on a colder note but acquired great warmth in due course. But since 1951-52, the nature of relations began to change. USSR began to support India on the Kashmir issue in the UN and in 1954 USSR offered to give military equipment but India refused. The relationship began with a visit by Indian Prime Minister Jawaharlal Nehru to the Soviet Union in June 1955, and First Secretary of the Communist Party Nikita Khrushchev's return trip to India in the fall of 1955. The path of economic development through planning based on the public sector and via Five Year Plans, focus on heavy industries, etc., brought the two countries still closer. In 1962 the Soviet Union agreed to transfer technology to co-produce the **Mikoyan-Gurevich MiG-21** jet fighter in India, which the Soviet Union had earlier denied to China. During the Chinese attack on India in the year 1962, USSR maintained complete neutrality. Soviets signed more agreements with India in 1963 for sale of arms, interceptors, helicopters, tanks, submarines, missile boats and patrol ships.

After the end of the Second World War, **Korea** was divided between a Communist North (controlled by Socialist camp) and South Korea (dominated by Western powers). When North Korea invaded South Korea in 1950, India supported the USA in the UN Security Council and condemned North Korea as an aggressor. But, India's main concern was to prevent the entry of outside powers into the conflict. The Korean war tested India's faith in non-alignment and commitment to peace. India faced Chinese and Soviet hostility because of declaring North Korea as the initial aggressor. India then faced American hostility for refusing to go with Western intervention in the war, and for refusing to declare China as the aggressor. The Armistice Agreement divided the Korean peninsula into two along the 38th Parallel (latitude) and provided for neutral international peace patrol in the form of a **Neutral Nations Repatriation Commission (NNRC)**. NNRC was to decide on the fate of over 20,000 prisoners of war from both sides and India was chosen as the Chair of the NNRC. A UN Command led by an Englishman and a Custodian Force from India (headed by **Lt. Gen. Thimayya**) was also deployed in the inter-Korean border.

Another major achievement of Indian foreign policy was to maintain the integrity and independence of the **Congo** from its Belgium colonial masters. Nehru demanded that the UN play a more decisive part, get rid of foreign troops, stop the civil war, convene the Parliament and form a new government and that India was ready to commit troops. Further, Indian troops also participated in large numbers in the peace-keeping force during **Suez Canal crisis**. It helped in strengthening India's role in multilateral bodies like the UN. Even during Soviet Union's intrusion in **Hungary**, Nehru criticized the Soviet action and withstood considerable pressure from both the sides but did not flip in either direction.

With respect to our neighbours, India signed a Treaty of Peace and Friendship with **Nepal** in 1950. It gave Nepal unrestricted access for commercial transit through India. This also secured Nepal's total sovereignty while making both countries responsible for each other's security. With **Burma**, the problem of Indian settlers and a long uncharted border was settled amicably. The issue of Tamil settlers in **Sri Lanka** was a difficult situation but it did not flare up during Nehru's period. Otherwise, the amicable relationship was maintained.

"Despite revolutionary changes in the international situation, the broad principles which evolved during the freedom struggle eventually shaped the Indian foreign policy". Analyze. Also, explain why an independent voice for India was not a choice, but an imperative.

India had followed a policy of friendship towards China from the very start and was the first to recognize the People's Republic of China (PRC) in 1950. Nehru had great hopes that the two countries with common experience of suffering at the hands of colonial powers and common problems of poverty and underdevelopment would join hands. In 1954, India and China signed a treaty in which India recognized China's rights over Tibet and both countries agreed to be governed in their mutual relations by the principles of Panchsheel.

5.1. Indo-China war-1962

Things took a turn for the worse when China announced its occupation of Tibet. This prompted India to propose negotiations on the Tibet issue. China did not take in kind, India's response over its internal matters, and in 1958, published a map showing the Aksai Chin plateau in the western stretch of the border as part of its territory. India strongly protested this. Further, in 1960, the Chinese premier Zhou Enlai suggested that if India gave up its claim over Aksai Chin, China would drop its claim in Arunachal Pradesh (then called the North Eastern Frontier Agency). But Nehru rejected this outright saying China had no legitimate claims over both the areas. Moreover, after the 1959 Tibet uprising, India had given asylum to the Dalai Lama and this obviously did not go down well with the Chinese. In 1961, India started following a 'Forward Policy' where it began to send troops and patrols to disputed border areas. Some of these troops even went beyond the Indian borders. This move deteriorated relations between both nations and with China perceiving India as a threat to its rule over Tibet, conditions became ripe for an impending confrontation. Swedish strategic affairs expert, Bertil Lintner, in his book "China's India War", argues that Communist leader Mao declared a war on India because he saw the country as a 'soft target' and thought the way to regain his own control over China, would be unifying it against an outside enemy.

1962 Chinese attack- Various border conflicts and "military incidents" between India and China flared up throughout the summer and autumn of 1962. On 10th July 1962 China was able to advance beyond the actual line of control because of its strategic position and thus capture Rezang la in Chushul in western theatre and Tawang in eastern theatre and further. On 22nd July, the Forward Policy was extended to allow Indian troops to push back Chinese troops already established in disputed territory. India said China had occupied 38,000 square km of territory in Aksai Chin (Aksai chin was considered as a strategic link between the Chinese-administered territories of Tibet and Xinjiang). In June 1962, Indian forces established an outpost at Dhola, on the southern slopes of the Thag La Ridge. In August, China issued diplomatic protests and began occupying positions at the top of Thag La. This became the main confrontation point later and by 18th October, it was clear that the Chinese were preparing for an attack, with a massive troop build-up.

On 20th October 1962, the Chinese People's Liberation Army launched two attacks - one in the western theatre, the PLA sought to expel Indian forces from the Chip Chap valley in Aksai Chin while in the eastern theatre, the PLA sought to capture both banks of the Namka Chu river. Some skirmishes also took place at the Nathula Pass, which is in the Indian state of Sikkim. By 24th October, the PLA had entered territory previously administered by India to give the PRC a diplomatically strong position over India. The majority of Chinese forces had advanced sixteen kilometres south of the control line prior to the conflict. Four days of fighting were followed by a three-week lull. Zhou Enlai ordered the troops to stop advancing as he attempted to negotiate with Nehru.

Facing Chinese forces maintaining themselves on Indian soil and trying to avoid political pressure, the Indian Parliament announced a national emergency and passed a resolution which stated their intent to "drive out the aggressors from the sacred soil of India". After Zhou Enlai received Nehru's letter (rejecting Zhou's proposal), the fighting resumed on the eastern theatre on 14 November, with an Indian attack on Walong, claimed by China. In the fighting that went on for a month in both the western and eastern fronts, nearly 3000 Indian soldiers were killed and about 1000 more injured. China declared a ceasefire on 21st November since it reached its claim lines, and also stated that from December 1st, 1962, the Chinese frontier guards would retreat 20 km behind the Line of Actual Control.

The aftermath of the war saw sweeping changes in the Indian military to prepare it for similar conflicts in the future. It put the Indian Army on the path of modernization, increased budget, greater emphasis on nuclear power and the use of nuclear weapons became part of India's defence policy. Further, it laid the foundation for territorial re-organization of North East Frontier Agency for administrative efficiency. It also placed pressure on Indian Prime Minister Jawaharlal Nehru, who was seen as responsible for failing to anticipate the Chinese attack on India. It also perhaps taught the political leaders to be extra cautious and vigilant when it comes to matters of national security. The first no-confidence motion was introduced against the Prime Minister in 1963, in response to the defeat in the war, but Nehru managed to defeat the motion. It also led to the resignation of the then Defence Minister V K Krishna Menon, who was blamed for the lack of preparedness of the army. Indians reacted with a surge in patriotism and memorials were erected for many of the Indian troops who died in the war. After the war, India increased its support for Tibetan refugees and revolutionaries. The main lesson India learned from the war was the need to strengthen its own defences and a shift from Nehru's foreign policy with China based on his stated concept of "brotherhood".

There were many **reasons for failure** in the war. Indian political and military leadership erred in not anticipating the precise nature and timing of the attack, even after the revolt in Tibet, Dalai Lama's arrival, and the border clashes. India had also refused to settle the borders with China on the reasonable terms offered by the Chinese and instead followed a 'forward policy' from 1959, which provoked the Chinese to attack in self-defence. On the military front, the military leadership thought in terms of either border clashes or a full-scale war in the plains of Assam, but not about the possibility of a limited deep thrust and withdrawal. They believed that a total war with China was unthinkable. Moreover, the Indian Army commander in NEFA fled after the Chinese attack without offering any resistance, leaving the door wide open for China to walk in.

The failure was also due to the lack of a proper system of higher defence command and management, and because there was no system of defence planning and the structure of civil-military relations was flawed. It was a failure of logistics, of intelligence and analysis of intelligence, of coordination of different wings such as the army with the Air Force. Another mistake was the panic in appealing to the US and UK for help, as the next day the Chinese withdrew. An investigation was commissioned by the Indian Government which resulted in the Henderson-Brooks-Bhagat Report. This report blamed the high altitudes for India's defeat along with doctrine, training, organization, and equipment.

The Sino-Indian War is notable for the harsh mountain conditions under which much of the fighting took place, entailing large-scale combat at altitudes of over 14,000 feet. It was also noted for the non-deployment of the navy or air force by either the Chinese or Indian side. The war exposed the unpreparedness of India's military which could send only 14,000 troops to the war zone in opposition to the many times larger Chinese army, and Nehru was widely criticized for his government's insufficient attention to defence. The war was also called India's 'Himalayan blunder' by Brigadier John Dalvi, who was taken as a prisoner of war by China and released after six months. Many Indians view the war as a betrayal of India's attempts at establishing a long-standing peace with China and started to question the once-popular "Hindi-Chini Bhai-Bhai". There was also pressure from all corners including Nehru's own party and own government to occupy Aksai Chin or, to put it differently, "evict China from Aksai Chin". When Nehru tried to convince the Parliament not to lust after Aksai Chin where "not even grass can grow", he was ridiculed. The war raised doubts about the feasibility of Nehru's foreign policy of peace and non-alignment. The 1962 war was a jolt to India and Nehru and led to the reversal of defence policy of the country.

5.2. Lal Bahadur Shastri era (1964-1966)

Nehru's death on May 1964 was a blow not only to India but also to Indian National Congress. It suddenly created a political vacuum in the country which everybody feared that nobody could fill up. Contradicting the predictions that the Indian political system and Congress will fall into turmoil, succession happened in a mature manner showing the strength of Indian democracy. It occurred under the direction of a group of Congress leaders who came to be collectively known as the Syndicate. The group, formed in 1963, consisted of K. Kamaraj, the Congress president and regional party leaders. When they had to decide between Lal Bahadur Shastri and Morarji Desai they favoured Shastri because, in addition to his other qualities, he had wider acceptability in the party which would keep the party united. Shastri was elected unopposed as the parliamentary leader by the party MPs and sworn in as Prime Minister on 9th June 1964.

The most serious problem in the 60s was the severe shortage of food as agricultural production had slowed down. There was a severe drought in several states in 1965 and buffer food stocks were depleted to a dangerous extent, further worsened by the war. A sense of deep pessimism was prevalent because of prior defeat inflicted by China in the Indo China war of 1962. There had been a slowdown in the rate of industrial growth as well and the balance of payments problem had worsened. In other areas, the demands for a Punjabi Suba (state) and Goa's merger with Maharashtra were also beginning to simmer. The problem of the official language of Hindi versus English, too flared up in 1965.

5.2.1. Policies

Under Lal Bahadur Shastri, the cabinet ministers functioned more autonomously. He also did not interfere in party affairs or with the working of the state governments. Despite initial hiccups, he helped in solving the language crisis in southern states by making sure the government continues to use English as a language and not imposing Hindi on them. During his tenure as Home Minister, he created the famous "**Shastri Formula**" to contain agitation in the state of Assam and Punjab. This formula provided that even after January 1965, English might be retained, in addition to Hindi, for all official purposes and for the transaction of business in Parliament.

His display of military prowess was evident in his dealings with the surprise attack of Pakistan in Rann of Kutch region. Shastri had responded to Pakistani provocations on the border through speeches in Parliament from the very beginning, making India's stand clear. He was determined to convince President of Pakistan that "India had no desire whatsoever to acquire even one square inch of Pakistani territory but would never allow any interference by Pakistan in Kashmir which was an integral part of India." He granted liberty to the security forces to retaliate and said: "**Force will be met with Force**". His successful handling of the 1965 war, gave India a proper military framework and established India's military intelligence to be much more competent, compared to 1962.

Prime Minister Lal Bahadur Shastri coined **Jai Jawan Jai Kisan** during a public rally in 1965. The slogan struck a chord with an India that was fighting Pakistan at the border (Jai Jawan) and battling a severe food scarcity at home (Jai Kisan). It was an era when self-sufficiency was beyond people's imagination as production of food, essential items, fertilisers, steel and even cotton was not sufficient to meet domestic demand. Moreover, the humiliating defeat against China in the 1962 war called for some serious action. His call of "Jai Jawan Jai Kisan" was greatly helpful in unifying the nation behind the true saviours, the farmers and the soldiers and rallied all the citizens of India to support them. The slogan gave a huge psychological boost to the farmers and soldiers. The slogan was later changed as "Jai Jawan Jai Kisan Jai Vigyan" by former PM Atal Bihari Vajpayee to underscore the importance of and technology.

"The call for "Jai Jawan, Jai Kisan" is incomplete without "Jai Vigyan". Discuss.

Prime minister realized that India's food security needs were to be given prime attention after the continuous droughts. Hence, he promoted the **Green Revolution** with great fervour and put the nation on

the track of self-sustenance in food. He also promoted the **White Revolution** by supporting the **Amul Milk Co-operative society** and creating the **National Dairy Development Board (1965)**.

**These will be discussed in detail in subsequent chapters.*

As Shastriji was elevated to the post of Prime Minister by the Syndicate in the initial time, he was accused by critics of being 'a prisoner of indecision' and failing to give directions to government policies. With the passage of time, he showed greater independence and asserted himself amongst his Cabinet colleagues. The prime opportunities that he seized in this direction were the Green Revolution and the 1965 war with Pakistan. Shastri also set up his own Prime Minister's Secretariat, as a source of information and advice to the Prime Minister on policy matters, independent of the ministries. The Secretariat, which came to be known as the **Prime Minister's Office (PMO)** started acquiring a great deal of influence and power in the making and execution of government policy.

5.2.2. Indo-Pak War, 1965:

Since the partition of British India in 1947, Pakistan and India remained in contention over several issues. Although the Kashmir conflict was the predominant issue dividing the nations, other border disputes also existed, most notably the issue of the Rann of Kutch, a barren region in the Indian state of Gujarat and Sir Creek which is a narrow estuary on the boundary between India and Pakistan.

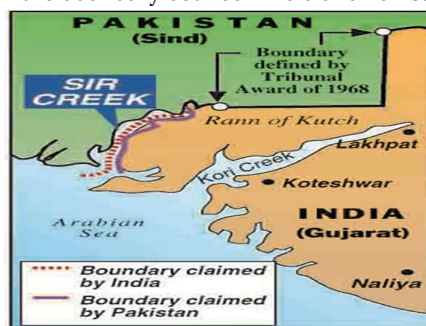


Figure 21: Boundary dispute in Rann of Kutch

Previously, India had suffered a defeat at the hands of China in 1962 and Pakistan thought that the Indian army would not be able to defend Kashmir. Their leadership saw PM Lal Bahadur Shastri as a new and inexperienced leader with the assumption that he would not be able to face pressure. The war was therefore, a simple but cold strategy of Pakistan to catch India off-guard and defeat it once and for all. However, certain miscalculations by Pakistani generals and political leaders proved fatal for them as India managed the situation well.

The confrontation began when Pakistani soldiers began patrolling in territory controlled by India in January 1965, which was followed by attacks by both countries on each other's posts on 8th April, 1965. Thus, border skirmishes were initiated by Pakistan which ultimately led to a full-fledged war. There was a military clash but, because of the nature of the terrain, India's military response was weak and hesitant. **On Britain's intervention**, the two sides agreed to refer the dispute to international arbitration. However, Pakistan misunderstood the incident that India is not ready for war. Pakistan had already prepared plans called Operation Grand Slam and Operation Gibraltar and was looking for the right opportunities.

1. **Operation Grand Slam** - was a key operation of the 1965 Indo-Pakistani War. It refers to a plan drawn up by the Pakistan Army in May 1965, to attack the vital **Akhnoor Bridge** in Jammu and Kashmir.
2. **Operation Gibraltar** - It began in August 1965 and was designed to infiltrate forces into Jammu and Kashmir to precipitate an insurgency against Indian rule.

On 5th August 1965, between 26,000 and 33,000 Pakistani soldiers crossed the Line of Control dressed as Kashmiri locals headed for various areas within Kashmir. Shastri ordered the army to cross the ceasefire line and seal the passes through which the infiltrators were coming and to occupy such strategic posts. The Indian army retaliated and captured the **Haji Pir Pass** in Pakistan Occupied Kashmir (PoK). On 1st

September, Pakistan put into action its Operation Grand Slam aimed at capturing the town of Akhnoor in Jammu. In September 1965, Pakistan launched a massive tank and infantry attack in the Chhamb sector in the south-west of Jammu and Kashmir, threatening **India's only road link with Kashmir**. Shastri immediately ordered the Indian army to not only defend Kashmir but also to move across the border into Pakistan towards Lahore and Sialkot. Thus, the two countries were involved in war, though an undeclared one. This was the third front started by India to divert attention of Pakistan from Jammu and Rann of Kutch region. The international border (**Radcliffe Line**) was crossed by India on 6th September which marked the official beginning of the war. Due to sheer strength and morale of Indian armed forces, India soon started to make inroads into Pakistani territory and captured certain areas in Lahore district of Pakistan.

The United States and Britain took the view that the conflict was largely Pakistan's fault, and suspended all arms shipments to both India and Pakistan. Despite strong fears of Chinese intervention on the side of Pakistan, the Chinese government ultimately exercised restraint. Indonesian support to Pakistan was seen as a major Indian diplomatic failure, as Indonesia had been among the founding members of the **Non-Aligned Movement** along with India. Despite its close relations with India, the Soviet Union was more neutral than other nations during the war, inviting both nations to peace talks under its aegis in Tashkent. The war ended on 23rd September 1965, after the United Nations Security Council called for an unconditional ceasefire from both India and Pakistan. Both countries held each other's territory after the war (India held 1840 sq.km of area while Pakistan held 540 sq.km).

This war, unlike the previous conflict in 1947-48, was fought on many fronts including in Rajasthan. This war also saw aerial combat between India and Pakistan for the first time. The war was the largest grouping of troops since independence and the largest tank battle since World War II. The outcome of the 1965 war was viewed as a "politico-strategic" victory in India. The Indian PM, Lal Bahadur Shastri, was hailed as a national hero in India. India, which had previously championed the cause of non-alignment, distanced itself further from Western powers and developed close relations with the Soviet Union. India focussed on enhancing communication and coordination within and among the tri-services of the Indian Armed Forces and established the Research and Analysis Wing (RAW) in 1968 for external espionage and intelligence. The United States and the Soviet Union used significant diplomatic tools to prevent any further escalation in the conflict between the two South Asian nations. The **Soviet Union**, hosted ceasefire negotiations in **Tashkent**(now in Uzbekistan), where Indian Prime Minister Lal Bahadur Shastri and Pakistani President Ayyub Khan signed the Tashkent Agreement.

Tashkent Agreement was a peace agreement between India and Pakistan signed on 10 January 1966 that resolved the Indo-Pakistani War of 1965. Under this Declaration, both sides agreed to withdraw from all the occupied areas and return to their pre-war August positions. The nations would not interfere in each other's internal affairs, economic and diplomatic relations. There would be an orderly transfer of prisoners of war and the two leaders would work towards improving bilateral relations. It was also agreed that the High Commissioner of India to Pakistan and the High Commissioner of Pakistan to India will return to their posts and that the normal functioning of diplomatic missions of both countries will be restored.

Analyze the circumstances that led to the Tashkent Agreement in 1966. Discuss the highlights of the Agreement. (UPSC Mains 2013)

Criticism- This meant withdrawing from the strategic Haji Pir pass through which Pakistani infiltrators could again enter the Kashmir Valley and giving up other strategic gains in Kashmir. It did not contain a no-war pact or any renunciation of guerrilla warfare in Kashmir. Shastri agreed to these unfavourable terms as the other option was the resumption of the mutually disastrous war. That would have meant losing Soviet support on the Kashmir issue in the UN Security Council and in the supply of defence equipment, especially MiG fighter planes, medium and heavy tanks. Shastri died in Tashkent of a sudden heart attack having served as Prime Minister for barely nineteen months. Although the Tashkent agreement achieved its short-term aim, conflict in South Asia was about to reignite a few years later.

6. IMPORTANT POLITICAL DEVELOPMENTS AFTER THE WAR

Shastriji's sudden demise in Tashkent was a bolt from the blue for India. It was perceived that after Nehruji, Shastriji could carry the weight of India on his shoulder forward. However, his death propelled India into another spiral of political uncertainties. Morarji Desai was once again in the field but Syndicate's choice was Indira Gandhi as she was Nehru's daughter, had an all-India appeal and a progressive image. They also thought that she being inexperienced and a young woman, would be more malleable. When the contest happened, Indira Gandhi defeated Morarji Desai in secret ballot by 355 votes to 169 votes and became the 1st female and 3rd Prime Minister of India. With her oath of Prime Ministership on 24th January 1966, a new era dawned upon India, which was a tectonic shift in the Indian political arena.

6.1. Indira Gandhi era

When Indira Gandhi came to power, the political situation in the country was critical with Punjab on the boil on the issue of Punjabi as official language and the demand for a Punjab Suba. Even the Naga and Mizo areas were in rebellion as the Mizo National Front (MNF) made a declaration of independence, after launching coordinated attacks on the government offices and security forces post in different parts of the Mizo district in Assam. In Nagaland, the Naga National Council (NNC)/Naga Federal Government (NFG) continued to indulge in violence, and the Peace Mission was abandoned in 1967.

There was a growing loss of public confidence in the administration because of two wars in 1962 and 1965. Severe drought in 1966 coupled with back to back wars led to galloping inflation and grave food shortages. Budget deficits were growing, endangering the Fourth Five Year Plan (1969-74). The economy was in recession, there was a fall in exports and industrial production. India was heavily dependent for its food security on imports of wheat from the US under the PL-480 aid programme. Urgently needing American wheat, financial aid and capital investment, she initially tried to build bridges with the United States. US promised India with food grains under PL-480 and to give \$900 million in aid. But actual dispatches to India were irregular as US controlled the amount of dispatches to ensure that 'India changed its farm policy' and its position on Vietnam. The Prime Minister was also worried by Soviet efforts to build bridges with Pakistan and there was no improvement in relations with China. There was an urgent need for economic aid by the World Bank and the International Monetary Fund which was stopped during the war against Pakistan in 1965.

6.1.1. Policies:

With respect to domestic issues, she dealt effectively with the demand for Punjabi Suba as **Punjab Reorganisation Act** was passed in Parliament in 1966. Being firm with the Naga and Mizo rebels, Mrs. Gandhi showed a willingness to negotiate with them and accept the Naga rebels' demand for autonomy. While insurgency continued at lower levels, the space for political negotiations was created and led to Mizoram becoming a Union Territory. On the economic front, three **Rolling Plans** were brought from 1966-1969 in which equal priority was given to agriculture, its allied activities, and industrial sector. The government of India declared "Devaluation of Rupee" to increase the exports of the country. Green Revolution was continued for increasing the food production in India and the Fourth Five Year Plan (1969-74) began.

M RTP Act was repealed and replaced by the Competition Act 2002, with effect from September 1, 2009. The MRTP Commission was replaced by the Competition Commission of India.

Monopolies and Restrictive Trade Practices (MRTP) Act - was passed in 1969 to check the concentration of economic power in the hands of a few business families. The Government of India issued the Banking Companies (Acquisition and Transfer of Undertakings) Act, 1969, and nationalised the 14 largest commercial banks. Supreme Court invalidated the bank nationalization in February 1970 on the grounds of being discriminatory and compensation paid was inadequate, but the government used a Presidential ordinance to re-nationalize them. 26th Constitutional Amendment Act, 1971 was passed to abolish Privy Purses in India. It aimed at derecognizing the Princes and ending all their monetary and other privileges.

Indira Gandhi decided to take steps to get out of the vulnerable foreign policy situation, and in July 1966, she issued a statement deploring US bombing of North Vietnam and its capital Hanoi. She signed a joint statement with the Soviet Union branding US action in Vietnam as “imperialist aggression”. India had agreed to the US proposal for an Indo-American Educational Foundation to be funded by PL-480 funds but abandoned the proposal after criticism on various fronts. Mrs. Gandhi developed close links with Nasser of Egypt and Tito of Yugoslavia and supported non-alignment to counter the danger of neo-colonialism emanating from the US and West European countries. She also expressed a desire to open dialogue with China but there was no thaw in Sino-Indian relations at that time.

6.1.2. Inter-party struggle and split in Congress in 1969:

In the Fourth General Elections (1967), Congress party lost its character and motivation as a part of social and institutional change. There was disenchantment, especially with top leaders because of corruption and their lavish lifestyle. Opposition parties came together and some of them formed anti-Congress fronts in some states. The central leadership of the Congress supported the dominant groups in the states with ticket distribution being done by the Syndicate in a partisan manner. The election results showed great political awakening among the people with 61% voting. Though Congress won 283 out of 520 seats in Lok Sabha, its majority drastically declined in the Parliament and in the assemblies of eight states. Congress was replaced by the multiplicity of parties, groups and independents in the States. Except the DMK government in Tamil Nadu and the Swatantra Party-led government in Orissa, the coalition governments in all the other states proved to be highly unstable due to the conflicts between the parties themselves and changing loyalties of MLAs. Corrupt legislators indulged in horse-trading and freely changed sides in the lure of money or office.

Ten-Point Programme included social control of banks, nationalization of general insurance, state trading in import and export trade, ceilings on urban property and income, curb on business monopolies and concentration of economic power, public distribution of food-grains, rapid implementation of land reforms, provision of house-sites to the rural poor, and abolition of princely privileges.

Though Indira Gandhi had won the elections, she hardly had any organizational base in the party. After the re-election of Kamaraj to the Parliament in by-elections, the Syndicate members once again asserted that the party and its Working Committee should formulate policies whereas, government should be accountable to the party organs for their implementation. Indira tried hard to avoid an open conflict with Syndicate but she was not ready to compromise, in regard to the supreme position and powers of the Prime Minister or the government over its policies and administration. Additionally, Congress suffered from internal clashes over the radical “Ten-Point Programme (1967)” as leftists within the Congress supported it and rightists within it, did not.

Factional rivalry between Syndicate and Indira came in open in 1969 after the death of President Zakir Hussain. Syndicate wanted N. Sanjeeva Reddy in President's office despite Indira Gandhi's rejection as she wanted to support V. V. Giri. When Syndicate leaders tried to persuade other parties to vote for Reddy she refused to issue a party whip in favour of Reddy and openly supported Giri, who later won the presidency. As the Syndicate's presidential candidate got defeated, feeling humiliated, they took disciplinary action against Indira Gandhi and expelled her from the party for having violated party discipline.

Indira Gandhi finally split with her supporters and set up Congress Requisitionists (R). The Syndicate-dominated Congress came to be known as the Congress Organization(O). INC(O) later, formally merged with the Bharatiya Lok Dal, Bharatiya Jan Sangh, Socialist Party of India, Swatantra Party and others to form the Janata Party and fought the post-Emergency election in 1977. Congress (O)'s leader Morarji Desai served as the fourth Prime Minister of India from 1977 to 1979 which was India's first non-Congress government.

After splitting of the congress, Indira Gandhi was the unchallenged leader of both the government and the new party, which soon became the real Congress. She projected the split as an ideological divide between socialists and conservatives, between the pro-poor and pro-rich. During this period, the government made its attempt to project its socialist credentials. Even though the split in Congress reduced the Indira Gandhi government to a minority, yet it continued with the support from other parties.

When the Supreme Court refused to abolish the privy purses of the Princes, Lok Sabha was dissolved and elections were held in 1971, one year ahead of time. The non-Communist Opposition parties formed the Grand Alliance and 'Indira Hatao' (Remove Indira) became their campaign slogan. Indira Gandhi focussed on national issues such as the growth of the public sector, the imposition of ceiling on rural landholdings and urban property, the abolition of princely privileges and her campaign slogan was 'Garibi Hatao' (Remove Poverty).

The results of the 1971 elections turned out to be an overwhelming personal triumph for Indira Gandhi and a rude shock to the opposition. Congress(R) won 352 out of 518 seats. With this, the Congress party led by Indira Gandhi established its claim to being the 'real' Congress and restored the party to its dominant position in Indian politics. The elections represented further politicization of the masses. People's votes had cut across religious, caste and regional barriers. Elections had also shown that once national issues were raised, vote banks and politics of patronage became relatively irrelevant. However, the fulfilment of the promises of 1971 elections were again postponed as the Bangladesh crisis occurred.

6.2. Indo-Pak war-1971

Beginning in 1970, Pakistan faced its biggest internal crisis. The country's first general elections produced a split verdict - Zulfikar Ali Bhutto emerged as winner in West Pakistan and Awami League led by Sheikh Mujibur Rehman emerged as winner in East Pakistan. Because of this, a major politico-military crisis broke out in East Pakistan (now Bangladesh) and India was inevitably drawn into a bloody war with Pakistan. Several reasons contributed to rise in internal tensions in Pakistan. Religion was not enough to weld together Punjabi speaking West Pakistan with the Bengali speaking East Pakistan. The West Pakistani political and economic elite soon acquired a dominant position in Pakistan's army, bureaucracy, economy and polity resulting in discrimination against East Pakistan. In the elections held in 1970, Awami league won the majority of seats but the West Pakistan did not allow them to form the government. So, East Pakistan started a civil disobedience movement for democracy and a greater autonomy for East Pakistan. Instead of coming to terms with this movement, West Pakistan decided to suppress it and this transformed into a movement of independence from Pakistan. On 25th March 1971, General Yahya Khan, the military dictator of Pakistan ordered a military crackdown on East Pakistan and Mujibur Rehman was arrested. The West Pakistan army initiated a reign of terror for over 6 months in East Pakistan, killing innocent citizens, eliminating intelligentsia, burning villages and crops.

The Awami League leaders formed a Government of Bangladesh in exile in Calcutta, organized the Mukti Bahini (Liberation Army) and launched a fierce underground movement and guerrilla warfare. The brutality of the Pakistani army was specially directed against the Hindus remaining in East Pakistan who were forced to migrate to Assam, West Bengal, and Meghalaya in India. By November 1971, the number of refugees from East Bengal reached around 10 million. Indira Gandhi strongly supported the East Pakistan's cause and adopted four-pronged policy:

Mukti Bahini also known as the Bangladesh Forces, was the guerrilla resistance movement formed by the Bangladeshi military, paramilitary and civilians during the War of Liberation that transformed East Pakistan into Bangladesh in 1971.

1. India gave sanctuary to the Bangladesh government in exile.
2. Indian army gave military training on Indian soil and material aid in money and military equipment to the Mukti Bahini.

3. The Indian government was also generous in providing food, clothing, shelter and medical aid to the refugees.
4. From April 1961 the Indian armed forces began to prepare for swift military action in case a peaceful solution to the refugee problem could not be found. Moreover, this action of the military had to be finished before the big powers succeeded in halting the conflict and imposing a ceasefire.

Indira Gandhi was reluctant to launch a full-scale war against Pakistan as the country was already facing the burden due to the continuous flow of refugees from East Pakistan and entering a war meant inviting more burden. She also appealed to world leaders to intervene and pressurise Pakistan to stop its brutalities but India did not have much time and a quick response became necessary.

From the Indian perspective, war should have been at a time of India's choice and international opinion had to be won. Indira was aware that military operations in East Pakistan could not be taken during monsoon because a large number of rivers would be in flood and in winter, Himalayan passes would get covered in snow making it impossible for China to intervene and sending troops for aid of Pakistan. Even after India following the policy of restraint, United States and China adopted a hostile attitude towards India and the US continued to supply arms to Pakistan. To secure India against a possible US-China intervention in case events led to a war, in August 1971, India swiftly signed a 20-year Indo-Soviet Treaty of Peace, Friendship and Cooperation. Despite all this, India was reluctant to take action first. However, on 3rd December, Pakistan's air force launched a surprise attack on military airfields in western India under Operation Chengiz Khan, hoping to inflict serious damage on the Indian Air Force and also to internationalize the Bangladesh issue and secure UN intervention. But Pakistan failed in both objectives. India immediately recognized Bangladesh and gave a strong military reply.

US government declared India to be an aggressor and stopped all economic aid to it. But its two resolutions in the UN Security Council were vetoed by the Soviet Union. US Navy's Seventh Fleet set out for the Bay of Bengal on 9th December with the objective of forcing India to delay the fall of Dacca. Indira Gandhi asked General Manekshaw, India's Chief of Army Staff to hurry up the military plan and the Indian armed forces forced the defeated and demoralized 93,000- strong Pakistan army led by General Amir Abdullah Khan Niazi, chief of the Pakistani forces to surrender on 16th December in Bangladesh. On 17th December, India announced a unilateral ceasefire on the western front. Pakistan accepted the ceasefire and released Mujibur Rehman, who came to power in Bangladesh. The continuation of the war would have been hazardous both on diplomatic and military grounds as:

1. The United States, China and the UN were then likely to intervene more actively.
2. The Soviet Union also was not in favour of further fighting.
3. War on the western front would also have been very costly both in terms of men and materials.

India won because of the well-structured planning and leadership of Indian forces. Indian navy successfully conducted a blockade of all ports of East Pakistan and in the west, effectively attacking the Pakistani coastline and destroying key targets around Karachi and other Pakistani lifelines. Indian Air Force was able to establish air superiority, and both wings of Pakistan's territory were strategically dissected and isolated. The Pakistani troops — outnumbered, outgunned and outmanoeuvred — could not withstand the well-coordinated and massive Indian advance in the east. Pakistan forces' poor planning; indecision about deployment; hasty and countermanded regrouping; inadequate or even non-existent coordination led them to defeat.

Critically examine the compulsions which prompted India to play a decisive role in the emergence of Bangladesh. (UPSC Mains 2013)

What India gained from war? The balance of power in South Asia shifted towards India and it was shown that India was not a weak political entity on the world stage. The grave refugee problem was solved with the ten million refugees promptly and smoothly sent back to their homes in Bangladesh. The humiliating

memory of the defeat in 1962 was also wiped out. The war had demonstrated the strength of Indian secularism as all religions stood together at the moment of crisis for a Muslim country. Further, a big blow had been given to the two-nation theory, the basis for Partition in 1947. Muslims in India could now see what treatment had been meted out to Bengali Muslims by the upholders of that theory. The Bangladesh war was also a personal victory for Indira Gandhi too. Indians admired her toughness, determination and leadership qualities she had displayed throughout the crisis. In Pakistan, demoralized and finding unable to control the situation, the Yahya administration fell when President Yahya Khan turned over his Presidency to Zulfikar Ali Bhutto, who was sworn in on 20th December 1971 as President with the control of the military. Indira Gandhi realized that a mutual Indo-Pak settlement is necessary as hostile Pakistan would further affect the region. This led to the Shimla Agreement in 1972.

Shimla Agreement (1972) was a general consensus that a hostile Pakistan would not only force India to maintain a high level of defence expenditure but also enable outside powers to interfere in subcontinental affairs. India still held over 90,000 prisoners of war and was in occupation of nearly 9,000 square kilometres of Pakistani territory. Pakistan was yet to recognize Bangladesh. So, a summit conference between Indira Gandhi and Zulfikar Ali Bhutto (PM of Pakistan), was held in Shimla in June 1972. The two countries signed an agreement which came to be known as the Shimla Declaration. India agreed to return the Pakistani territory it had occupied, except some strategic points in Kashmir. In return, Pakistan agreed to respect the existing Line of Control (LoC) in Kashmir and undertook not to alter it unilaterally by force or threat of force. The two countries also agreed to settle all their disputes through bilateral negotiations without any outside mediation by the UN or any other power. India also agreed to return the prisoners of war to Pakistan if Pakistan agreed to recognize Bangladesh. The Shimla Agreement is however criticized for failing to resolve all issues which subsequently led to the Kargil war, but it also prevented a full blown war by limiting the area of conflict to the Kargil sector in 1999.

Shimla Agreement 1972 was a lost opportunity to convert India's victory into a durable peace with Pakistan. Assess.

The year 1972 marked the **beginning of a new period**. After the General elections of 1971, the political command at both the Centre and the states were now unified as the majority of states had Congress (R) in power. Indira Gandhi had also acquired virtually complete control over the party. Her popularity grew further and she replenished the Congress party's social support base. As per the 10 point programme, General Insurance and coal industry were nationalized. Ceilings were imposed on urban land ownership while legislations to reduce ceilings on agricultural landholdings and distribute surplus land to the landless and marginal farmers were also passed in several states. Programme for cheap food grain distribution to the economically vulnerable sections of society was launched. It became compulsory for nationalized banks to open branches in under-banked areas and to make credit available to vulnerable sections.

India took the first step towards self-reliance in **nuclear technology** at Pokhran. In 1972, Indira Gandhi authorised the Bhabha Atomic Research Centre (BARC) to manufacture a nuclear device, formally called the 'Peaceful Nuclear Explosive' (Smiling Buddha). India's 1st successful nuclear bomb test was held on 18th May 1974. The Nuclear Suppliers Group (NSG) was formed in 1974 in reaction to the Indian tests to check international nuclear proliferation.

Indira Gandhi's prestige and popularity increased after the Bangladesh War. She was 'at the pinnacle of her power and glory'. Many Indians referred to her as a modern-day Durga and an incarnation of 'Shakti' or female energy. However, after 1973, the tide started turning against Indira Gandhi. The economy, the polity and the credibility of Indira Gandhi's leadership and the Congress government started going downhill because of economic hardships faced by the ordinary population of the country. This disillusionment among

people found expression in the J.P. movement of 1974 that ultimately led to National Emergency in 1975, the step that cost Indira Gandhi dearly.

6.3. Emergency

In India, "the Emergency" refers to a 21-month period from 1975 to 1977 when Prime Minister Indira Gandhi had taken unprecedented steps to subvert the legally elected government. Officially issued by President Fakhruddin Ali Ahmed under Article 352 of the Constitution, because of the prevailing "internal disturbance", the Emergency was in effect from 26 June 1975 until its withdrawal on 21 March 1977. The order bestowed upon the Prime Minister the authority to rule by decree, allowing elections to be suspended and civil liberties to be curbed. For much of the Emergency, most of Gandhi's political opponents were imprisoned and the press was censored. Several other human rights violations were reported from the time. The Emergency is one of the most controversial periods of independent India's history.

The Bangladesh crisis had put heavy strain on the economy. During this period, oil prices increased by leaps and bounds in the international market because of an oil crisis in October 1973. This drained India's foreign reserves and further increased the budgetary deficit. The failure of monsoon in 1972-73 resulted in a sharp decline in agricultural productivity so the prices of commodities increased, resulting in a high level of inflation causing much hardship to the people. Industrial growth was also low and unemployment was very high, especially in the rural areas. There was a general atmosphere of dissatisfaction among common people and government employees owing to economic failures.

There was large scale industrial unrest and strikes, student protests, and popular demonstrations often turned violent for example in Bihar and Gujarat. The period was also marked by an increase in activities of Marxist groups in West Bengal and insurgency in North East. Congress started declining as a political organization and turned out to be incapable of dealing with political crisis at the state and grass-root levels due to corruption. This led to a growing detachment of 3 major social groups from Congress-

1. The middle class turned against Congress because of price rise and corruption.
2. The rich peasantry started opposing Congress because of the threat of land reforms.
3. The capitalists turned against Congress because of the talk of socialism, nationalization of banks and coal mining and anti-monopoly measures.

Because of the continuous rise in prices of essential commodities urban middle class was facing an economic crisis. This government was inefficient in dealing with it and there was a rising discontent in the form of Nav Nirman Andolan against the state, amongst the people of **Gujarat**. Similarly, **Bihar** Movement was a movement initiated by students in Bihar in 1974 and led by the veteran Gandhian socialist Jayaprakash Narayan, popularly known as JP, against misrule and corruption in the government of Bihar.

Jayaprakash Narayan was an Indian independence activist, theorist, socialist and political leader. He returned from the US to India in late 1929 as a Marxist. He joined the Indian National Congress on the invitation of Jawaharlal Nehru in 1929; Mahatma Gandhi became his mentor in the Congress. In 1999, he was posthumously awarded the Bharat Ratna, India's highest civilian award, in recognition of his social work.

Due to the pressure of the protests, Indira Gandhi asked Chimanbhai Patel to resign from the post of Chief Minister, in Gujarat. Fresh elections were held and the result was declared on 12th June 1975. The verdict on Indira Gandhi's electoral malpractices was declared the same day which later resulted in the Emergency. In Bihar, JP took the leadership of the movement and gave a call for 'Total Revolution'.

Jai Prakash (JP) movement:

Jayaprakash Narayan or Lok Nayak (People's Leader), was also known as the "Hero of Quit India Movement" and he is remembered for leading the mid-1970s opposition against Prime Minister Indira Gandhi. When the Nav Nirman movement resulted in the forced resignation of the Gujarat government, student protests began in Bihar. The Bihar Movement turned into a Satyagraha and volunteers kept protesting at the Bihar Legislative Assembly, inviting arrest starting on 4th December 1974. Jayaprakash Narayan realized the importance of fighting within the democratic system rather than a party-less democracy so he contacted opposition parties, which finally resulted in the formation of the Janata Party.

He asked the students and the people to put pressure on the existing legislators to resign, paralyze the government, gherao the state assembly and government offices, set up parallel people's governments all over the state and pay no taxes. The JP movement was one of the significant movements in India's political life after independence. The main justification of the JP movement was that it arose to end corruption and defend democracy in Indian life and politics. The proper organizational structure proved to be beneficial when it came to mass mobilization, fundraising, bandhs, hartals and campaigns to paralyze the administration. Together with V. M. Tarkunde, he found the Citizens for Democracy in 1974 and the People's Union for Civil Liberties in 1976, both NGOs, to uphold and defend civil liberties. The JP movement quickly spread to other parts of the country as it drew upon the widely held feeling that only a shift in power and a new beginning to India's political life could save India's democracy.

The aims of the movement were vague, impractical. JP himself was a critic of parliamentary politics. Socio-economic, political contents and the programme and policies of the Total Revolution were not properly defined. The agitation methods adopted by the JP movement were extra-constitutional and undemocratic. The movement was itself a coalition of too many disparate groups – the RSS, the Jan Sangh, Naxal groups, etc. JP's talks of party-less democracy were dangerous as it encouraged cynicism and despair towards democratic institutions. The JP movement did not try to conceptualize radical changes like equalization of resources; as a result, its social base remained limited, not touching the peasantry and working class.

"Sampoorna Kranti represented one of the most significant moments in India's political life after Independence". Think out loud about the circumstances which led to the call for Sampoorna Kranti. Did it achieve its objectives?

Indira Gandhi denounced the JP Movement for its extra-parliamentary approach, challenged JP to test their respective popularity in Bihar as also the country as a whole in the coming general elections, due in February-March 1976. JP accepted the challenge and his supporting parties decided to form a National Coordination Committee for the purpose. On 18th January 1977, Gandhi called fresh elections for March and released all political prisoners. The Janata party was officially launched on 23rd January 1977 under JP's guidance when the Janata Morcha, Charan Singh's Bharatiya Lok Dal, Swatantra Party, the Socialist Party of India of Raj Narain and George Fernandez, and the Bharatiya Jana Sangh (BJS) joined together, dissolving their separate identities and JP movement ended.

Conflicts with Judiciary:

In a judgement on 24th June 1975, the court said that the Parliament could not abridge Fundamental Rights, and it could not amend the Constitution in such a manner that the rights were curtailed. As a result, the Parliament amended the Constitution saying that it can abridge Fundamental Rights to give effect to Directive Principles, but the Supreme Court rejected this provision.

1. **Shankari Prasad Case V. Union of India, 1951-** It held that the Parliament's amending power under Article 368 also included power to amend Fundamental Rights under Part III of the Constitution.
2. **Golaknath Case (1967)** - Supreme Court held that Fundamental Rights cannot be abridged or diluted. By the 24th Amendment Act 1971, the Parliament amended Article 13 and 368. This amendment made it clear that Parliament has the power to amend any part of the Constitution including Fundamental Rights and the word 'law' as used in Article 13 does not include a Constitutional Amendment Act. The Parliament responded by bringing the 25th Amendment Act, 1971 of the Constitution which inserted Article 31C in Part III. Article 31 C contained two provisions:
 - a. If a law is made to give effect to DPSPs in Article 39(b) and Article 39(c) and in the process, the law violates Article 14, Article 19 or Article 31, then the law should not be declared as unconstitutional and void merely on this ground.
 - b. Any such law which contains the declaration that it is to give effect to DPSPs in Article 39(b) and Article(c) shall not be questioned in a court of law.
3. **Kesavananda Bharati Case (1973)** - The above amendment was challenged in this case. Court held that Parliament can amend any part of the Constitution, but could not destroy the Basic Structure of the Constitution. The second clause of Article 31C was as declared as unconstitutional and void as it was against the Basic Structure of the Constitution propounded in this case itself. However, the SC upheld the first provision of the Article 31C. The court also held that the power of Judicial review cannot be taken out by Parliament. This was followed by the political appointment of the Chief Justice of India because of government pressure.
4. **Raj Narayan Case Verdict-** Raj Narayan, a candidate who contested against Indira Gandhi from Rae Bareilly in 1971, lodged cases of election fraud and use of state machinery for election purposes against her in the Allahabad High Court in 1972. On 12th June 1975, Justice Jag Mohan Lal Sinha of the Allahabad High Court found the Prime Minister guilty on the charge of misuse of government machinery for her election campaign. The court declared her election null and void and unseated her from her seat in the Lok Sabha. The court also banned her from contesting any election for an additional six years. Indira Gandhi challenged the High Court's decision in the Supreme Court. Justice V. R. Krishna Iyer, on 24th June 1975, upheld the High Court judgment and ordered all privileges Gandhi received as an MP be stopped. The Court's judgment and Gujarat Assembly results revived the opposition movement. On 25 June 1975, JP organized a large rally in Delhi, where he said that a police officer must reject the orders of government if the order is immoral and unethical as this was Mahatma Gandhi's motto during the freedom struggle. Later that day, Indira Gandhi requested President Fakhruddin Ali Ahmed to issue a proclamation of a state of emergency.

When Indira Gandhi was found guilty of violating electoral laws by the Allahabad High Court, JP Narayan started calling for Indira and the CMs of Congress in other states to resign. **President Fakhruddin Ali Ahmed**, on the advice of Prime Minister Indira Gandhi, **declared a state of emergency under Article 352** of the Constitution of India on 26th June 1975.

Justification of the Emergency	Criticism of the Emergency
The government held that India's stability, security, integrity, and democracy were in danger from the disruptive character of the JP movement and that prolonged protests and agitations were bad for governance. The government justified the Emergency by saying that the JP movement was an	There was suspension of Fundamental Rights as detention of people by police was done without charge or notification to families. Abuse and torture of detainees and political prisoners was resorted to, to curb the opposition. Workers were unhappy because of limits on wages, bonuses and

intervention and subversion from abroad with the aim of weakening and destabilizing India.	restrictions on their right to strike. Public and private media institutions were used for government propaganda. According to many critics, agitations had been a part and parcel of democracy and it was wrong to proclaim emergency because of them.
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In July 1975, Indira Gandhi announced the 20-Point Programme with the main objectives as attack on rural poverty, strategy for rainfed agriculture, enforcement of land reforms, clean drinking water, two child norms, justice for SC/ST, protection of environment, a responsive administration, etc. The government also imposed strict censorship on the press. Many opposition leaders were arrested under the Maintenance of Internal Security Act (MISA), 1971 such as Jayaprakash Narayan, Morarji Desai, Atal Bihari Vajpayee, etc. It led to the infamous judgement in the ADM Jabalpur case, which stated that Article 21, i.e., the Right to life and personal liberty could be suspended during the proclamation of an emergency. Meanwhile, several extreme communal and ultra-left organizations including the RSS, Anand Marg, Jamaat-i-Islami and Maoist CP (ML) were banned. State governments were rigidly controlled. Governments of Tamil Nadu and Gujarat were dismissed. A series of decrees, laws and constitutional amendments reduced the power of the judiciary to check the functioning of the executive. The Defence of India Act, 1962 and MISA were amended in July 1975, to the detriment of the citizen's liberties. In September 1976, the Government initiated a widespread compulsory sterilization programme to limit population growth. Parliament was made utterly ineffective.

The **38th to 42nd amendments** were passed during the Emergency. The **38th Amendment, 1975** barred the judicial review of proclamations of the Emergency, of ordinances promulgated by the President or by Governors, and of laws that contravened the Fundamental Rights. In the background of the ruling of the Allahabad High Court in the Indira Gandhi case, the **39th Amendment, 1975**, declared that elections of Prime Minister, President, and Vice-President could not be challenged in the Court. The amendment was placed in the Ninth Schedule, beyond judicial review. The **41st Amendment, 1976** said no criminal proceedings "whatsoever" could lie against a President, Prime Minister, or Governor for acts before or during their terms of office. The **42nd Amendment, 1976**, gave unrestrained powers to Parliament to change the Constitution. It invalidated the Supreme Court ruling in the Kesavananda Bharati case (1973) that the government couldn't change the basic structure of the Constitution and added socialist, secular, integrity in the Preamble and laying down the fundamental duties of the citizens. The duration of the legislature in the country was extended from 5 to 6 years, besides this, during an emergency; elections could be postponed by one year. This amendment brought about the most widespread changes to the Constitution in its history, and is sometimes called a "mini-Constitution" or the "Constitution of Indira".

Initially, a large majority of the people accepted the Emergency. A major factor in the people's acceptance was its constitutional, legal and temporary character. With the restoration of public order and discipline, many felt that the country is saved from chaos and disorder. There was less crime, gherao, and violent demonstrations came to an end. Quick actions were taken against smugglers, hoarders, illegal traders, and tax evaders. From early 1976, the Emergency started becoming unpopular. The intelligentsia said that the 42nd Amendment was an effort to undermine democracy. With this the Emergency started losing its legitimacy. Critics were of the opinion that the agitations were not a threat to India's unity and integrity but to the erstwhile ruling party. A major reason for this growing unpopularity was the development of an extra-constitutional centre of power- the rise in the political power of Sanjay Gandhi. Sanjay Gandhi declared his own five-point programme promoting literacy, family planning, tree planting, the eradication of casteism and the abolition of dowry.

In January 1977, Indira Gandhi suddenly announced that elections to the Lok Sabha would be held in March. The political prisoners were released and got united and the Janata party was officially launched on 23rd January 1977 under JP's guidance. The opposition Janata movement's campaign warned Indians that the

elections might be their last chance to choose between "democracy and dictatorship." The Elections were held on 16th March 1977 and Mrs. Gandhi and Sanjay Gandhi both lost their Lok Sabha seats, as did all the Congress candidates in northern states such as Bihar and Uttar Pradesh. Morarji Desai became the first non-Congress Prime Minister of India. The **Emergency came to an end on 21st March 1977.**

The political tragedy was that both the JP Movement and Indira Gandhi shunned the option of elections, which are the expression of popular will and legitimacy. Delay in lifting emergency began to generate the fear that the authoritarian structure of the rule might be made permanent. In May 1977, the Janata Party government appointed the **Shah Commission** headed by Justice J.C. Shah, retired Chief Justice of the Supreme Court of India. The Commission was appointed to inquire about the "excesses" and "malpractices" that had taken place during the Emergency. The commission decided that the decision to impose Emergency was made by Prime Minister Indira Gandhi alone, without any aversive report by the Intelligence Bureau, without consulting her cabinet colleagues, and hence, was not justified. There were sufficient regular powers available with the government to deal with the law and order situation. Also, it said that the decision to arrest and release certain persons was entirely on political considerations which were intended to be favourable to the ruling party. The Government of India accepted the findings, observations, and recommendations in the report of the Shah Commission.

The Emergency brought out both the weaknesses and the strengths of India's democracy. It brought out some ambiguities regarding the Emergency provision in the Constitution that have been rectified by 44th Constitutional Amendment Act, 1978, since- 'Internal' Emergency can now be proclaimed only on the grounds of 'armed rebellion' and it is now necessary that the advice to the President to proclaim Emergency must be given in writing by the Council of Ministers. The Emergency made everyone more aware of the value of civil liberties. The courts took an active role after the emergency in protecting the civil liberties of individuals. The Elections of 1977 served as a referendum on the experience of emergency and the people's verdict was against it. In an indirect manner, the issue of the welfare of backward classes began to dominate politics since 1977 and following this Mandal Commission was appointed by Janata Party Government at the Centre on 1st January 1979.

The Emergency and the period around it can be described as a period of **constitutional crisis** because it had its origins in the constitutional battle over the jurisdiction of the Parliament and the judiciary. On the other hand, it was also a period of political crisis. The party in the power had an absolute majority and yet, its leadership decided to suspend the democratic process. The lifting of emergency and free elections that followed were a defining moment in India's post-independence history. There is no doubt that the decision of Mrs. Indira Gandhi to hold elections, her defeat and Opposition's victory were a remarkable achievement of Indian democracy.

"Emergency was a constitutional and political crisis." Do you think that the declaration of emergency justified? What was its impact on the social and political life of India?

7. POLITICS AFTER EMERGENCY

After the victory, the Janata party faced a serious challenge in choosing a leader among the political stalwarts like Morarji Desai, Charan Singh, and Jagjivan Ram to become India's new Prime Minister. After much deliberation, **Morarji Desai** became the Chairman of the Janata Parliamentary Party. The first action taken by the Desai government was to formally end the state of Emergency and media censorship and repeal the controversial executive decrees issued during the Emergency. It restored Fundamental Rights and full civil liberties to the press, political parties and individuals. Through the 44th Constitutional Amendment, it also modified the 42nd Amendment passed during the Emergency, repealing those of its provisions which had distorted the Constitution.

Despite a strong start, the Janata government began to wither as significant ideological and political divisions emerged. Ultimately, the Janata Party split and the government which was led by Morarji Desai lost its majority in less than 28 months. President Reddy then appointed **Charan Singh** as the Prime Minister of a minority government and called him to form a new government. However, due to losing support of the house, after only three weeks in office, Charan Singh resigned. When no other political party was in a position to establish a majority government, President Reddy dissolved the Parliament and called for fresh elections in January 1980.

Earlier, Indira Gandhi had split the party in January 1978 and MPs still loyal to Indira Gandhi had renamed their party to **Congress (I) – "I" standing for Indira**. Therefore, when in the Lok Sabha elections of January, 1980, Congress (I) emerged victorious, Indira Gandhi was once again the Prime Minister after having been out of office for thirty-four months. Meanwhile, in the late 1970s and the early 1980s, the separatist movement had begun to militarize and saw the increasing involvement of the Sikh religious preacher Jarnail Singh Bhindranwale, the leader of Sikh religious organization- Damdami Taksal, in Punjab politics. As a result, Prime Minister Indira Gandhi gave the orders for **Operation Bluestar**, to remove militant religious leader Bhindranwale and his armed followers from the buildings of the Harmandir Sahib complex in Amritsar, between 1 to 8 June 1984. Bhindranwale was killed in the operation, while many of his followers managed to escape. However, on 31st October 1984, Indira Gandhi's long tenure as Prime Minister too came to an end with her assassination by two Sikh members of her security guards team in retaliation to her role in Operation Blue star.

Did the prevalence of a 'one party dominant system' affect adversely the democratic nature of Indian politics?

7.1. Rajiv Gandhi years

After Sanjay Gandhi's death in a plane crash in 1980, Rajiv Gandhi had reluctantly entered politics at the behest of Indira Gandhi. He won his brother's Parliamentary seat of Amethi in Uttar Pradesh and became a member of the Lok Sabha. He took office upon the 1984 assassination of his mother, Prime Minister Indira Gandhi, to become the youngest Indian Prime Minister at the age of 40 and served as the 6th Prime Minister of India from 1984 to 1989.

Rajiv Gandhi faced major crises from the outset of his political career. The horrific massacre of Sikhs in revenge for Indira Gandhi's assassination took place in Delhi. Many Sikhs were attacked, their businesses and houses looted and burnt, and around 3000 killed. The perpetrators were the poor, usually slum-dwellers, who looked upon Indira as their leader and sympathizer. On the North East front as well, there was an increase in insurgency as demand arose for the independence of Mizoram.

Bhopal Gas Tragedy:

Within two weeks of Rajiv Gandhi becoming Prime Minister, there occurred a gas leak on the night of 2-3 December 1984, at the Union Carbide India Limited (UCIL) pesticide plant in Bhopal, Madhya Pradesh. Over 500,000 people were exposed to methyl isocyanate (MIC) gas, while 3,787 people died. Legal proceedings involving UCIL, the United States and Indian governments, local Bhopal authorities, and the disaster victims started immediately after the catastrophe. The Indian Government passed the Bhopal Gas Leak Act in March 1985, allowing the government to act as the legal representative for victims of the disaster. In 1998, the Supreme Court of India reached a settlement with Union Carbide in which UCIL had to pay 470 million US dollars to the Indian state. In June 2010, seven Indian nationals who were UCIL employees in 1984, including the former UCIL Chairman, were convicted in Bhopal of causing death by negligence and sentenced to two years' imprisonment and a fine of about \$2,000 each, the maximum punishment allowed by Indian law. All were released on bail shortly after the verdict.

Policies:

Rajiv Gandhi's first action as Prime Minister was passing the **Anti-Defection law** by the 52nd Constitutional amendment in January 1985 and adding 10th Schedule to the Constitution for curbing corruption and bribery of ministers by switching parties so they could gain a majority. He and his government then took the initiative to deepen and strengthen **Panchayati Raj Institutions** by generating debate and bringing forward legislation to make panchayat elections mandatory by giving them a constitutional sanction.

Among the ethnic and secessionist conflicts, the resolution of the Mizoram issue was a notable success. The movement by Mizo National Front had racial and religious overtones and its aim was secession of Mizoram from the Indian Union. The **Mizoram Accord** of 1986 succeeded in bringing the violent conflict to a satisfactory conclusion. It was an official agreement between the Government of India and the Mizo National Front (MNF) to end insurgency and violence in Mizoram. He also ended the Assam Movement, which was launched by Assamese people to protest against the alleged illegal migration of Bangladeshi Muslims and immigration of other Bengalis to their state, which had reduced the Assamese to a minority in some areas of the state. He signed the **Assam Accord** with the leaders of the Assam Movement on 15th August 1985. According to it, foreigners who came to the state between 1951 and 1961 were given full citizenship but those who arrived there between 1961 and 1971 did not get the right to vote for the next ten years.

Rajiv Gandhi's most well-known initiative was the setting up of six '**Technology Missions**', something that for many Indians epitomized the new, modern and technological approach of the Prime Minister. The idea was to apply science and technology to six areas of underdevelopment in which a scientific approach would be useful in solving problems. The most important of these was the **drinking water mission**, whose aim was to provide drinking water to all Indian villages, only one-fifth of which had potable water supplies. The **literacy mission** was aimed at attacking the serious problem of mass illiteracy. This was to be achieved by making use of, and extending television networks in rural areas.

The third mission was targeted at the **immunization of pregnant women and children**, again an idea that has caught on and is pursued with greater vigour today with the mass campaign for immunization of children against polio being a popular example. The fourth mission was to promote the '**White Revolution**', or milk production, by improving the milk yield and health of cows and buffaloes, and this was remarkably successful. The fifth mission was charged with the task of **expanding edible oil production**. The aim of the sixth mission was to bring one telephone to every village in the country by the end of the century. A big push

was also given by Rajiv to India's computerization program by lowering import duties on components, allowing foreign manufacturers to enter the market and encouraging the use of computers in offices and schools. India signed with the United States an agreement on March 1988, for the transfer of high technology and subsequent acquisition of **Super Computers**.

In 1986, he announced a **National Policy on Education** to modernize and expand higher education programs across India with main planks being 'Operation Blackboard' (providing basic amenities to schools) and distance education. In 1985, he founded the Jawahar Navodaya Vidyalaya System, which is a Central government-based education institution that provides rural populations with free residential education from grades six to twelve. Another measure directed at the rural poor was the Jawahar Rozgar Yojana (1989) or Employment Plan which aimed at providing employment to at least one member of every rural poor family for 50–100 days in the year. He launched a massive effort to clean the river Ganga and created the **Ministry of Environment**.

Shah Bano case:

In April 1978, a 62-year-old Muslim woman, Shah Bano, filed a petition in court demanding maintenance from her divorced husband who was a renowned lawyer in Indore. This case- Mohd. Ahmed Khan v. Shah Bano Begum (1985) - commonly referred to as the Shah Bano Case, was a controversial lawsuit in India, in which the Supreme Court delivered a judgment favouring maintenance given to an aggrieved divorced Muslim woman. The judgment in favour of the woman and against the husband, evoked criticisms among Muslims. It triggered controversy about the extent of having different civil codes for different religions in India. The case caused the Congress government to pass the Muslim Women (Protection of Rights on Divorce) Act, 1986, which diluted the judgment of the Supreme Court and restricted the right of Muslim divorcees to alimony from their former husbands for only 90 days after the divorce. The law received criticism from several sections of the society and was called an act of "appeasement" towards the minority community.

Foreign Policy:

The "whole gamut" of Rajiv Gandhi's foreign policy was "geared towards" making India "strong, independent, self-reliant and in the front rank of the nations of the world". In 1986, on the request of President of Seychelles, Gandhi sent India's Navy to Seychelles to oppose an attempted coup. The intervention of India averted the coup and the mission was codenamed as **Operation Flowers are Blooming** (1986). With respect to USSR, when Gorbachev visited India in November 1986, the Prime Minister signed the **Delhi Declaration**, endorsing Gandhian philosophy of non-violence as the guiding principle in international relations.

Rajiv's visit to China in 1988, the first by an Indian Prime Minister since Nehru's maiden visit in 1954 was remarkable. During the visit, both sides agreed to negotiate a boundary settlement and would maintain peace and tranquillity at the boundary. In 1988, during the Maldives coup, the Maldivian President Abdul Gayoom asked for help from Gandhi. Rajiv immediately dispatched 1500 soldiers and the coup was suppressed. India's intervention in the attempted coup became necessary as, in the absence of Indian intervention, external powers would have been tempted to intervene or even to establish bases in the Maldives, which being in India's backyard would have been detrimental to India's national interest. India, therefore, intervened with "**Operation Cactus**".

Rajiv Gandhi also signed the **Indo-Sri Lanka Accord** on 29th July 1987, with Sri Lankan President Jayewardene. The accord envisaged devolution of power to the Tamil-majority areas, a merger of the Northern and the Eastern provinces into a single province, dissolving the LTTE, and designating Tamil as an official language of Sri Lanka (this was enacted as the 13th Amendment to the Constitution of Sri Lanka). India agreed to establish order through the Indian Peace Keeping Force (IPKF) under **Operation Pawan** and to cease assisting Tamil insurgents. Militant groups including the LTTE, although initially reluctant, agreed to surrender their arms to the IPKF. But nationalist sentiment led many Sinhalese to oppose the continued Indian presence in Sri Lanka. Later, a Supreme Court of India judgement confirmed that Rajiv Gandhi was

indeed killed because of personal animosity, by the LTTE chief Prabhakaran, arising from his sending the Indian Peace Keeping Force (IPKF) to Sri Lanka and the alleged IPKF atrocities against Sri Lankan Tamils.

What were the major challenges before the nation during Rajiv's years? How do you think, the political leadership met those challenges, with special emphasis on India's foreign policy?

Even though Rajiv Gandhi had won the last election by a landslide, the election of 1989 saw him trying to fight off scandals that had marred his administration. Gandhi remained Congress President until the elections in 1991 and while campaigning for the elections at Sriperembudur in Tamil Nadu, he was assassinated by a suicide bomber from the LTTE on 21st May 1991. Changes after 1989 in the Indian polity led to drastic changes in the nature of Indian federalism.

Bofors scandal:

In 1986, India had signed a deal with Swedish arms manufacturer AB Bofors for the supply of Howitzer guns for the Army, but it was alleged that Bofors paid kickbacks to top Indian politicians and key defence officials to seal the deal. V. P. Singh, the Defence Minister, uncovered alleged payoffs by the company through Italian businessman and Gandhi family associate Ottavio Quattrocchi, in return for Indian contracts. However, Rajiv Gandhi denied any involvement and told the Lok Sabha that no kickbacks were paid and that no middlemen were involved.

7.2. V.P. Singh government

Vishwanath Pratap Singh, the active participator of the Bhoodan Movement in 1957, was the 7th Prime Minister of India from 1989-90 in the Janata Dal (National Front) government. His tenure lasted for 11 months from December 1989 to November 1990. After the death of Indira Gandhi in 1984, Rajiv Gandhi, had appointed V.P.Singh as the Union minister of Finance in the Congress (I) government and later as the Union minister of Defence. During his term as the Defence minister, word began to spread that V.P.Singh possessed information about the Bofors defence deal between and hence was dismissed from the cabinet. Subsequently, he left his membership to the Congress Party (I) and along with his associates Arun Nehru and Arif Mohammad Khan formed an opposition party by the name of Jan Morcha in 1988.

The Jan Morcha formed a national level federation known as 'National Front' by including various regional parties such as the DMK (Dravida Munnetra Kazhagam), Telugu Desam Party and Asom Gana Parishad with V. P. Singh as its convener and NT Rama Rao as its President. The so formed 'National Front' fought 1989 general elections and was able to form the central government with the outside support of right-wing Bharatiya Janata Party under the leadership of Atal Bihari Vajpayee and Lal Krishna Advani and the Communist Left Front.

Era of Coalition Politics in India:

India experienced the formation of its first coalition government in 1977-79 (Janata Party Government under Morarji Desai). However, this coalition government was short-lived and there was re-emergence of single-party government under the leadership of Indira Gandhi and Rajiv Gandhi during the period from 1980-89. With the end of the Rajiv Gandhi era, India saw the beginning of coalition party governments in India, which lasted till 2014 as no single party was able to secure a simple majority in the Lok Sabha seats to form the Central government.

The first coalition government was headed by V.P. Singh in 1989 as the leader of the National Front government. The subsequent coalition governments were:

1. Chandra Shekhar government of 1990- coalition of Samajwadi Janata Party and the Congress (I).
2. H. D. Deve Gowda government (1996-97) and I.K. Gujral government (1997-98) under the National Front coalition.

3. Atal Bihar Vajpayee government of 1999-2004 under the National Democratic Alliance (NDA) coalition.
4. Manmohan Singh governments from 2004-2009 and 2009-14 under the United Progressive Alliance (UPA) coalition.

The coalition politics era ended in 2014, when the BJP party was able to secure a clear majority in the Lok Sabha. However, the central government formed was named as the National Democratic Alliance (NDA) government as allied parties of the BJP were included in the government. This trend continued in 2019 general elections too where BJP managed to secure a majority in Lok Sabha once again.

The formation of coalition governments in 1990s is a reflection of regionalisation of politics and rising aspirations of weaker sections of society. Comment.

Policies:

Soon after V.P. Singh joined his office as the Prime Minister, he faced his first challenge when the Kashmiri militants kidnapped the daughter of his Home Minister, Mufti Mohammad Sayeed (former Chief Minister of Jammu and Kashmir). His government decided to agree to the demands of militants in exchange for the release. There was also a huge wave of separatist movement in Punjab at that time. To solve the matters via soft power, V.P. Singh himself made a much-publicized visit to the Golden Temple to ask forgiveness for Operation Blue Star. He discusses other events that caused turmoil in Punjab and his government decided to hold fresh elections in the state of Punjab to provide stability to it. Though India was able to contain the unstable situation of Punjab, the separatist movement was internationalized due to the spread of various Khalistani nationalists to foreign countries like the US, Canada, UK, etc. Even today its effects are seen in other nations such as the 'Referendum- 2020' event planned by the US-based Sikhs for Justice (SFJ) radical group in their demand for Khalistan.

The 11-month long government of V.P. Singh also worked for the betterment of Indians on various fronts including social policies, reservation for backward classes, etc. As a result, V.P. Singh decided to implement the recommendations of the Mandal Commission report of 1980s, which caused a huge upheaval in the country and resulted in politicization of caste. There was self-immolation by young people and V.P. Singh was portrayed as a destroyer of social harmony. The reaction of the southern states was mild to the recommendations of the commission as reservation in those states was already touching 50%.

Kaka Kalelkar Commission

The independent India in 1947 pursued its aim of providing benefits to the "Depressed Classes" or the SCs and STs of India, to compensate for the historical wrongdoings and improve their livelihood conditions. However, there were no benefits for other backward classes apart from SCs and STs, who were equally or more backward in terms of social and economic parameters. Therefore, India set up its first Backward Classes Commission in 1953, by a Presidential order, under Article 340 of the Constitution. It was famously known as the **Kaka Kalelkar** Commission. The commission in its 1955 report highlighted that India has 2399 backward groups out of which 837 were 'most backward'. However, the recommendations of the commission regarding the **acceptance of caste** as criteria for backwardness were rejected. The government cited that it could not be denied that the caste system was the greatest hindrance in the way of our progress, but the recognition of the specific castes as backward might perpetuate the existing distinctions even more.

B.P Mandal Commission

The unchanged circumstances of various backward castes in India over the years increased the need to understand the caste linked backwardness. Hence, the Socially and Educationally Backward Classes Commission (SEBC) was established in India in 1979 by Prime Minister Morarji Desai with a mandate to "identify the socially or educationally backward classes" of India. The Commission first time used the term 'Other Backward Classes' and reported that 52% of the country's population was comprised of OBCs. It

suggested a fixed reservation quota of 27% for OBCs in all jobs to the public sector undertakings both under the Central and State level governments including all public educational institutions. It also advised for relaxation in the upper age limit for direct recruitment to be extended to the candidates of OBCs in the same manner as done in the case of SCs and STs. Though the report was published in 1983, but no action was taken by the successive governments because of popular agitation in opposition to it, until 1990. Later in 1992, Supreme Court upheld the ceiling quota of 50% in **Indira Sawhney & others v. Union of India case**.

Babri Masjid and the Rath Yatra:

The period of the late 1980s and early 1990s saw the resurgence of fundamentalist ideology in India. The BJP party (that gave outside support to V.P. Singh's coalition government) moved forward with its fundamentalist agenda of Ram Janmabhoomi agitation to increase their share in vote bank on communal lines. The party set the agenda of doing 'kar-seva' (demolition of the mosque and construction of the temple) which created a wave of strong sentiments among various radical Hindu organizations. The BJP party president Lal Krishna Advani decided to launch a 'Rath Yatra' to the disputed site in Ayodhya from Somnath in Gujarat. It was a tour of about 35 days passing via 10 northern states in India.

The allies of the V.P. Singh government started showing their discontent against the BJP's Rath Yatra as it created a serious law and order situation in different states. V.P. Singh decided to stop this chaos and L.K. Advani was arrested in Bihar on the charges of disturbing the peace and fermenting communal tension. However, Advani was released soon after his arrest in 1990, with BJP withdrawing their political support from the V.P. Singh government and the Central government fell due to loss of majority in the Lok Sabha. On 6th December 1992, a rally was again organized near the Babri mosque site in Ayodhya which turned violent during its proceedings and the crowd outnumbering the local police administration, marched towards the Babri Mosque and demolished it. The demolition was followed by communal violence across India.

The loss of political support made V P Singh lose his vote of confidence in the Lok Sabha and he had to resign. The Congress(I) led by Rajiv Gandhi, supported **Chandra Shekar's** (rival of V.P. Singh within Janta Dal) party from outside. Hence Chandra Shekar was sworn in as the Prime Minister on 10th November 1990 with the direct support of 64 MPs and outside support of Congress with 197 MPs. Chandra Shekar inherited a set of problems from the previous government at the time of his rise to power. The turbulent Indian economy was experiencing a continuous fall in foreign exchange reserves. The immediate reason for this was the Gulf wars which raised the oil prices across the world and also India's import bill along with it. To compensate for the forex loss, the Chandra Shekar government had to pledge gold reserves of the country which further declined the image of the country worldwide and triggered a wave of harsh opinions among the people against the leaders.

The rising sentiments against the Chandra Shekar government created political turmoil in the country. In the 1991 Budget session, Rajiv Gandhi withdrew his party's support to the Chandra Shekar government on the grounds that two police constables were spying on him. Thereafter, in the subsequent elections, the Congress (I) party got high sympathy because of the assassination of their main party leader, Rajiv Gandhi. The Congress (I) party proposed the name of their senior party member, **Narasimha Rao** who became the next Prime Minister of India.

7.3. P.V. Narasimha Rao years

Pamulaparti Venkata Narasimha Rao was the 9th Prime Minister of India who served his term from 1991 to 1996 as Congress (I) party candidate, after the assassination of Rajiv Gandhi. It was during his tenure that the Indian economy was restructured from Nehruvian socialist structure to a free-market economy. Hence, he is also known as the '**Father of Indian Economic Reforms**' (because of his 1991 Indian Economic Reform Policy-Liberalization, Privatisation and Globalization Policy). PV Narasimha Rao was also the first Prime Minister from South India. He was an agriculturist and an advocate by profession. He took an active part in

India's struggle for independence and later joined Indian politics and held some important portfolios at state and central level of government (He formerly served as the Minister of Home Affairs, External Affairs, Defence and Foreign Affairs in the cabinets of both Indira Gandhi and Rajiv Gandhi).

Policies:

To strengthen the rural local government in India, the Narasimha government brought the landmark '**73rd Constitutional Amendment Act of 1992**'. It gave constitutional recognition to the panchayats (rural local governments) in India by adding a new Part IX and a new Schedule 11 to the Indian Constitution. Similarly, for the urban local government, the **74th Amendment Act of 1992** was enacted. It gave constitutional recognition to the municipalities (urban local governments) by adding a new Part IX-A and a new Schedule 12 to the Constitution. Narasimha believed in participatory democracy and thinking above party politics. This was evident from his appointment of two opposition party members Atal Bihari Vajpayee and Subramanian Swamy to important positions by letting Vajpayee represent India in a UN meeting at Geneva and Subramanian Swamy was given a Cabinet rank post, as Chairman of the Commission on Labour Standards and International Trade.

Economic Policy reforms of 1991- Narasimha Rao is popularly known for his economic policies which restructured India's economic regime from a quasi-socialistic order to a liberalized free-market system. He achieved this transformation at a time when India was undergoing an economic balance of payment crisis with a drain of India's forex reserves. The Immediate reason for the crisis was the Gulf wars of the early 1990s, which raised the global prices of crude oil and also India's import bills. He appointed non-political economist Dr. Manmohan Singh as his Finance Minister. They worked together to bring out the 1991 Economic Policy, famously known as 1991 LPG Reforms (Liberalization, Privatisation and Globalization Reforms).

It was also realized that India needed Banking sector reforms to cope up with the evolving needs of the financial sector. As a result, various committees were set up for the same purpose, the important one being the '**Banking reform committee under the chairmanship of M. Narasimham (1991)**'. It was tasked to analyse India's Banking sector and recommend apt legislation and regulations to make it more competitive and effective. P.V. Narasimha Rao is also credited for the introduction of the Securities and Exchange Board of India (SEBI) Act of 1992 which made SEBI a statutory board to regulate the securities market in India. Introduction of Global Depository Receipts (GDR) (a mechanism that allowed Indian firms to raise capital in foreign markets) was also done during his tenure as a part of his various economic policies.

Narasimha Rao's tenure also saw the rise of **Hindu fundamentalism** as a significant force in national politics for the first time. In 1992 Hindu fundamentalists destroyed the Babri Mosque, which triggered one of the worst Hindu-Muslim riots in the country since its independence and it persisted throughout Rao's term as Prime Minister. The chain of the event was continued by the **1993 Bombay bombings**. However, Narasimha Rao's government was highly praised for its post-event crisis management. Government apart from providing active relief to the people, worked on its diplomatic ties to bring to light the terrorist activities carried out by neighbouring nations like Pakistan and also isolating them. International experts from countries like the US, UK, and other European countries were called upon in Bombay to examine the facts for themselves.

India's missile technology programme was also boosted because of specialized focus on technological fronts. These defence policies prepared the base for India to become a nuclear power. Handling of the Hazratbal holy shrine issue sent a message to the terrorist organizations that India as a nation would not succumb to the terror demands at any possible situation. The focus on military preparedness bore fruits during 1999 Kargil war, which led India to a stunning victory on all fronts.

Foreign policy:

Look East policy- Initiated in 1991, this policy was aimed to increase India's economic, cultural and strategic relations along with security integration in the Southeast Asia region. It was based on the 3 C's principle of Culture, Connectivity and Commerce to develop better relations with ASEAN nations. It also served its

purpose in countering the increasing dominance of China in and around the Indian subcontinent. This policy initiated by Narasimha Rao marked a strategic shift in India's international interaction as it was the first time a developing country like India diversified its international relations deviating from its western leaning. The North-eastern region of India played a major role in implementing this policy as it acted as India's gateway to neighbouring countries of the Southeast Asia region.

Cultivate Iran policy- It was pursued by India in the 1990s to extend better diplomatic relations in India-Iran ties. Earlier Iran used to support Pakistan and India-Iran ties were meagre due to India's link with Iraq (an opposite front of Iran). However, this linkage between India and Iran started to change in the early 1990s when India and Iran supported the Northern Alliance in Afghanistan against the Taliban regime. This policy helped India in blocking Pakistan's effort to pass a resolution by the UN Human Rights Commission in Geneva on the human rights situation in Jammu and Kashmir as it met opposition from China and Iran.

Narasimha Rao actively pursued a systematic drive in 1992 to draw **international attention towards Pakistan sponsored terrorism** against India. He also worked on the improvement of India-China relations by his visit to China in 1993. His government also maintained its distance from the Dalai Lama in order to avoid aggravating China's suspicions and concerns. India opened its **diplomatic relations with Israel** in 1992 under the Narasimha government and permitted Israel to open an embassy in New Delhi. Linkages with superpowers like the US also improved with the Liberalization of the Indian economy. US-India Commercial alliance (USICA) was created in 1995 which was followed by the US declaring India as a "Big Emerging Market" status. India also worked on resolving its water issues with neighbouring countries like the signing of Mahakali Treaty in 1996 between India and Nepal pertained to sharing the water of a Mahakali river which originates in Nepal and forms the border between the two countries for a significant distance.

The international policies of increasing diplomatic linkages apart from the western world helped India in reshaping its image as a responsible nation that deals with all nations equally irrespective of their geographical or economic extent. The neighbouring countries started to see India as a nation to look upon for their support and not as a nation to be threatened from. The India-Israel bilateral relationship blossomed after 1992 at the economic, military, agricultural and political levels. Israeli supplied weapons that aided India in winning the Kargil War against Pakistan in 1999. Currently, India is the largest arms buyer from Israel. It also helped India in maintaining the trust of its neighbouring nations during its nuclear tests of 1998 and avoiding any major obstruction to the rise of its status as a nuclear power.

The Lok Sabha election of 1996 brought a change (though for a shorter period) in the political regime. Narasimha Rao's party lost and he was succeeded by Atal Bihari Vajpayee's central government (Government stood for just 16 days). There have been demands for the Bharat Ratna to be bestowed on Rao for his enormous contribution to India. Even former President APJ Abdul Kalam described Rao as a "patriotic statesman who believed that the nation is bigger than the political system."

7.4. United Front government

In the 1996 general elections, Bharatiya Janata Party under the leadership of Atal Bihar Vajpayee emerged as the single largest party and was called by the President to form the central government. He was sworn in as the new Prime Minister, however, the Vajpayee government failed to attract any new allies, and the BJP government lasted for just 13 days. Thereafter, 13 opposition parties united under the leadership of Janata Dal and formed a 'United Front government' with H.D. Deve Gowda as their Prime Ministerial candidate. This United Front coalition formed two governments in India from 1996 to 1998 with H.D. Deve Gowda and I.K.Gujral heading the government.

H.D. Deve Gowda:

H.D. Deve Gowda served as the 11th Prime Minister of India from June 1996 to April 1997. He was also the Chief Minister of Karnataka for two years i.e. from 1994 to 1996 (he shortened his term to serve as Indian Prime Minister in 1996). The United Front coalition consisting of non-Congress, non-Bharatiya Janata Party

members was able to form government with the external support of the Congress party, which was withdrawn later and hence Gowda had to step down from the Prime Ministerial post in June 1997.

Policies- P. Chidambaram, the Minister of Finance of Deve Gowda government, presented the annual budget for the year 1997-98 which was termed as the '**Dream Budget**' by the media as it presented a road map for India's economic reforms. It reduced personal income tax rates from 40 percent to 30 percent and cut corporate tax rates. The limit of FII investment was increased and it also laid the ground for the first round of disinvestment in PSUs. Government also introduced a new criterion to widen the tax net. Under it, if an individual satisfied any two of the following four criteria, he/she had to voluntarily file a tax return. The set criteria were:

1. Ownership of a four-wheeler.
2. Occupation of an immovable property.
3. Ownership of a telephone.
4. Foreign travel in the previous year.

Government also went for coal reforms by opening the coal sector for private operations- but only for captive use.

Gujral Doctrine- H.D.Deve Gowda's Union Minister of External Affairs I.K. Gujral propounded the famous 'Gujral Doctrine' which became the basis of India's foreign policy from the late 1990s period. The 'doctrine' emphasized the importance of unilateral accommodation for friendly and warm relations with India's neighbours. The doctrine was a **five-point roadmap** which sought to build trust between India and its neighbours and to remove immediate quid pro quos in a diplomatic relationship:

1. With neighbours such as Bhutan, Bangladesh, Nepal, Maldives, and Sri Lanka, India does not seek reciprocity but offers and accommodates what it can, in good faith and trust.
2. No South Asian country should permit its territory to be used against the interest of another south Asian nation.
3. Countries should not interfere in the internal affairs of one another.
4. All South Asian countries should respect each other's territorial integrity and sovereignty.
5. They should settle all their disputes by peaceful bilateral negotiations.

The essence of the Gujral Doctrine has been that being the largest country in South Asia, India can extend unilateral concessions to its neighbours in the sub-continent. The doctrine helped India to walk the extra mile in resolving long-standing neighbourhood problems. However, it also raises questions over its applicability in the modern world which is seeing the rise of China. China's footprint in the subcontinent has expanded (via Belt and Road initiative, etc.) and the logic of improved connectivity within the subcontinent is often trumped by heightened security concerns. Moreover, development cooperation as an instrument of India's neighbourhood policy is weakened by the scarcity of resources. India is unable to match the scale of resources that China is able to deploy in our neighbourhood to win influence. Also, the current slowdown in the Indian economy has meant that there is less willingness on India's part to further open its market to its neighbours. Even the November 2008 Mumbai attacks, reflected the weakness of this doctrine, that 'inherent goodwill' may not work with openly hostile neighbours.

I.K. Gujral:

Inder Kumar Gujral was the 12th Prime Minister of India from April 1997 to March 1998 in the Janata Dal's United Front Government and the third PM to be from the Rajya Sabha after Indira Gandhi and H. D. Deve Gowda. He also participated in the Indian freedom struggle and was jailed during the Quit India Movement in 1942. I.K. Gujral joined Indian National Congress (INC) as a young politician in 1964. In 1975 when Indira Gandhi declared a state of Emergency, Gujral, who was the then Minister of Information and Broadcasting, rejected the government's demand to censor news bulletins and editorials. As a result, he had to resign from his post and was made ambassador of India to the Soviet Union in 1976.

I.K. Gujral later resigned from Congress (I) and joined Janta Dal. When Deve Gowda government was thrown out, the United Front chose Gujral as the next leader. However, this appointment too was short-lived as the government lost external support of Congress (I), when Gujral did not take action on Jain Commission's interim findings, that some DMK leaders were actively supporting LTTE chief Prabhakaran, who was responsible for the death of Rajiv Gandhi.

The period of the 1990s was a highly unstable period for the politico-administrative system in India. H.D. Deve Gowda and I.K. Gujral were the Prime Minister candidates from the same Janata Dal's United Front government. The short tenure of both personalities had a significant impact on India's future economic and foreign policies. They not only reshaped India's financial policies by improving its tax to GDP ratio but also improved India's image as a soft power in the world by reshaping its foreign policies. Gujral government was then succeeded by the Vajpayee government in 1998.

7.5. Atal Bihari Vajpayee era

Atal Bihari Vajpayee was the 10th Prime Minister of India and the first non-Congress Prime Minister to complete a full term in office. He joined the Rashtriya Swayamsevak Sangh (RSS) as a teenager in 1939 and became a full-time worker in 1947. Vajpayee entered Indian Parliament in 1957 when Jawaharlal Nehru was Prime Minister. He was a parliamentarian for nearly 47 years as he was elected ten times to the Lok Sabha and twice to the Rajya Sabha. Vajpayee's remarkable oratorical skills were noticed by Jawaharlal Nehru who, while introducing him to a visiting foreign dignitary, once said: "This young man one day will become the country's Prime Minister".

At the BJP's plenary in Mumbai in 1995, party President Advani declared Vajpayee to be the party's PM candidate, acknowledging that the latter had greater political acceptability to forge a coalition. Subsequently, he served as the Prime Minister between 1996 and 2004 in three non-consecutive terms - first for 13 days, then for 13 months between 1998 and 1999 and then from 1999-2004. When the I.K. Gujral government fell, the BJP party formed its second government under Vajpayee in 1998. However, due to internal conflicts, Vajpayee lost confidence vote in Lok Sabha by a single vote in April 1999, as the AIADMK (a political party of Tamil Nadu) withdrew support. The Kargil War of 1999 turned the Vajpayee government into a caretaker government. But following the victory in the Kargil war, the NDA came back to power in 1999. Hence the third term of the Vajpayee started in 1999 and he became the first PM to run a 23-party coalition for full five years till 2004.

1998 Pokhran Nuclear Test: Operation Shakti- The global nuclear governance set-up after the second world war had the Nuclear Non-proliferation Treaty (NPT) as its basis and it had divided the world into the P-5 and others. India, though fully embedded in the peaceful uses of atomic energy, was not very happy with this discriminatory world. The People's Republic of China had already detonated a 16-kiloton bomb and was one of the five nations to enter the exclusive nuclear-armed state club. The presence of a nuclear-empowered country in the neighbourhood was a threat to India, especially after the 1962 Indo-China war that escalated tensions between the two countries. India tested its nuclear capability for the first time in 1974 when Indira Gandhi conducted the Pokhran-I test in 1974 under the code name- 'Operation Smiling Buddha'. The test was called a "peaceful nuclear explosion" to pacify the western powers and avoid the threat of sanctions from them.

Non-Proliferation of Nuclear Weapons Treaty (NPT):

The NPT is an international treaty whose objective is to prevent the spread of nuclear weapons and weapons technology, to foster the peaceful uses of nuclear energy, and to further the goal of disarmament. It was opened for signature in 1968 and entered into force in 1970. It restricts the ownership of nuclear weapons to five Nuclear Weapon States (P5) - China, France, the United Kingdom, the USSR and the United States of America - which had exploded a nuclear device before 1st January 1967. All the other states are therefore considered non-nuclear weapon states (NNWS). India has ruled out the possibility of joining the Non-Proliferation Treaty (NPT) as a non-nuclear weapon state as it discriminates

among countries for the control of nuclear power by allowing only a few to possess nuclear power. Despite being a non-party, India abides by the principles and objectives of the NPT, including its nuclear disarmament aspirations.

However, this wasn't enough to place India on the same page with other nuclear states. For the next two decades, many Prime Ministers tried to revive nuclear research – most notably PV Narasimha Rao's effort of 1995 but it was hindered by American surveillance satellites and the threat of sanctions. In 1996, Atal Bihari Vajpayee came to power and released the need to become a full-fledged nuclear state. Towards this end Pokhran-II, operation sakti was conducted in 1998. It was planned in full secrecy and the teams operated at night to avoid the US spy satellites. Scientists wore army uniforms to disguise themselves and bomb shafts were dug under camouflage. The nuclear devices were also flown from different parts of the country to avoid suspicion.

Once the tests were done, India faced huge international outrage. The US condemned the tests and said it was “deeply disappointed” and subsequently slapped sanctions against India. Britain conveyed its “dismay” and Germany called it “a slap in the face” for the countries that ratified the Comprehensive Nuclear Test Ban Treaty (CTBT). The then-UN secretary-general Kofi Annan issued a statement expressing his “deep regret”. Some European nations and Japan halted their aids to India under various programmes following the US sanctions. China issued a condemnation calling upon the international community to exert pressure on India to sign the Non-Proliferation Treaty and eliminate its nuclear arsenal.

7.5.1. 1999 Kargil war

India and Pakistan had fought three wars before the Kargil War: in 1948, 1965 and 1971. The two countries had declared their status as nuclear weapons states in 1998 (Pakistan conducted its Chagai nuclear explosions in 1998, soon after India's test). Various efforts were made to reduce the existing tensions between the two countries after 1998. On February 19th in 1999, Vajpayee inaugurated the **Delhi-Lahore**

bus service and travelled in the same to meet his counterpart Nawaz Sharif in Pakistan. This step became an iconic symbol of international diplomacy and he was globally lauded for his pragmatism. The two Prime Ministers also agreed on a historic treaty called the **Lahore Declaration** in 1999, under which, among other things, it was agreed upon that the two sides were fully committed to undertaking measures to reduce risks of accidental or unauthorized use of nuclear weapons. However, Pakistan followed their dual face diplomacy by dealing peacefully on the political front and aggressively on their military front.

In late 1998, four generals in Pakistan conspired to launch intrusions on the Line of Control (LoC) in the Kargil-Drass sector for the purpose of internationalizing the Kashmir issue and cutting the Indian lifeline

Nuclear Supplier Group (NSG):

It was set up to regulate nuclear commerce, in response to India's 1974 Pokhran-1 nuclear test in order to prevent nuclear proliferation. In 2008, the NSG exempted India from its full-scope safeguards (FSS) condition, making it the 1st country to be allowed to have nuclear trade with NSG members while retaining its nuclear weapons program. India won this waiver after tough negotiations. Being a non-member of NSG, India does not get access to state-of-the-art technology from the other countries. India applied for the NSG membership in 2016. However, India's entry has been blocked by China as it insists that only those countries which have signed the Non-Proliferation Treaty (NPT) should be allowed to enter the organization.

Comprehensive Nuclear Test Ban Treaty (CTBT):

Opened for signature in 1996, CTBT bans all nuclear explosions, everywhere and by everyone. It is an offshoot to the 1963 Limited Test Ban Treaty (supported by India) which significantly reduced global levels of fallout, but did little to constrain the nuclear arms race. The CTBT with 184 signatories and 163 ratifications is one of the most widely supported arms-control treaties. India did not support the treaty in 1996 and still does not because of its total ban provision for a nuclear program. Countries like China, North Korea, Egypt, India, Iran, Israel, Pakistan and United States of America have not yet ratified it. India, Pakistan and North Korea are the only non-signatories from this list.

to Siachen glacier. By the first four months of 1999, Pakistani soldiers established approximately 140 posts and pickets. The intrusion went undetected until early May, when the Pakistani infiltration in the Kargil sector was first reported by a local shepherd. The Indian army eventually pushed more than 30,000 soldiers in the area, flooded it with Bofors guns and attained some initial success as the Indian Air Force was also brought in. Eventually, half of the Pakistani pickets and posts were captured by the Indian military. Under huge global diplomatic pressure, Pakistan vacated the rest of the posts, which almost restored the status quo ante.

Kargil war was a humiliating **military and diplomatic loss for Pakistan**. While it is true that Pakistan achieved initial tactical surprise, it failed abysmally when confronted by a determined Indian military. Globally, Pakistan came to be seen as an irresponsible country despite possessing nuclear weapons. The Kargil war also punctured the Pakistani myth that no conventional conflict was possible under a nuclear umbrella. The war was never formally declared in 1999 and it ended without a ceasefire, as in 1948 or 1965, or a surrender document, as in 1971. It was limited to about a 150-km frontage of the Line of Control (LoC) in Kashmir by the Atal Bihari Vajpayee government by choice, contrary to what Lal Bahadur Shastri did in 1965 when he chose to open a front in Punjab. It was also the first war to be televised in India.

IC-814 Hijack:

The Kargil war ended in July 1999. As soon as India started to believe that crisis has been over, another incident of an Indian plane, hijacked by terrorists, shook the nation. The hijacking of the Indian Airlines Flight 814, commonly known as IC 814, was done on December 24, 1999, when the flight was en-route from Tribhuvan International Airport in Kathmandu, Nepal, to Indira Gandhi International Airport in Delhi. The flight was flown to several locations by terrorists including Amritsar (Punjab), Lahore (Pakistan), Dubai (UAE) before landing in Kandahar (Afghanistan). Harkat-ul-Mujahideen, a Pakistan-based Islamic Terrorist group was accused of hijacking with the support and active assistance from ISI, Pakistan's intelligence agency. The terror group demanded the release of few militants including Masood Azhar, who was arrested in Kashmir in the mid-1990s by the Indian Army. Keeping in view the safety of Indian passengers, the Vajpayee government took the approach of a soft state and agreed to release Masood Azhar in 1999 in return for the 155 hostage passengers of the IC 814. Soon after his release, Azhar founded the Jaish-e-Mohammed in 2000 with the motive of separating Kashmir from India and merging the province with Pakistan. The February 14th, 2019 attack in Pulwama on the convoy of CRPF was claimed by Azhar's terror group.

It is alleged that the hijacked plane could have been stopped in India only, when the hijacked plane landed at Amritsar and remained parked on the tarmac for nearly 45 minutes. However, lack of inter-ministerial (Union Defence Ministry, External Affairs Ministry, and Home Ministry) and Centre-State government coordination created a scenario of inactivity during that crucial time period. National Security Guard (NSG) failed to take timely action and the state police were not allowed to interfere in this issue. Many call this event a diplomatic failure of the Indian government as the Indian government was not able to establish timely and strong communication with the governments of Pakistan, UAE, and Afghanistan. It was evident from the fact that not a single foreign government was willing to take responsibility for a hijacked plane and take timely actions. Moreover, Masood Azhar was in custody for many years after his arrest in Kashmir. The government should have taken timely actions to serve justice for his actions and could have successfully averted future events like the 2001 Indian Parliament attack, 2008 Mumbai attacks, etc.

Gujarat Godhra riots of 2002:

India was witnessing a high wave of communal tensions after the demolition of Babri Masjid in 1992 during a 'Kar Seva' event. Vajpayee ji described the incident as "unfortunate" in a television interview, and said that it "should not have happened" and apologized for the demolition. In this background, in February 2002, few bogies of the Sabarmati Express were set on fire in the Godhra region of Gujarat. 58 people were burnt to death in that fire and the victims were all Hindus, karsevaks or volunteers, returning from participating in a religious ceremony at Ayodhya. This event sparked massive riots in Gujarat, mostly targeting Muslims, for nearly a week.

Gujarat government appointed Justices GT Navavati and KG Shah commission to probe the Godhra train burning incident and the subsequent communal riots in Gujarat. The report held that the fire on the train was indeed the result of a pre-planned conspiracy involving some individuals. The Railway Ministry under the UPA government also appointed the UC Banerjee committee in September 2004 to probe the train burning incident. Justice Banerjee's findings were in total contrast to Justice Navavati's. In its interim report, it held that the fire was an accident. Anyhow, the killing and pillaging in Gujarat had given Vajpayee a bad name, more so because Gujarat had a BJP government in place. It was alleged that the state administration did not come down hard on the rioters. Many political observers believe that the Gujarat riots were one of the reasons why PM Vajpayee could not retain power in the general elections two years later.

Kashmir policy:

Kashmir has gone through a period of unrest as a result of the terror-sponsoring Pakistan. Various Indian governments have made efforts to bring Kashmir's situation in control. However, Vajpayee is applauded for using his soft power to reduce the Kashmir unrest that started post the breakout of insurgency in the 1990s. Vajpayee gave the doctrine of '*Insaniyat, Jamhooriyat and Kashmiriyat*', which meant humanity, democracy and keeping the sanctity of the people of Kashmir, in 2003, which later became a cornerstone of the forces of reconciliation in the State. He announced a unilateral ceasefire and gave the opportunity to the moderate faction of the Hurriyat to enter into talks with the government of India. The dreaded militant outfit, Hizbul Mujahideen, split into two, with the faction led by Majid Dar surrendering for peace negotiations. The surrender was instrumental in young Kashmiris realizing the futility of the gun and effectively rejecting it. He moved boldly to conduct elections in 1996 and broke the spine of insurgency. Vajpayee's unwavering commitment to Jamhooriyat in the state elections of 2002 ushered a wave of confidence through the widespread participation of the people. The scars of fraudulent elections of the past, and particularly the assembly polls of 1987, were now replaced by a new movement towards a democratic mode of expression, not just in an electoral sense but also in terms of the reconciliation of the conflict as a whole.

Other policies:

On the economic front, under his tenure from 1998 to 2004, India maintained a good GDP rate (touching even 8.8% in 1999), lower levels of inflation and flourishing foreign exchange reserves. Although India faced catastrophic events during his time, including the Kargil conflict (1999), two cyclones (1999 and 2000), Bhuj earthquake (2001), a horrible drought (2002-2003), oil crisis (2003), and a Parliament attack, yet he maintained a stable economy. He brought the **Introduction to Fiscal Responsibility and Budget Management Act, 2003** to reduce the fiscal deficit and boost public-sector savings. In 2000 his government began an extensive program of **divestment of public funds** from several key state-run industries. Along with giving rise to private business in India, it reduced the government's involvement in the industry. He formed a **separate Ministry of Disinvestment** (It was later made a separate department as 'Department of Investment and Public Asset management': DIPAM under the Ministry of Finance).

His government brought a major breakthrough in the Indian education system by the introduction of the **86th Amendment** in December 2002, which made **elementary education free** for children aged 6-14 years. His government also brought the **Special Educational Needs and Disability Act 2001** to prevent the unfair treatment of individuals in educational organizations. Vajpayee passed the **Chandrayan-1** project on India's 56th Independence Day. He made India a nuclear weapon state as in 1998, when India conducted five nuclear tests in one week.

He initiated the **National Highways Development Project** (NHDP) in 1998 to upgrade, rehabilitate and standardize major highways in India. The most ambitious road projects in India were launched by him, including the **Golden Quadrilateral** project of 2001 and the **Pradhanmantri Gramin Sadak Yojna** (2000). The Golden Quadrilateral made transportation easy, connecting metropolitan cities Chennai, Kolkata, Delhi and Mumbai through a network of highways. Pradhanmantri Gramin Sadak Yojna connected distant villages across the country with a network of all-weather roads.

Atal Bihari Vajpayee is still considered as a successful India Prime Minister who could successfully run a 23-party coalition for full five years mainly because of his humility. Political accommodation is a virtue that Vajpayee's life sets out. His efforts for peace in the Indian subcontinent and boldness to pin India on the world map by taking nuclear test decision, separated Vajpayee from other Indian politicians. His diplomatic prudence, soft power diplomacy and extending the hand of friendship even after the Kargil war was admired even by the Pakistan government. Atal Bihar Vajpayee was a great poet, a man of an open mind and pioneering ideas, a statesman in both words and deeds. Vajpayee's government was succeeded in 2004 by UPA-United Progressive Alliance, which is a coalition of left and centre-left political parties in India that was formed after the 2004 general election. Indian National Congress is its largest member party. UPA was formed with a coalition of around 10 political parties and has Mrs Sonia Gandhi as its chairperson.

8. INDIAN ECONOMY SINCE INDEPENDENCE

8.1. Indian Economy (1947-1991)

By the time India won its independence, the impact of the two-century long British colonial rule was showing on all aspects of the Indian economy. The agricultural sector was saddled with surplus labour and extremely low productivity. The industrial sector was crying for modernization, diversification, capacity building and increased public investment. Foreign trade was oriented to feed the Industrial Revolution in Britain. Infrastructure facilities, including the famed railway network, needed upgradation, expansion and public orientation. Prevalence of rampant poverty and unemployment required welfare orientation of public economic policy. However, the 72 years of independence saw many changes in the socio-economic landscape of Asia's third-largest economy, with the government adopting socialist policies in its initial years of freedom.

“Indian policy makers made a mistake by emphasising the role of state in the economy. India could have developed much better if private sector was allowed a free play right from the beginning”. Read through the next section and analyse.

8.1.1. Government policies

Five-Year Plans (FYPs):

FYPs were centralized and integrated national economic programs. Joseph Stalin implemented the first Five-Year Plan in the Soviet Union in 1928. Most communist states and several capitalist countries had subsequently adopted them. India particularly, had launched its first FYP in 1951, immediately after independence, under the socialist influence of the first Prime Minister, Jawaharlal Nehru. The process involved the **Planning Commission** formulating a draft plan in consultation with various ministries and placing a short memorandum before the cabinet and the **National Development Council**. In the next stage, a draft outline of the Five-Year Plan was prepared keeping in view the observations made by the National Development Council and published several months before the plan came into force. Then, the final report was prepared and presented before the cabinet, National Development Council and finally before the **Parliament** for approval. Five-Year Plans were developed, executed and monitored by the Planning Commission (1951-2014) and the NITI Aayog (2015-2017).

National Development Council – was set up on 6th August 1952 to strengthen and mobilize the effort and resources of the nation in support of the Five Year Plans made by Planning Commission, to promote common economic policies in all vital spheres, and to ensure the balanced and rapid development of all parts of the country.

The Indian government had two models of economic development before them, the liberal – capitalist model followed in U.S.A. and Europe, another was the socialist model followed in U.S.S.R. There was abroad consensus that development of India should involve economic growth and social as well as economic justice. Hence very few people supported the American style of capitalist development. India, therefore, adopted the mixed model of economic development, which had features of both the capitalist and socialist models. The first FYP was essentially a stock-taking exercise, based on the Harrod-Domar model to get the economy out of the vicious poverty cycle. It mainly focussed on the agrarian sector including investment in dams and irrigation. Due to the bitter Partition, Agricultural sector was hit the hardest and needed urgent attention. Huge allocations were made for "Modern Temples of India" like the Bhakra Nangal Dam. This was followed by a change in the philosophy, for the second FYP. This plan, based on the Mahalanobis Model, stressed on heavy and capital intensive industries, self-reliance and import substitution. The adoption of the **Green Revolution** strategy of introducing a package of high-yield variety (HYV) seeds, fertilizers, and other inputs in a concentrated manner to some suitable selected areas, paid immediate dividends in creating food security and poverty reduction.

Harrod-Domar model:

The Harrod-Domar model is a Keynesian model of economic growth. It is used in development economics to explain an economy's growth rate in terms of the level of saving and of capital. It suggests that growth is dependent on two things. First, high level of savings since higher savings enable greater investment and second, a low capital-output ratio that ensures efficient investment and a higher growth rate.

The third FYP aimed at making India a 'self-reliant' and 'self-generating' economy. The chief priority of this plan was agriculture both to enhance food supply and support the exports and industry. Industry, during the first three Plans, grew even more rapidly than agriculture, at a compounded growth rate of 7.1 percent per annum between 1951 and 1965. The industrial growth was based on rapid import substitution, initially, of consumer goods and since the Second Plan, of capital and intermediate goods. The weight of the public sector in the overall economy increased rapidly. The period of turmoil due to the 1962 and 1965 wars resulted in adoption of three annual plans and postponement of the fourth FYP. Apart from industry and agriculture, the early planners gave utmost priority to the development of infrastructure, including education and health, especially during the sixth FYP. The setting up of a massive network for agricultural extension and community development work at the village level and the large infrastructural investment in irrigation, power and agricultural research created the conditions for considerable agricultural growth.

1989-91 was a period of economic instability in India. In spite of supporting more than 50% of the population, the share of agriculture in the country's GDP had reduced 15-20%. Poverty remained a major issue and irrespective of the infrastructure and manufacturing sector spending, we were plunged into the 1991 Balance of Payment crisis. Foreign exchange reserves were just one billion Dollars in January 1991, which were sufficient to finance only three weeks' worth of imports. The gradual opening of the Indian economy was undertaken through the Liberalisation, Globalization and Privatization reforms, to correct the burgeoning deficit and foreign debt. Its objectives included controlling population growth, poverty reduction, employment generation, strengthening the infrastructure, institution building, tourism management, human resource development, involvement of Panchayati Raj, Nagar Palikas, NGOs.

However, the minimum involvement of the state governments in this process of planning and its implementation **diluted the federal character** of the nation. Also, the first three decades of planning in India (1951-81) were characterized by the lower rate of economic growth at around 3.6 percent per annum on an average. Reserving certain areas for small-scale industries meant excluding some areas from the advantages of scale and larger resources for R&D activities. The large public sector in India, which controlled the 'commanding heights' of the economy, also began to emerge as a major source of inefficiency. Over time, political and bureaucratic pressure on these public-sector undertakings gradually led to most of them running at a loss. The gradual erosion of fiscal prudence was also reflected in government expenditure rising consistently, mainly because of the proliferation of subsidies and grants, salary increases with no relationship to efficiency or output, overstaffing and other '**populist**' measures such as massive loan waivers. The growing government saving-investment gap and the fiscal deficit had a **negative impact on the balance of payments** and debt situation.

Currently, with the Planning Commission dissolved, no more FYPs are made for the economy and they have been replaced by the plans of NITI Aayog. However, Five-Year Defence Plans have still been continued. **NITI Aayog** has come up with a **new idea of planning** for the future development of India. The first major difference is that instead of a single five-year plan, the country will have **three plans** spread over three different time periods.

1. First is a **15 year "Vision"** that encompasses the overall goals and objectives of the country for the next 15 years.
2. Second is a **7-year "Strategy"** which lays the roadmap of development for the next seven years dividing those goals and objectives into two parts.
3. Third and Final is a **3 Year "Action Agenda"** which states the tasks and targets to be accomplished in the next three years' time frame.

With not as many authoritative powers in hand, NITI Aayog works as a think tank and truly advisory body whose main job is to set priorities and instrumentalities to achieve those priorities. The 3-, 7- and 15-years plans allow flexibility to adapt to the changing circumstances and exogenous variables. The 15-year vision document also includes defence and internal security which were not part of five-year plans. Its planning is even coterminous with the UNDP's 2030 Sustainable Development Goals, to which India is committed. The agenda has covered a wide range of sectors including agriculture, industry, and manufacturing. It has discussed the policies necessary for urban and rural transformation and a range of growth enabling ingredients including transport, digital connectivity, entrepreneurship, etc.

However, the action agenda of NITI Aayog lacks on how policies should be implemented, how there should be the creation of a feedback loop, taking into account changes on the ground. It also puts limited or negligible focus on bureaucratic reforms and government-citizen interaction, which is core to several good ideas remaining on paper. Moreover, the Vision, Strategy and Action Agenda documents provide only a broad roadmap to the government and do not contain detailed schemes or their allocation, because there are no financial powers with NITI Aayog. During the Planning Commission era, State governments could approach the head of the Planning Commission to request for funds for their States even if they formed a part of the opposition at the Central level. This political insulation is not provided by the NITI Aayog.

Industrial Policies:

The government of India adopted the first industrial policy of India in 1948. It followed a '**Mixed Economy**' pattern comprising of public and private sectors participation with the prime objective of transforming India into a **socialistic pattern of society**. Industrial Policy Resolution, 1956, focused on the **development of machine-building industries** and the increasing rate of industrial development. Industrial Licensing Policy, 1970, considerably liberalized and simplified the process of setting up of industries. It also defined a new sector called a heavy investment sector which consisted of industries involving investment of more than Rs. 5 crores. Future industrial policies of 1973 and 1977 targeted the development of small-scale and cottage industries. The focus was on revival and rehabilitation of sick units and on the development of ancillary industries.

Industrial Licensing Policy, 1982, regulated and called for control of unauthorized excess production capabilities installed by industrial houses. It redefined the role of small-scale units and improved the performance of the public sector. However, excessive protection through import restrictions started leading to inefficiency and technological backwardness in the Indian industry. This situation was further accentuated by the so-called 'Licence Quota Raj', that is, a whole plethora of rules, regulations, and restrictions which stifled entrepreneurship and innovation. Licensing, MRTP Act, small-scale reservation made entry or expansion of business very difficult; since the mid-1970s virtually no exit was possible for inefficient loss-making companies as they could not close down or retrench without government permission. All this led to low investments in India.

India had done reasonably well till the mid-1960s, basing herself on an inward-oriented, import substitution-based strategy. However, India failed to respond adequately to the new opportunities thrown up by the changing world situation despite the availability of the East Asian experience. The prejudice against foreign direct investment (FDI) led to this excessive dependence on foreign debt rather than foreign equity capital, and inadequate returns on the borrowings led to an unsustainable debt service burden. India's **foreign exchange reserves fell** from \$5.85 billion in 1980-81 to \$4.1 billion in 1989-90, and in the next year (1990-91) they fell drastically by nearly half to \$2.24 billion, enough only for one month's import cover. India's international credit rating was sharply downgraded and it was becoming extremely difficult to raise credit abroad. The crisis pushed India into initiating a process of **economic reforms** and **structural adjustment**.

The government of India announced its **New Industrial Policy in 1991** with an aim to correct the distortion and weakness of the industrial structure of the country that had developed in 4 decades; raise industrial efficiency to the international level; and accelerate industrial growth. This policy abolished the

industrial licensing for all industries except for a shortlist of 18 industries. This list of 18 industries was further pruned in 1999 whereby the number was reduced to six industries viz. drugs and pharmaceuticals, hazardous chemicals, explosives such as gun powder and detonating fuses, tobacco products, alcoholic drinks, and electronics, aerospace, and defence equipment. The number of industries reserved for the public sector was reduced. Currently only two categories viz. atomic energy and railways are reserved for the public sector. Automatic permission was given for foreign technology agreements in high priority industries. The objective of the present industrial policy is to globalize the Indian economy and provide free play of market forces in the domestic economy.

Poverty Alleviation Programmes:

The government's approach to poverty reduction was of three dimensions. The **first one** was a **growth-oriented approach**. It was based on the expectation that the effects of economic growth — rapid increase in gross domestic product and per capita income — would spread to all sections of society and will trickle down to the poor sections also. The **second approach** was initiated from the **Third Five Year Plan (1961-66)** and it has progressively enlarged since then. To specifically address the poor, policymakers started thinking that income and employment for the poor could be raised through the creation of additional assets and by means of work generation. This could be achieved through specific poverty alleviation programs. The **third approach** to address poverty was to provide minimum basic amenities to the people. India was among the pioneers in the world to envisage that through public expenditure on social consumption needs — provision of food grains at subsidized rates, education, health, water supply, and sanitation—people's living standards could be improved. Some important poverty alleviation and employment generation programs were **Integrated Rural Development Programme (IRDP)**, **Training of Rural Youth for Self-Employment (TRYSEM)**, **National Rural Employment Programme (NREP)**, **Rural Landless Employment Guarantee Programme (RLEGP)**, **Jawahar Rozgar Yojana/Jawahar Gram Samriddhi Yojana**, etc.

However, none of the above programmes resulted in any radical changes in the ownership of assets, production processes and improvement of basic amenities to the needy. The incidence of poverty declined from 54.9 percent in 1973-74 to 36 percent in 1993-94. But the absolute number of poor did not decline much over this period of 20 years. There were 321 million poor in 1973-74 and 320 million in 1993-94. The IRDP has been successful in providing incremental income to the poor families, but in most cases, the incremental income has not been adequate to enable the beneficiaries to cross the poverty line on a sustained basis, mainly because of a low per family investment. In 1992-93, a review of the Jawahar Rozgar Yojana (JRY) revealed that the per person employment generated was inadequate in terms of the requirement and did not provide enough income to the poor. Moreover, compared to the magnitude of poverty, the amount of resources allocated for these programs was not sufficient.

Earlier, the poor were seen as passive beneficiaries of government development schemes and not as a partner, but later focus was on capacity building and making the poor as an active participant in the developmental process as it was realized that without their active participation, successful implementation of any program would not be possible. Even former Finance Minister, Pranab Mukherjee, had called for a re-thinking on the development policy, saying that the trickle-down theory would not work in eliminating poverty in India. He had said that for our development to be real, the poorest of our land must feel that they are a part of the narrative of rising India. In short, the earlier premise of 'rising tide will raise all boats' would not work as the poor do not even have a boat i.e., they do not even have the basic human capital to participate in the development process, let alone benefit from it.

Some Economists also believe that there is a strong co-relation between a growing and thriving **middleclass** and a growing and thriving economy. A stable but evolving middle class is required to spur consumption and therefore investments and growth, as the wealthy in unequal societies, do not consume enough to drive a modern economy. Therefore, government policies should focus more on expanding this middle class, from both the sides. The poverty alleviation programmes must help in increasing the disposable incomes of the poor so that they can slide upwards, into the lower middle class category. Additionally, private

investment and consumption should drive more expenditure from the rich, so that they come into the upper middle class category. This will also help in reducing economic inequality in the country.

Bank Nationalisation (1969 and 1980):

Despite the provisions, control, and regulations of the Reserve Bank of India, banks in India, except the State Bank of India (SBI), were owned and operated by private persons. By the 1960s, the Indian banking industry had become an important tool to facilitate the development of the Indian economy; also it had emerged as a large employer. Bank nationalization aimed to **break the nexus between the banks and the big businesses**, ensure the **balanced flow of credit** to all sectors and to provide **stability to the banking system** by preventing bank failures and speculative activities.

The Government of India issued the Banking Companies (Acquisition and Transfer of Undertakings) Ordinance, 1969 and nationalized the 14 largest commercial banks which had **deposits of over Rs.50 crores**. This was followed by a second phase of **nationalization in 1980**, when the Government of India acquired the ownership of 6 more banks (Punjab and Sind Bank, Vijaya Bank, Oriental Bank of India, etc.) thus bringing the total number of Nationalized Banks to 20. Nationalization of the Banks brought the public confidence in the banking system of India. Government ownership gave the public, implicit faith and immense confidence in the sustainability of public sector banks. The one positive impact of bank nationalization was that financial savings rose as lenders opened new branches in areas that were unbanked, resulting in ending of economic apartheid of the poor. The spread of banking network in rural areas, poverty alleviation and disbursement of rural credit has been mainly because of PSBs. However, the nationalization of banks also led to lesser competition between the public sector and private sector banks. This created a bureaucratic attitude in the functioning of the banking system. Lack of responsibility and initiative, red-tapism, inordinate delays were common features of nationalized banks.

The period from 1950-1980 saw average annual economic growth rise to 3.5%, higher than the 1% during British rule. However, with population growth averaging about 2% pa, per capita income rose very slowly. The decade from 1981-1991 saw some loosening of red tape and introduction of first-generation reforms; GDP rose to a more respectable 5.4% per annum, but still below peers, especially the Far East ASEAN countries. However, with the changing needs of the time and the changing global economic orientation in the age of rising globalization, India needed continuous progressive reforms of both micro and macro in nature to keep up its growth pace with the rest of the world and emerge as a nation which kept economic and social goals in balance. A change was also observed in the evolving philosophy of the government from being the support provider for the poor to aiding the private sector and the market forces to carry out these tasks.

8.2. Indian Economy 1991 onwards

Indian economy followed the socialist set-up right from the Nehruvian era politics to the late 1980s until the crisis of the 1990s built up. In this chapter we will analyse India's major economic reforms of 1991 in detail and the path they carved for our shift towards the capitalist form of economy.

8.2.1. The 1991 Crisis

The long-term constraints that were building up over a few decades and debilitating the Indian economy were combined with certain more recent and immediate factors, causing massive **Fiscal and Balance of Payments** crisis that climaxed in 1991. Reasons for the Balance of Payment crisis.

1. The proximate trigger of the 1991 crisis was the Gulf War in the second half of 1990-1991, which raised the international oil prices (and India's oil import bill).
2. There was also a reduction in remittance inflows from the Gulf to India.
3. Unstable coalition politics of 1990-1991 compounded the economic problems and hastened a full-fledged balance of payment crisis.

This Balance of Payments crisis of 1991 pushed the country to near bankruptcy. To solve the forex crisis situation, India reached out to the International Monetary Fund (IMF) for a bailout. India had to pledge 20 tons of gold to Union Bank of Switzerland and 47 tons to Bank of England as part of a bailout deal with the International Monetary fund. In addition, the IMF required India to undertake a series of structural economic reforms which included liberalization of economy and de-reservation of the industrial sector to allow private players in it. This situation allowed the Indian government to break through the traditional mind-set and attempt an unprecedented, comprehensive change at a time when both the ideological opposition and the resistance of the vested interests were at a weak point. The then Prime Minister of the country, P V Narasimha Rao initiated ground-breaking economic reforms with the support of the then Finance Minister, Dr. Manmohan Singh and the result was the New Economic Policy of 1991.

8.2.2. The New Economic Policy, 1991: Liberalization, Privatisation, and Globalization (LPG)

Liberalisation refers to the process of making policies less constraining of economic activity and also reduction of tariff or removal of non-tariff barriers. The term “Privatisation” refers to the transfer of ownership of property or business from a government to a privately-owned entity. Globalisation refers to the expansion of economic activities across the political boundaries of nation-states. More importantly, it refers to economic interdependence between countries in the world economy.

LPG reduced Government monopoly in industrial sector by reducing the number of industries reserved for public sector from 17 (as per 1956 policy) to only 8 industries: Arms and Ammunition, Atomic Energy, Coal, Mineral Oil, Mining of Iron Ore, Manganese Ore, Gold, Silver, Mining of Copper, Lead, Zinc, Atomic Minerals and Railways.

Present Status: (June 2021)

Only two categories from this list are reserved for the public sector in 2019: **Atomic energy** and **Railways**. Atomic minerals come under the purview of the Atomic Energy Act, 1962 and India does not grant a license to the private sector for mining of atomic minerals and mineral sand.

It **abolished the licensing policy** for all industries except for 18 industries and the industries reserved for the small-scale sector. The major change which this policy brought for the first time was to allow foreign companies to have a majority stake in India. This type of trade reforms and changes in the regulation of foreign direct investment not only helped India in opening its foreign trade front in a structured manner but also helped in stabilizing external loans. Today, there are numerous sectors in the economy where the government allows 100% FDI like the Automotive sector, Textile sector, etc. via automatic route. Foreign Investment Promotion Board (FIPB) was also established to negotiate with international firms and approve FDI in selected areas. (It was abolished in 2017 and was replaced by the Foreign Investment Facilitation Portal).

Disinvestment was started by the government in those Public Sector Enterprises that had been running in loss. The PSUs which were chronically sick and unlikely to be turned around were to be referred to the Board for Industrial and Financial Reconstruction (BIFR) for their revival. Another major breakthrough was the **amendment** of obsolete ‘Monopoly and Restrictive Trade Practice Act, 1969 (MRTP Act)’. **Foreign Technology Agreements (FTA)** were given automatic approval in high priority industries along with the government easing the hiring process of foreign technocrats. This new policy has been hailed as a ‘land-mark’ in the opening up of the Indian economy. It increased India’s GDP growth rate and almost doubled it from pre-reform era, averaging 6.6% in the next 2 decades from 1990 to 2010. The policy gave impetus to special efforts to increase Indian exports. Concepts like Export Oriented Units (EOU), Export Processing Zones (EPZ), Agri-Export Zones (AEZ), Special Economic Zones (SEZ) and lately National Investment and Manufacturing Zones (NIMZ) emerged. It made India one of the fastest-growing economies of the world. FDI is also allowed under Make in India scheme. India’s FDI inflows reached Rs. 106, 693 crores in 2015 from just Rs. 408 Crores in 1991. The Foreign Exchange Regulation Act 1973 gave way to the Foreign Exchange Management Act, 1999,

thereby shifting the focus from control of entities to management of entities, hence facilitating trade as opposed to FERA.

India successfully reduced its unemployment rate from 4.3% in 1991 to 3.4% in 2017 in the background of a rising population while Liberalisation created an environment to support new entrepreneurial activities. By 2017-18 India's per capita income reached Rs. 1,14,958. It also eased the financial and administrative burden of the India government due to the privatization of various sectors and entities. It also controlled India's rising Fiscal Deficit from 8.5 percent of GDP prior to 1991 to 3.4 percent of GDP in 2019. Globalization gave impetus to the Services sector of developing countries due to the availability of cheaper human resources and facilitated the IT revolution. It also raised the standards of the India banking sector by the entry of new global private players and raised competition in the Indian market. The substandard telecom sector (earlier monopoly of government) had a major breakthrough by the entry of new players. The crisis in 1991, with the country at the edge of default, enabled the government to break through the traditional mind-set and attempt an unprecedented, comprehensive change by initiating economic reforms. The economic reforms gave the Indian economy a certain depth and spread and increased its bargaining power and independence at the world stage.

Limitations of LPG policy:

1. **Skewed growth:** An agricultural sector which still is the backbone of the Indian economy (employed 72% of the population in 1991 and contributed 29.02% of the GDP) suffered because of less attention being paid to this sector. Its share in GDP went down drastically to 17.9 percent in 2014 because of reduced per capita income of the farmers and increasing rural indebtedness. In other words, it moved India on the path of '**Jobless Growth**'. Moreover, service sector is dominated by low wage sector such as construction and retail.
2. **Global competition:** It posed a threat to local businesses and companies from foreign competition. The global MNCs have a lot of financial capacity and advanced foreign technology so they have a large production capacity and huge money for promotion and other research activities thereby easily defeating our local Indian companies.
3. **Environmental impact:** Globalization adversely impacted the environment as it contributed to the destruction of the environment through pollution and clearing of vegetation cover. The emissions from manufacturing plants are causing environmental pollution which further affects the health of people. The construction activities also destroy the vegetation cover which is important for the very survival of both humans and other animals.
4. **Income inequality:** It led to an increase in income disparities by widening income gaps within the country. Globalization benefitted only those who had the skills and technology in the country.

Little was achieved with regard to reformation of the public sector, particularly of state-owned utilities like electricity boards, transport corporations. Also, there was no significant move towards **reform of the labour market** and creating possibilities of exit for loss-making enterprises. After a few years of initial success, the tempo of economic reform in India seemed to be waning. The **GDP growth rate had decelerated** significantly to 5 percent in 1997-98, down from 7.8 percent in 1996-97. The slowing down of the economy from 1996-97 was partly because of the **East Asian crisis**, with Japan in recession and South Korea, Indonesia, Thailand, and others showing negative growth rates. Also, the economic sanctions imposed on India because of the **nuclear tests** had a dampening effect on the economy.

"Economic reforms of 1991 were only about openness, not re-structuring of economy." Analyze.

8.2.3. Banking Sector Reforms in India Since 1991

Prior to 1991, the Indian banking sector was undergoing through various structural and non-structural problems. The 1969 bank nationalization increased the state control on the banking sector in India. It was done to curb the discriminatory lending by the commercial banks, however, it ended up reducing intra sectoral competition and hence the poor quality of banking services provided by these entities. Lower

incentives to expand bank outreach confined the banks majorly to the main cities and towns of India. This led to lower financial inclusion of the people, especially the majority of the rural Indian population. The governmental socialist programs like 'Loan Melas' and Direct Credit Programme led to increase in bank NPAs as the loans were provided for even lower quality assets because of political pressure and not by fair market standards.

All these issues set the ground for financial sector reforms in India. Narasimham Committee (1991) recommended reduction in the Statutory liquidity ratio (SLR) and Cash Reserve Ratio (CRR) and banks should be allowed to decide their home loan, bike loan etc. rates by themselves on the basis of present market forces. As a response to it, government gradually reduced SLR 25% in 1997 and the CRR had been brought down to 4.1% by June 2003. The RBI introduced the CRAR or Capital to Risk-Weighted Asset ratio in 1992 for the soundness of the banking industry. Entry of new private sector banks and foreign banks was allowed after RBI issued banking license guidelines in 1993. RBI also adopted Benchmark Prime Lending Rate (BPLR) (Base Rate) as a reference rate for the banks to decide their own lending rates. The Narasimham Committee (1998) recommended the merger of strong banks which would have a 'multiplier effect' on the industry. It also recommended that banks and financial institutions should avoid the practice of "ever-greening" by making fresh advances to their troubled constituents only with a view to settling interest dues and avoiding classification of the loans in question as NPAs. It suggested that bank boards should be depoliticized under the RBI supervision. Therefore, government implemented more stringent Basel II norms of capital adequacy ratio to tackle the market risks (Basel norms are global, voluntary regulatory framework on bank capital adequacy, stress testing, and market liquidity risk). The capital adequacy ratio was raised to 9% with effect from 2000.

8.2.4. Other major economic reforms

To provide consumption-led growth and improve social conditions of people, Indians enacted the **Mahatma Gandhi National Rural Employment Guarantee Act, 2005** to provide right based work of 100 days for the people. Also, to promote economic activities in the remotest areas and improve the livelihood conditions of people, village electrification in India was completed in April 2018. Universal household electrification is expected to be achieved in 2019. Moreover, the Government of India released the maiden **Agriculture Export Policy, 2018** which seeks to double agricultural exports from the country to US\$ 60 billion by 2022. Indian economy suffered from the intentional defaults and irresponsible acts of the promoters of the companies which duped investors of their money and affected livelihoods of various people. The Government of India introduced **Insolvency and Bankruptcy Code, 2016 (IBC)** to solve this issue of sick companies and allow lenders to oust errant promoters from a company and hand it over to financially sound owners. With improving ease of doing business high on the agenda of the Indian government, **Goods and Service Tax (GST) was implemented in 2017** by merging 17 central and state taxes any keeping only 4 tax rates. **The National Mineral Policy 2019, National Electronics Policy 2019** and Faster Adoption and Manufacturing of (Hybrid) and Electric Vehicles (FAME II) have also been approved by the Government of India in 2019.

9. AGRICULTURAL DEVELOPMENTS

9.1. Land reforms since Independence

India's land resource accounts for **2.4 percent** of the total world surface area. The agriculture sector of India alone employs more than 50 percent of its total workforce and contributes around 15-18 percent to the country's GDP. India's agricultural operated area is estimated at 159 million hectares as per Agriculture Census 2015-16. However, this agricultural area is distributed unequally among its population. As per 2011-12 Agricultural Census and 2011 Socio-Economic Caste Census data, India has 101 million landless people which is equivalent to the populations of Germany and Sri Lanka. Around 4.9% of farmers control 32% of India's farmland and a "large" farmer in India has 45 times more land in proportion to the "marginal" farmer. The origin of this disparity can be traced back to India's colonial-era history.

9.1.1. Indian agriculture at independence

Colonialism shattered the basis of the traditional Indian agricultural system by changing its self-sufficiency nature. **Commercialization of agriculture** occurred on an unprecedented scale and colonial policies ensured that it did not lead to rise in agricultural incomes. In the early colonial period, the state made permanent settlements with zamindars (the zamindari or **Permanent Settlement** introduced by Cornwallis in 1793 in Bengal and Bihar) fixing the land revenue rates at a very high level. **Zamindars** would act as **intermediaries**, collect local taxes and paid them to the British government. Over a period of time, they gained land ownership rights and till the turn of the twentieth-century, more than half of the total **land revenue** raised by the colonial state was through the zamindars. Zamindars also aligned their interests with that of the British government and formed the backbone of the colonial empire.

Later, **Ryotwari** system (1820) in Madras, Bombay, and Assam; and **Mahalwari** system (1833) in North-West provinces, Punjab, parts of Central India and Gangetic valley, were also introduced. In these areas, revenue to the British would be paid directly by ryots (farmers) or *mahalwars* (village community). However, they suffered from **exploitative rent policies of their landlords, insecurity of tenure**, etc. These landlords used to employ agricultural labourers to work on their land or leased their land to superior **tenant** farmers for agricultural production and extract high rent from them.

Moreover, destruction of traditional handicrafts and artisanal industry, and the absence of a rapid growth of modern industry created an **enormous population pressure on agriculture** and an adverse land-man ratio of about 0.92 acres per capita. The problem of **small landholdings** was further accentuated by their **fragmentation** among family successors. Because of colonial neglect, India also faced an acute **food shortage** at independence, which resulted in many famines. Between 1946 and 1953 about 14 million tonnes of food grains worth Rs. 10,000 million had to be imported, seriously affecting India's planned development effort.

9.1.2. Efforts post-independence

After independence, a multi-pronged strategy was made to focus on **enhancing land productivity** by improving the economic conditions of farmers and tenants. Steps were also taken to **redistribute land** to ensure distributive justice and to create an egalitarian society by eliminating all forms of exploitation.

Phases of land reforms:

Land in India is a state subject. The land reforms were undertaken in India in the following phases:

1. **First phase** (phase of institutional reforms till 1960s):
Land reforms in the first phase focussed on **abolition of Zamindari** (to remove intermediaries and the culture of landlordism), passing **Tenancy laws** (for security of tenure, decrease in rent and ownership rights to tenants as they did not enjoy these rights earlier), **Land-ceiling laws** (to reduce the inequality in land ownership among farmers and provide land to landless labourers) and placing

the above laws in the 9th Schedule of the Constitution to make them immune from judicial review. Land acquisition acts were also passed by states such as Rajasthan and Punjab in 1953. This period saw emergence of Bhoomdan and Gramdan movements to encourage voluntary giving up of excess land by wealthy landowners to poor farmers to aid redistribution.

2. **Second phase:**

The second phase saw the biggest agricultural reform in India in the form of **Green Revolution** (technological reform) to increase agricultural productivity and aid in self-sufficiency. Also, Right to property [A. 19 (1) (f)] was abolished as a Fundamental Right.

Zamindari Abolition:

The zamindars would force tenants to provide free labour (begari), evict tenants as per their whims and fancies, charged high rent yet did not do anything to increase agricultural productivity, controlled village resources like ponds, wells, grazing lands and placed limitations on allowing access to others. As a result, many states like Uttar Pradesh, Madhya Pradesh, Madras, Bombay, etc. introduced zamindari abolition bills or land tenure legislations in 1949 in line with the G. B. Pant committee report. According to these acts, **ownership and land revenue related rights of the zamindars were abolished**. About 20 million erstwhile tenants were given land rights and became owners. **Farmers were made liable to pay land revenue to the state governments directly**. State governments gave ~670 crores compensation to the zamindars, but in inverse proportion to the size of the land under their control. In Jammu and Kashmir, no compensation was paid to the zamindars which also led to communal bitterness as almost all the zamindars belonged to Hindu community (in Jammu). The Acts also transferred the ownership of common resources like wastelands, wells, ponds, etc. to the village panchayats.

However, the zamindars challenged the constitutionality of the law by raising the issue of the Right to property and unjust compensation. The government responded by getting **first and fourth constitutional amendments passed in 1951 and 1955**, making the question of violation of any fundamental right or insufficiency of compensation not permissible in the courts. Zamindari abolition was completed in a short period, partly because the zamindars as a class had been isolated socially during the national movement itself as they had supported imperialists.

Land ceilings:

After abolition of Zamindari, the superior tenant farmers (who had direct leases from the zamindars) became virtual owners of tens and hundreds of acres of land while the inferior tenants, sharecroppers, landless labourers owned nothing. Also, many zamindars kept a lot of land with themselves on pretext of the '**personal cultivation**' clause in the zamindari abolition acts (Most states permitted the zamindars to keep a part of their land for 'personal cultivation' but its definition was vague). Therefore, State governments enacted Land ceiling acts to fix the maximum size of landholding an individual/family could own. Land over and above the ceiling was called as **surplus land** and redistributed to small or landless farmers, tenants, village panchayats or cooperative farming societies.

The First Five-Year Plan (1951–1956) broadly accepted the Congress economic committee's (Kumarappa Committee) suggestion, which recommended a ceiling on land holding which was to be three times the size of an economic holding, as fair. However, a wave of criticism by the big and influential landowners was to follow as this affected their landholding rights. The campaigners and beneficiaries of zamindari abolition, the superior tenants, who had now become landowners, also criticized this move.

Tenancy reforms:

Tenancy reforms had three basic objectives:

1. To **guarantee security of tenure to tenants** who had cultivated a piece of land continuously for a fixed number of years.
2. To **seek the reduction of rent paid by tenants to a 'fair' level**.

- The tenant should gain the right to acquire ownership of the lands he cultivated, subject to certain restrictions.

Some landowners started to resume self-cultivation of their land, by removing tenant cultivators. As a result, states put limitations on them if they wanted to take back control of their land leased to tenants. In some states, the tenant had to be left with at least half his holding. **A substantial proportion of tenants did acquire security and permanent occupancy rights.**

In the 1960s, a massive programme of conferment of titles to lands to hutment dwellers and tenants was undertaken in Kerala under 'The Kerala Land Relinquishment Act, 1958'. The programme achieved considerable success. Similarly, in West Bengal, **Operation Barga** was launched in 1978 with the objective of achieving the registration of sharecroppers and provide them permanent occupancy and heritable rights and a crop division of 1:3 between landowners and sharecropper.

	Achievements of Land Reforms	Criticism of Land Reforms
Zamindari abolition:	About 1700 hectares of land was acquired from the zamindars and around 2 crore tenants were brought into direct relationship with the State governments. Many cultivators became landowners and the entire process was finished in a remarkably short span of time.	The absence of adequate land records and Zamindars refusing to hand over the land records in their possession, forced the government to go through the lengthy procedure of reconstructing the records. The petty revenue officials at village and tehsil levels, often turned a blind eye or sided with Zamindars for bribes. Even after the laws were enacted, the landlords used the judicial system to defer the implementation of the laws, and exploitation and zamindari continued to exist at an informal level. Many of the zamindars were also able to enter legislature and protected their interests by preventing other progressive steps.
Land Ceiling:	Only in Jammu and Kashmir, were ceiling laws fully implemented and by the middle of 1955, about 230,000 acres of surplus land had been handed over to tenants and landless labourers, that too without having to pay any compensation. Earlier, wastelands belonging to big zamindars/farmers remained uncultivated, but now after being transferred to landless labourers, they could be put to use. It increased employment opportunities as well.	Large states like Bihar, Mysore, Kerala, Orissa and Rajasthan did not declare any surplus land while majority of the states passed ceiling laws very late, not until 1961. In most states, the ceilings were imposed on individuals and not family holdings, enabling landowners to divide up their holdings in the names of relatives or make <i>Benami</i> transfers merely to avoid the ceiling. A large number of exemptions to the ceiling limits were also permitted by states. For example, Tamil Nadu permitted 26 kinds of exemptions. Exemption to land held by cooperatives was also open to greater misuse with landlords transferring their lands to bogus cooperatives.
Tenancy Reforms:	About 50% of tenants in Gujarat and Maharashtra, got ownership rights after paying to the landowner. Some state governments made laws that during the event of a natural disaster (flood/drought etc.), if government remitted land-revenue to the landlord, the latter too would have to remit rent to the cultivator.	The inordinate delays in enacting and implementing the legislation enabled the zamindars to evict potential beneficiaries before the law came into force. The tenants were now called 'farm servants' to evade the implementation of the act, though they continued in exactly the same status. Most tenancies were oral, informal and were not recorded. Hence providing security of tenure to all tenants, met with only limited

		success and large-scale tenants remained unprotected with high rent rates.
Common factors:	Land Reforms resulted in an increase in agricultural productivity, reduction in bonded labour, changed rural power structure and reduced power inequality, asset redistribution led to an egalitarian rural society and no violence was resorted to.	'Personal cultivation' was very loosely defined, a fact that was exploited by the zamindars to retain maximum land with themselves and evict tenants , and also by landowners to escape land ceiling limitation clause. Green Revolution which started in some parts of India in the late 1960s aggravated the problems, with land values and rentals rising even further.

Bhoodan and Gramdan movements too attempted to bring about a “non-violent revolution” in India’s land reforms programme. Although the government was committed to the purpose of land re-distribution, the zamindars proved to be very powerful and were able to delay the implementation of reforms. With peasant unrest on the rise, these movements aimed at bringing a social solution to this problem.

The Bhoodan movement (1951):

Bhoodan was an attempt at land reform, to bring about institutional changes in agriculture, like land redistribution through a movement and not simply through government legislation. **Eminent Gandhian Acharya Vinoba Bhave** drew upon Gandhian techniques and ideas such as construction work and trusteeship to launch this movement in the early 1950s. **He organized an all-India federation of constructive workers, the Sarvodaya Samaj**, which was to take up the task of a nonviolent social transformation in the country. He and his followers were to do padayatra by walking on foot from village to village to persuade the larger landowners to donate at least one-sixth of their lands as Bhoodan or ‘land-gift’ for distribution among the landless and the land poor. The target was to get a donation of 50 million acres, which was one-sixth of the 300 million acres of cultivable land in India. The movement, though independent of the government, had the support of the Congress, with the AICC urging Congressmen to participate in it actively. In less than three months he had covered about 200 villages in the Telangana region and received 12,200 acres as a donation.

However, in some cases, the donors took back their land from the Bhoodan workers. This created doubt in the minds of some people about the continuity of the movement. Village leaders, or allotting authorities, demanded money from the poor for recommending their names for allotment. Since Bhoodan workers became political agents, some landlords / Ex-Zamindars donated land as ‘bribe’ to Bhoodan workers- with hope of getting favourable returns and if they were not given such favours- they’d forcibly take back the Bhoodan land from the beneficiary later on. It also created land hunger among landless. Some of them applied multiple times in the name of wives, children etc. to get more and more free land. Sometimes Bhoodan workers would even accept disputed land as gift, without verification. Later the matter would be stuck in court litigations and beneficiary would get nothing. In the later phase, Bhoodan workers got associated with one or another political parties. Some of them tried to ‘use’ the Bhoodan organization as a means to gain political clout and dividends at the time of election. Mere allotment of land was insufficient because landless farmer also needed seeds, fertilizer, irrigation etc. Often the beneficiary couldn’t arrange loans for these inputs. The average size of land given to beneficiary was 0.5 to 3 acres. This led to further land fragmentation and ‘disguised unemployment’ without any noticeable rise in agro-production.

Gramdan:

By the end of 1955, the Bhoodan movement got a new form, that of Gramdan or ‘donation of village’. This movement again took off from the Gandhian notion that all land belonged to ‘Gopal’ or God. In Gramdan villages, the movement declared that all land was owned collectively or equally, as it did not belong to any one individual. It has been argued that this movement was successful mainly in villages in Odisha, where class differentiation had not yet emerged and there was little disparity in ownership of land or other property such as those inhabited by certain tribal communities. The movements lost momentum soon and very little new land was received as donations. Also, a substantial part of the land donated was unfit for cultivation or under

litigation. The movement also dragged on indefinitely, essentially forgotten, such as the Bihar government decision of 1999 to dissolve the State Bhoodan Committee for its inability to distribute even half the Bhoodan land available over the past 38 years. The Sarvodaya Samaj, on the whole, lacked an organizational structure and failed to build an active large-scale mass movement that would generate irresistible pressure for social transformation in large parts of the country.

“It was the failure of the land reforms policy initiated by the government that gave rise to social movement to bring land reforms”. Is this why Bhoodan and Gramdan movements were launched? Discuss and assess their outcomes.

In mid-1960s there was a political and economic crisis like inflation, devaluation, the Indo-Pak war, etc. and there emerged a strong strand of agrarian radicalism in large parts of the country. In this background, the 1970s saw the rise of the ‘land grab’ movement by the landless in many parts of the country under the leadership of the Communist and Socialist parties. As a result, the **‘Land Reform Implementation Committee’** of the National Development Council made sustained efforts to put pressure on the Chief Ministers to plug the loopholes in the land reform legislation and implement them effectively. In 1971, the committee made a series of recommendations like substantial reduction in the ceiling limits, withdrawal of exemptions such as those in favour of ‘efficient’ or mechanized farms and making ceilings applicable to the family as a unit and not just to individuals.

Following the 1972 guidelines, most states passed revised ceiling legislation, lowering the ceiling limits within the range prescribed in the guidelines. Resistance to the ceiling laws and efforts to evade the ceiling continued in a variety of ways. A common method was to seek judicial intervention on a number of grounds. In an attempt to tackle this menace, the government got the **34th Constitutional Amendment** passed getting most of the **revised ceiling laws included in the Ninth Schedule** of the Constitution so that they could not be challenged on constitutional grounds. The overall results were still far from satisfactory. Out of the land declared surplus but not distributed, nearly 1.6 million acres were under litigation. In the long run, the high population growth and the rapid subdivision of large holdings over several generations led automatically to little land remaining over the ceiling limits. Given the adverse land-man ratio in India and high dependency on agriculture, any attempt to further reduce ceilings would vastly increase the number of uneconomic and unviable holdings.

Further, two centrally sponsored schemes were started by Land Reforms Division in the Department of Land Resources, Ministry of Rural Development, to remove the problems inherent in the manual systems of maintenance and updating of land records.

1. Computerization of Land Records (CLR)

It was started in 1988-89 with 100% financial assistance on a pilot project basis in eight districts of Telangana, Assam, Jharkhand, Gujarat, Madhya Pradesh, Maharashtra, Odisha and Rajasthan. During the Ninth Five Year Plan, the Ministry of Rural development expanded it to 259 more districts. In 2007, the scheme is being implemented in 582 districts of the country.

2. Strengthening of Revenue Administration and Updating of Land Records (SRA and ULR)

Started in 1987, initially, the scheme was approved for the states of Bihar and Orissa and later extended to other states and union territories. Under this scheme, financial assistance is given for the purchase of modern survey equipment like Global Positioning System (GPS), work stations, Aerial Survey, etc.

Committee on state agrarian relations and the unfinished task in land reforms:

Constituted in 2008, the committee observed that inferior quality land was surrendered or taken over, which became more of a liability. It recommended the urgent need to revisit the land ceiling limits in different categories and to be implemented with retrospective effect. It argued strongly for the effective implementation of the Scheduled Tribes and Other Traditional Forest Dwellers (Recognition of Forest Rights) Act, 2006. It also highlighted the representation for women, especially for SC/ST women, in agencies set up to monitor land reforms.

Land Acquisition, Rehabilitation and Resettlement Act, 2013:

Also known as the 'Land Acquisition Act of 2013', it came into effect from 01. 01. 2014 by repealing the Land Acquisition Act, 1894 of British era. The act aims to provide, just and fair compensation to farmers via cohesive national law while ensuring that no land can be acquired forcibly. It mandates that the acquisition process needs to be carried out in consultation with the local self-government and gram sabhas to ensure the least disturbance is caused to the owners of the land along with other affected families. It provides for the establishment of 'Land Acquisition, Rehabilitation and Resettlement Authority' for speedy disposal of disputes. The Act highlights the need for Social Impact Assessment (SIA) for all types of projects before its initiation. There is a special provision for the protection of fertile and irrigated croplands. Irrigated multi-cropped land cannot be acquired beyond a limit specified by the state government. These must be acquired as a last resort by developing an equal size of wasteland for agriculture purposes at some other place.

Interests of **SC/ST owners** are taken care of by the provision of **additional rehabilitation packages** for them. The Compensation & rehabilitation and resettlement (R&R) provisions of the Act do not apply to Special Economic Zones, etc. The act also made the compensations too high, which deprived investments for various projects and affected infrastructure projects. Moreover, government has overriding power on the disapproval given for any project by the committee which assesses the Social Impact Assessment report. Complex procedures for land acquisition intertwined with red-tapism and bureaucratic hassles cause a delay in projects making them costly and unviable. This issue is also compounded by the problem of improper land records.

There are many factors responsible for the tardy progress of India's land reforms including lack of adequate direction and determination, lack of political will, inadequate policy instrument, legal hurdles and absence of correct up-to-date land records. There is a need to break up the landlord-tenant nexus and effective implementation of ceiling legislation. At present, the land revenue system needs to be replaced by a progressive agricultural income tax, ensuring remunerative prices for agricultural produce and the consolidation of small holdings and the prevention of further fragmentation. Distribution of surplus land and simplification of legal procedures along with awareness of potential beneficiaries is the key to make land reforms a success in the Indian context.

9.2. Agrarian struggles in India since Independence

Agrarian movements since the beginning, have centered on the reduction of excessive rent or revenue on produce and land redistribution from the rich to the poor. The years since independence have seen agrarian struggles of enormous variety, ranging from the legendary Telangana peasant movement and the PEPSU tenants' movement which continued from the pre-independence years to the Naxalite or Maoist movement in the late 1960s and the 'new' farmers' movements of the 1980s.

The pre-independence peasant's movements were aimed at drawing the attention of the Monarchy towards their struggles as they believed that His Majesty was not aware of the plight of their citizenry. They in a way, created a platform for post-independence movements to build upon. The earlier movements set a **non-violent approach** to continue the peasant struggle. Example: The 2019 Kisan Long March organized by the All India Kisan Sabha in Maharashtra, was a peaceful nonviolent protest carried by farmers to seek government support in the wake of a severe drought that had gripped half the State. The earlier successful efforts of **demanding statutory provision for their rights** (like the Bengal Tenancy Act of 1885) were continued even in the post-independent era. Example: passage of the Land ceiling act by various Indian states after independence. The majority of the peasant movements in India, even from the pre-independence era focused on the **removal of middlemen** in the agricultural activity. In the present scenario, the famous Agricultural Produce Market Committee (APMC) Act of 2003 was the fruitful outcome of various peasant movements for the same. In this chapter, we will discuss some of the important agrarian struggles post-independence and their impacts on India as a nation.

9.2.1. Telangana peasant struggle

The peasant insurrection of 1946-51, when Telangana area of Hyderabad state was ruled by the autocratic **Nizam**, highlighted the condition of the Indian peasantry and brought out their struggles to the forefront. The peasants suffered from extreme **feudal-type oppression** at the hands of Jagirdars and Deshmukh's, some of whom owned thousands of acres of land. The **Communist Party of India** took up the issue of peasants' struggle against feudalism and organized gram sabhas and formed **guerrilla bands** for attacking Razakar camps. (**Razakars** were militia of Nizam with state backing.) They formed "village republics" (*gram rajyams*) which functioned as the **parallel government** in the areas under their control, in about 3000 villages in the region. However, the struggle turned violent with police retaliation against the Gram Raj Committees that were set up work as defence squads and institutions for self-governance.

The objectives of this armed struggle were **land grabbing and redistribution**, the **abolition of compulsory levy** to the government, and **stopping the eviction of tenants** under any pretext. The village republics started redistributing land to landless agricultural labourers and evicted tenants, increasing the popularity of the movement. P.C. Joshi, the then General Secretary of the Communist Party of India, provided inspiration for the armed struggle in Telangana and arranged for the **supply of arms and ammunition**. By the end of 1950, only isolated guerrilla groups existed, there was little coordination among village republics, and the severe military repression had taken its toll on the population, with a huge loss of life, and the movement weakened. The movement broke the back of landlordism in Telangana as the landlords agreed to sell land at low rates and were subjected to pressure for giving higher wages. The government was also quick to respond to the issues by passing the **Jagirdari Abolition Regulation**, and the **Hyderabad Tenancy and Agricultural Lands Act**. Land ceilings were also introduced in the mid-1950s. Later the **A.P. (Telangana Area) Tenancy and Agricultural Lands Act, 1950** was passed when the Indian Government took over from the Nizam's rule. The Telangana movement represents the culmination of efforts by communist and socialist parties in the first few decades of the communist movement.

9.2.2. Patiala Muzara movement

The '**muzara**' or **tenants** movement that was prevalent in Patiala at the time of independence, had its origins in the late nineteenth century. **Landlords/Biswedars**, who earlier had only revenue collection rights, had succeeded in claiming **proprietary estates**. This relegated the cultivators to the position of tenants. These new tenants regarded *biswedars* as illegitimate occupiers of their land. The wave of political awareness brought by the national movement and its associated movements such as the Akali and the Praja Mandal movements in the 1920s, finally gave the opportunity to the farmers to express their discontent.

The Lal Communist Party which had a mass following among the tenants, mobilized the peasantry on revolutionary lines. It desired an alliance of landless labourers, poor peasants and middle peasants against the *biswedars*. Due to rising law and order situation, the Maharaja of Patiala, on April 20, 1949, announced an ordinance for the abolition of *Biswedari*. The ordinance offered a division of land between *biswedars* and occupancy tenants in the ratio of 1:3. The Peasants began to occupy the *Biswedari* land in some villages with beating of drums, symbolizing the victory of the movement, despite the repeated threats of the government. Some of the *biswedars* left the villages and fled to the cities and some voluntarily surrendered all their lands to the Kisan Sabha. The situation changed with the formation of a new, purely Congress ministry in 1951. Introduction of President's Rule brought about a qualitative change in the situation, as the President issued the **PEPSU Occupancy Tenants (Vesting of Proprietary Rights) Act (1954)**. Under this act, occupancy tenants could become owners of their land by paying compensation amounting to twelve times the land revenue.

9.2.3. Naxalbari movement

Naxalism in India began in a small village in West Bengal called Naxalbari in the year 1967. Although the

struggle had begun even before India gained independence, with the Britishers forcing the tribal people into agriculture, many observers state incomplete agrarian reforms as the reason behind the Naxal movement. Moreover, there was **massive displacement** of tribal population in the Naxalism-affected states due to development projects, clearing of forests, mining operations, etc. Extreme poverty, exploitation and denial of social justice by the administration gave birth to discontent among the masses and left-wing leaders.

The first non-Congress government (comprising of CPI, CPM, etc.) had come to power in West Bengal in 1967 and it initiated a series of land reforms to redistribute surplus land among landless and halt the eviction of sharecroppers. However, this bureaucratic process was too slow and time consuming. As a result, a small group of Communist Party of India (Marxist) leaders, Charu Mazumdar, Kanu Sanyal, and Jangal Santhal, decided to break away and launch their own armed struggle against big landowners. This was followed by a sharecropper near Naxalbari village, being attacked by the landlord's men, over a land dispute. When the police team arrived to arrest the peasant leaders, it was ambushed by a group of tribals led by Jangal Santhal, and a police inspector was killed in a hail of arrows. This event encouraged many Santhal tribals and other poor people to join the movement and to start attacking local landlords. Their objective was to snatch the lands from those big zamindars and re-distribute the same among the tilling farmers and landless labourers.

During the movement, several peasant committees were set up and several landlords were put on trial and executed. Village defence squads were established with agricultural labourers as its leaders with an aim to overthrow the government of the upper classes by force. Peasants' committees formed in villages became the nuclei of armed guards, who occupied land, burnt land records, cancelled debts, delivered death sentences on hated landowners, and set up a parallel administration. In July 1971, Indira Gandhi ordered to mobilize the Indian Army against the Naxalites and launched an army and police counter-insurgency operation, termed "*Operation Steeplechase*," killing hundreds of Naxalites and imprisoning more than 20,000 suspects and cadres, including senior leaders. Despite governments' efforts to control this menace, the movement did spread to other areas such as Srikakulam in Andhra Pradesh, Madhya Pradesh and even Bihar. While in Bengal, Naxalism was a movement for land rights, in Bihar it had caste connotations with lower-caste militias advocating for land reforms and often assassinating landlords; and in Jharkhand, the movement was closely related to 'jal, jungle and jameen' rights of the *adivasis*.

In 2003, the Prime Minister announced a change in the government's strategy of tackling Naxalism, from a 'security centric' approach to a 'development and security centric' approach. He launched programmes like Backward Districts initiative, supported by a Backward Region Grant Fund. A basket approach was taken up, which identified a few schemes for prioritized implementation in those areas. In later years, the Roshni scheme was also announced to provide skill training to fifty thousand youth from Left Wing Extremism affected districts. A 'surrender cum rehabilitation scheme' was also started to welcome and provide monetary support to any Naxalite who surrenders to the district administration. According to the Ministry of Home Affairs (MHA), the influence of Naxalism has shrunk from more than 200 districts earlier to 90 districts spread over 11 states, in 2019. The government believes that the challenge of Naxalism is on its 'last legs' as a large number of central committee and Politburo members have been neutralized. The Naxalbari movement is one of the most widespread movements of the present times and it no longer confines its issues to land reforms, but also focuses on larger issues of corruption, exploitation, maladministration.

9.2.4. Srikakulam peasant uprising

In Srikakulam, another group of revolutionaries claiming to be inspired by Mao Zedong, were about to lead another group of tribals into a suicidal confrontation with the Indian state. From 1957-58 to 1967, this movement organized tribals into **Girijan Sanghams** and **Mahila Sanghams** and secured gains like restoration of land illegally taken over by non-tribal moneylenders and landlords, wage increases, better prices for forest produce, reduction of debts, and free access to forests for timber for construction of houses and other daily needs. The Srikakulam peasant uprising occurred in 1967-1970, in regions of Srikakulam district, Andhra

Pradesh, inspired by the Naxalbari upsurge. These activities spread in different villages paralyzing the local police for six months until additional police forces were sent by the government.

By mid-June 1970, a massive police operation was launched in which 1,400 were arrested. Later, V. Satyanarayana and Adibhatla Kailasam, the two major leaders were killed, and that brought the movement to an end. Groups of Maoist youth continue even today in remote, backward pockets, often inhabited by tribals or very poor low-caste cultivators and agricultural labourers, in Andhra Pradesh, Bihar, and Madhya Pradesh, trying to build their model of revolution.

9.2.5. New farmer's movements in contemporary India

The farmers' movements burst onto the national political stage in 1980 with the road and rail-roko agitation in Nasik in Maharashtra led by the Shetkari Sangathana of Sharad Joshi. These 'new' farmers' movements that have attracted much media and political attention, have focussed mainly on demanding remunerative prices for agricultural produce and lowering or elimination of government dues such as canal water charges, electricity charges, interest rates and principal of loans, etc.

Bharatiya Kisan Union (BKU):

The BKU was originally formed in Haryana under the guidance of **Charan Singh**, the undisputed peasant leader of North India and who later on became Prime Minister of India. After the death of Charan Singh, **Mahender Singh Tikait** got the leadership of BKU. The region of west Uttar Pradesh and the states of Punjab and Haryana that forms the backbone of the movement is highly prosperous because of the massive capitalist investment in agriculture. A section of the peasantry having land in these states has been transformed into a class of capitalist farmers who produce much more than what they consume, own assets like tractors, thrashers, pump sets, etc. and hire agricultural labourers for cultivation since their family labour is not sufficient.

In **Shamli agitation** in April 1987, the BKU raised demands against the rise in power tariff and erratic supply of electricity that was so crucial for the farmers of western Uttar Pradesh. The concessions which the BKU could secure (a reduction in the power tariff by one-sixth) increased the prestige of the BKU and its leader, Mahendra Singh Tikait and soon after that many peasants from several districts joined the organization.

Shetkari Sangathana (SS):

Sharad Joshi's Shetkari Sangathana has its origin in the late 1970s and it primarily represents the interests of the farmers who cultivate cotton, onions, tobacco, grapes, and sugarcane in rural Maharashtra. He rose to national prominence with the **rasta roko** (block roads) agitation in 1980 when thousands of farmers in the state of Maharashtra blocked important roads connecting Bombay and other cities, demanding that prices of sugarcane and cotton be raised. The movement was successful because it could secure some rise in the prices of the commodities and because it was able to bring the farmers' movement in the state to prominence. In recent years, there has been a considerable decline in the support base of the SS largely because it has failed to launch any serious agitation in the 1990s and also because of Sharad Joshi's blatant support to the liberalization of the economy.

Though the independence was achieved in 1947, still the condition of the farmers remains the same. Half of India's population works on farms, but farming contributes only 15% of the country's GDP. The demands of farmers have been more or less the same over the years, from procuring loan waiver to respectable minimum support price for their yield. To secure the future of agriculture and to improve the livelihood of half of India's population, adequate attention needs to be given to improve the welfare of farmers and raise agricultural income.

Recent farm protests:

1. India was swept by about a dozen major farm protests in 2018. In March, tens of thousands of farmers from the western state of Maharashtra had walked 160km to Mumbai city in support of similar demands.
2. In October 2018, over 70000 BKU farmers from Uttar Pradesh, Uttarakhand, Haryana, Punjab and other parts of North India, along with a large convoy of tractors and trolleys, marched towards Delhi to highlight the deepening agrarian crisis. One of their chief demands was a special parliamentary session to discuss solutions to the agrarian crisis, including a full loan waiver and higher crop prices. They also demanded implementation of Swaminathan Commission recommendations that say the minimum support price should be fixed at 50% above the comprehensive cost of production.
3. In 2019, drought-hit farmers from the southern state of Tamil Nadu brandished human skulls and held live mice in their mouths to draw attention to their plight.
4. In 2020, farmers from Punjab, Haryana and western UP marched to Delhi borders to protest against the three farm laws passed by the Parliament in September 2020. Farmer's demands included repeal of the laws and statutory status to Minimum Support Price.

9.3. Green Revolution

Green Revolution in India refers to a period when Indian agriculture was converted from an intensive system to a mechanized system due to the adoption of modern methods and technology such as the **use of high yielding variety (HYV) seeds, tractors, irrigation facilities, organic and inorganic pesticides, and fertilizers**. It was mainly started by **M.S. Swaminathan**, the father of the Green Revolution in India and this was part of the larger Green revolution endeavour initiated by **Mexican Scientist Norman Borlaug**. The Green Revolution in India commenced in the early 1960s and led to an increase in food grain production, especially in **Punjab, Haryana and Uttar Pradesh**.

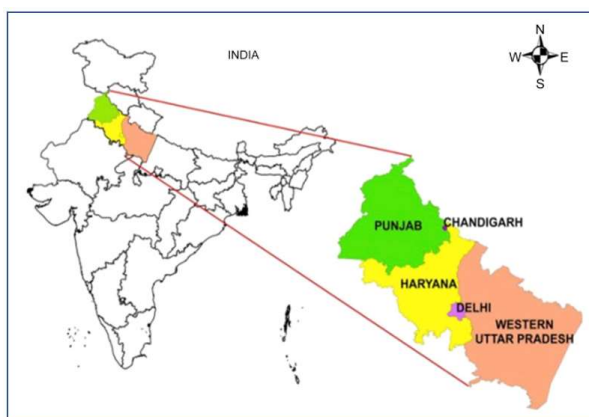


Figure 22: Regions showing Green Revolution Areas

India was an agricultural dependent economy and yet the state of the Indian agricultural sector was dismal. Agriculture was suffering from the lack of investments, a dearth of technology, low yield per acre and many such problems. As a result, the government of India invited a team of experts sponsored by the Ford Foundation which submitted a report suggesting the means of improving production and productivity of the country with stress on modern inputs, especially fertilizers, credit, marketing facilities, etc. This new

'agriculture strategy' was put into practice for the **first time in India** in the **Kharif season of 1966** and was termed **High-Yielding Varieties Programme (HYVP)**.

As a result, India became the world's second-largest producer of both wheat and rice and the largest exporter of rice in 2018. Green Revolution not only increased the total agricultural output, but it also increased the per hectare yield. There was enough production for the population and to build stock in case of emergencies. We did not need to import grains or depend on other countries for our food supply. Farmers started using HYV seeds and traditional fertilizers were replaced by chemical fertilizers. The proportion of cereals in the food grains output increased but the proportion of pulses declined. It was feared that commercial farming would leave a lot of the labour force jobless. But on the other hand, a rise in rural employment was seen. Because the supporting industries such as irrigation, transportation, food processing, marketing created employment opportunities. The Green Revolution majorly benefited the farmers. Their income saw a significant raise. Not only were they surviving, they were prospering. It enabled them to shift to commercial farming from sustenance farming.

Limitations:

1. **Inequality among farmers (Interpersonal inequalities)** -The new technologies required huge amount of investment which could only be afforded by big farmers. Small farmers didn't have sufficient information and resources availability to adopt and effectively apply the technology. As a result, big farmers became even richer and it increased income inequality in rural India.
2. **Regional inequality** -The benefits of the new technology remained concentrated in the wheat-growing area since the green revolution remained limited to wheat for a number of years. These were the regions of Punjab, Haryana and Western Uttar Pradesh which also had good irrigation and other infrastructure facilities. It has led to the achievement of faster economic development in Northern states while other Eastern states have recorded slow growth in agriculture production.
3. **Environmental damage** - Excessive and inappropriate use of fertilizers and pesticides polluted waterways and killed beneficial insects and wildlife. It has caused over-use of soil and rapidly depleted its nutrients. The rampant irrigation practices led to eventual soil degradation.
4. **Undesirable social consequences** - Many large farmers evicted tenants as they found it more profitable to cultivate land themselves. Thus, a large number of tenants and share-croppers had lost their lands and had been forced to join the ranks of agricultural labourers. The increased use of machinery also resulted in unemployment of labourers. Thus creating a sharp gap between landed farmers and sharecroppers or tenants. There has also been feminisation of agriculture in the smaller farms to save labour cost while in big lands, agriculture has mainly remained male-led and machine equipped.
5. **Health hazards** - Increased mechanization that accompanied the modernization of farm technology in green revolution areas carried with it the risk of accidents. Farming villages using large amounts of pesticides have significantly higher rates of cancer than villages that use fewer chemicals. '**Cancer Train**' is a train from Bhatinda in Punjab to Bikaner in Rajasthan which carries cancer patients for treatment. The patients on this train are mostly small farmers from the Malwa region, which is Punjab's cotton belt.

More than five decades after India launched the Green Revolution, its war on hunger is far from won. Despite the large increase in total production, **per capita availability** of food grains has increased only modestly as the population has more than tripled since the start of the 1960s. India has failed to extend the concept of high yield value seeds to all crops or all regions. In terms of crops, it remains largely confined to food grains only, not to all kinds of agricultural produce. India's increase in total food production has, unfortunately, not translated into a proportionate decrease in malnutrition. India ranks 94 out of 107 countries on the **Global Hunger Index (GHI), 2020** and is home to the largest number of malnourished people in the world, about one-quarter of the global total.

Green Revolution transformed the image of India from being a 'begging bowl' to 'breadbasket'. However, to rectify the flaws and loopholes of the Green Revolution, the Evergreen Revolution is needed. **"Evergreen Revolution"** is the pathway of increasing production and productivity in a manner such that short and long term goals of food production are not mutually antagonistic. Introducing Indian farmers to innovative **information and communication technologies (ICT)** can enhance farm productivity, tackle key challenges in the agricultural value-chain through networking on weather alerts, the sowing period, the prices of produce. Implementation of new and efficient irrigation methods, better watershed management and maintenance of vegetation cover in catchment areas and development of drought-tolerant crop varieties are required to optimize water utilization.

Second Green Revolution:

The Green Revolution has made us self-sufficient in food grains but the environmental consequences and ecological costs are offsetting the progress made. The second Green Revolution aims at creating **sustainable agriculture** by leveraging advancements in technology. It has been called for, in **Eastern States** via the **Bringing Green Revolution in Eastern India (BGREI)** programme in recent years. BGREI focuses on bringing the second Green Revolution in the eastern region including Assam, Bihar, Chhattisgarh, Jharkhand, Odisha, West Bengal and eastern Uttar Pradesh (Purvanchal) which also have rich water resources. It focuses on:

1. Harnessing the water potential for enhancing agriculture production in Eastern India.
2. Promoting horticulture, floriculture, sericulture, aquaculture, plantation crops, medicinal crops, aromatic crops, spices, etc.
3. Achieving self-sufficiency in pulses and oilseeds.
4. Crop diversification and multiple cropping.
5. Keeping into view the local geographical and climatic position, soil fertility.

Why North-Western region was chosen for Green Revolution? –The Eastern gangetic plain has very fertile alluvial soil and more water availability; and yet Western plains (Punjab, Haryana and western UP), a relatively dry region, was chosen for Green Revolution. This anomaly can be explained through a variety of factors. Historically, there was a more equitable wealth distribution pattern in areas where farmers had land ownership rights (Mahalwari land revenue system in North Western region) as compared to Eastern region wherein zamindars were owners of land (Permanent Settlement in Bengal, Bihar). So, farmers in western India were relatively more prosperous. Higher prosperity meant higher risk-taking ability and capacity to invest in land. This made western Indian farmers more suitable for input and capital-intensive green revolution. The Eastern region also suffered from floods, frequent crop destructions, and had smaller, fragmented landholdings due to higher population pressure. On the other hand, average farm size was higher in western India making it possible to adopt new technologies for irrigation, ploughing and threshing. Further, the states which had more self-cultivating landowners saw more support from government programs that helped farmers get funds, access to technology, etc. Government expected to have a **trickle-down effect** on other areas but green revolution spread only to limited areas outside the Western India.

Farmer suicides–

According to data presented by the government in parliament, 5,957 farmers committed suicide in India in 2019 as compared to 5,763 in 2018. Maharashtra contributed nearly 45 per cent of all farmer suicides, followed by Karnataka (22 per cent). The National Crime Records Bureau of India reported that a total of 296,438 Indian farmers had committed suicide between 1995–2014. Ironically, Punjab, which benefited most from Green Revolution, also presents a depressing picture, with 4687 farmer suicides between 1995–2015, of which 1334 were from Mansa district alone.

Agricultural land productivity has become stagnant and agricultural income has not increased in same proportion as the rise in input prices resulting in reduced profit margins for farmers. Frequent crop failures due to erratic monsoon behaviour and absence of artificial irrigation have been a cause of farmer distress. Informal loans at very high interest rates have pushed many farmers into debt traps. Widespread poverty and absence of avenues to come out of poverty have been reasons for farmer suicides. Coercive methods of loan recover like confiscation of property subject farmers to humiliation and attacks their respect pushing them to commit suicide. Mental health issues, drug abuse and family problems are also responsible for farmer suicides.

Falling sex ratio in agricultural prosperous regions—According to Census 2011, the sex ratio of India stands at 943 per 1000 males. Punjab, Haryana, Delhi and Western Uttar Pradesh are the traditional areas where sex ratio is generally lower. Haryana with a sex ratio of 879 is the state with the lowest sex ratio. Traditional patriarchal desires for male child due to ritualistic necessities and propagation of lineage manifests in a more visible manner in agricultural states. Male child is seen as a more valuable asset for carrying out agricultural activities. Earlier, women used to work in agricultural fields, but mechanization and increased use of cheap migrant labourer have reduced their utility in agriculture. Further, green revolution has brought prosperity in region resulting in easy access to sex determination technologies and sex selective abortions.

Green revolution delivered only a moderate agricultural growth with polarisation between classes and regions. Discuss.

Food Corporation of India:

The Food Corporation of India was established in **1964**, at a time when India was still suffering from food grain shortage. When Green Revolution started, it was expected that country would no longer depend on foreign imports for food grains, and our farmers would produce to feed the whole country. But who would have managed and stored the vast amounts of food grains produced? It was then, that the FCI was conceived as the premier agency, to manage the procurement and stocking of rice and wheat – the two key outputs of **Green Revolution**.

The FCI has been criticised on some primary grounds in the past. One, that it is operationally expensive, inefficient and corrupt. It has been criticised by even the Supreme Court, as having poor storage facilities, which is affected by loss caused by pests and rats. Then, there is also the problem of “**humanrat**”. Whenever food grains have been found siphoned off from FCI godowns, it has been said that “rats” ate away all the food grains. It is for this reason, that a former Chairman of FCI, in the 1990s, called it the “**Food Corruption of India**”. Moreover, its complete lack of pro-active liquidation policy is also a concern. Despite having vast buffers of food-grains, and no place to store them, FCI is not seen keen on releasing the stock in Open Market or through export.

However, the FCI is not without any achievements. The entire Food Security Act depends on the robust infrastructure of FCI to provide food-grains to the poor. Thus it has served as a lifeline to starving people. Specially in the COVID-19 scenario, given its vast reach and operations, it was uniquely positioned to cater to grain procurement & moving them. The criticism that subsidizing food – a basic good – through running an agency like FCI which is inefficient, slow, huge, and corrupt is also not very valid. This is because 60% of the cost of acquisition, procurement and distribution are transfers to the farmers.

Reforms in FCI:

FCI is currently heavily reliant on rail, and only 24% of the grain moved by it, is by roads, even though road transport has much wider reach into India's rural areas and is better for meeting emergencies. Therefore, logistics need to incorporate the roads infrastructure for better penetration into rural areas.

Additionally, FCI should follow the pre-positioning shipment policy to hotspots. This means that for chronically starved areas, food grains could be stored nearer to the target population. For example, during COVID – 19, storing food grains in block and panchayats, would have provided a sense of assurance and psychological comfort to people. When we have physical proximity to sufficient food, we already win half the battle against food insecurity.

Another concern is that the FCI currently follows the FIFO principle – first in- first out. This means that older grains stored for long are released first. There are two problems with this. First, often food grains stored for long may not be as fit to consume as the latest produce. But the FIFO principle ensures that all food grains must have undergone a certain period of storage – whose hygiene and protection from infestation cannot be assured – before it is released. And second, it slows down the movement of good grains, as the grains quickly available are not moved, but the one that are in storage for long, are moved first – which takes time. Given its vast infrastructure, reach and network, FCI can also extend its functions to help farmer producer organisations (FPOs) in the procurement of seeds, fertilisers, packaging material etc. The FCI has to be re-imagined on the lines of the Shanta Kumar Committee Report – in designating it as an “Agency for Innovation in Food Management Systems”.

9.4. Cooperative developments since Independence

India has been mainly an agrarian society with more than half of its population still residing in the villages (almost 69 percent) and the rural sector as the major contributor to the overall GDP of the nation. Hence, the lack of development in villages means a lack of development in India. Cooperatives are seen as an important element for the development at this lowest level of hierarchy via people's participative approach. A cooperative can be defined as an autonomous association of persons united voluntarily to meet their common economic, social and cultural needs and aspirations through a jointly-owned and democratically-controlled enterprise. Cooperatives allow people to take control of their economic future. As they are not owned by any external shareholders, the economic and social benefits of their activities stay within the communities where they are established. Profits generated are either reinvested in the enterprise or returned to the members.

9.4.1. Evolution of cooperatives in India

In India, the idea of cooperative societies first came into existence when the farmers of Poona and Ahmednagar area started a protest against the high-interest rates charged by the local money lenders. To settle this conflict, the British government enacted three legislations that facilitated the rise of cooperatives in India. These were Deccan Agricultural Relief Act (1879), Land Improvement Loan Act (1883) and Agriculturists Loan Act (1884). But formally, co-operatives were introduced to India in 1904 when the Cooperative Credit Societies Act, 1904 was passed by the British government. In 1919, cooperation became a **provincial** subject and the provinces were authorized to make their own cooperative laws under the Montague-Chelmsford Reforms. The British government also enacted the ‘**Multi-Unit Cooperative Societies Act**’ in 1942 to cover cooperative societies with membership expanding to more than one province. The main aim of the cooperative was to get the poor and indebted farmers out of poverty and out from the clutches of money lenders.

The **Kumarappa Committee 1949**, recommended that the State should be empowered to enforce the application of varying degrees of cooperation for different types of farming. It implied that family farmers would have to make use of the multipurpose cooperative societies for marketing, credit, and other matters, while the below-basic holders (i.e. peasant with small uneconomic holding) would have to cultivate their farms jointly with such other holders. The First Five Year Plan recommended that small and medium farms, in particular, should be encouraged and assisted to group themselves into cooperative farming societies. The Second Five Year Plan (1956-1961) took steps to provide sound foundations for the development of

cooperative farming so that over a period of ten years or so a substantial proportion of agricultural lands were cultivated on cooperative lines'. In 1956 two Indian delegations (one of the Planning Commission, the other of the Union Ministry of Food and Agriculture), were sent to China to study how they organized their cooperatives and achieved such rapid increases in agricultural output.

Over the years, the co-operative movement made rapid progress. There was a near-doubling of the number of societies, a more than 3½ times increase in membership and a more than 10 times rise in working capital. This growth was, however, not equally shared among all the states. The progress was more marked in the states of Maharashtra, Gujarat, Tamil Nadu, Punjab and Madhya Pradesh. The movement was, however, weak in the eastern region comprising the states of Assam, Bengal, Bihar, Orissa, Manipur, and Tripura. The uneven progress was reflected in wide differences in the per capita loan distribution to rural populations which ranged all the way from rupees 33 in Maharashtra to just two rupees in Bihar and Assam.

9.4.2. Operation Flood/ White Revolution:

In 1955, village milk unions set up a factory in Anand, Gujarat to manufacture milk powder and butter and chose the name of 'AMUL' (Anand Milk Union Limited) for its range of products. A special effort was made to **educate women** who generally looked after the animals in a peasant household. As the 'Anand Pattern' gradually spread to other districts in Gujarat, **National Dairy Development Board (NDDB)** launched '**Operation Flood**' in 1970, a programme to replicate the 'Anand Pattern' in other milk sheds of the country. India's Operation flood/White Revolution was the world's biggest dairy development program which gave a major thrust to the milk production of the nation. It aimed at helping the dairy industry sustain itself economically while providing employment to poor dairy farmers. Milk cooperatives procured milk and provided inputs and services along with making modern management and technology available to their members. In 1974, the **Gujarat Cooperative Milk Marketing Federation Ltd**, Anand, was formed as an apex organization of the unions in the district to look after marketing. This experiment, which started modestly in the Kheda district of Gujarat, eventually, became the harbinger of the 'White Revolution' that spread all over India. Dr Varghese Kurian, the heart and soul of the White Revolution in India, was the chief executive of the union from 1950 to 1973.

How did this movement become a success? - A crucial feature of this movement was the democratic mode of functioning of the cooperatives. This cooperative was unique as it effectively combined modern technology with the initiatives of the direct producer. Mentoring by various advanced professionals for managerial, technical and scientific support aligned the efforts of all stakeholders for collective progress. The structure of the cooperative engendered such a combination.

Milk statistics of India:

1. Operation flood transformed India as the largest producer of milk and a net exporter within a few decades with a total production of 176.3 million tonnes in 2017-18.
2. India became the leading milk-producing country in the world with 21.3% of global milk production by 2017-18. India is followed by the USA and Pakistan in terms of milk production.
3. Per capita availability of milk in India increased from 130 gm/day in 1950-51 to 375 gm/day in 2017-18.
4. As per the 2017-18 data of the National Dairy Development Board, Top 5 Milk producing state of India are: Uttar Pradesh, Rajasthan, Madhya Pradesh, Andhra Pradesh and Gujarat (in their respective decreasing order).

9.4.3. Other Successful Cooperatives:

1. Cooperatives for fruits and vegetable producers, oilseeds cultivators, small-scale salt makers, and tree growers were started at the initiative of the NDDB.

2. The **'Dhara' brand of vegetable oils**- Dhara's journey began in Gujarat under NDDB through a partnership with Gujarat Cooperative Milk Marketing Federation under the **Golden Flow operation** (focusing on edible oil production).
3. **Indian Farmers Fertiliser Cooperative Limited (IFFCO)** is one of India's biggest cooperative society which is wholly owned by Indian cooperatives. Founded in 1967 with just 57 cooperatives, it is today an amalgamation of over 36,000 Indian cooperatives with diversified business interests ranging from General Insurance to Rural Telecom apart from our core business of manufacturing and selling fertilizers.
4. **Shri Mahila Griha Udyog Lijjat Papad** also known as **'Lijjat'**, was started in 1959 in Mumbai and is another example of a successful Indian women's cooperative involved in the manufacturing of various fast-moving consumer goods. The objective of the organization is the empowerment of women by providing them employment opportunities.
5. **Farmer Producer Organisations (FPOs)**- Farmer Producer Organisations are another form of cooperative societies formed by the producers by pooling in their resources to get better prices for their produce. The basic idea behind FPOs is to create economies of scale by collaboration of various member producers. Members of these FPOs are usually small farmers who trade in agricultural platforms. Similar to cooperatives, FPOs are also owned and controlled only by participative stakeholders. These FPOs follow a B2B (Business to Business) model.

Co-operatives **propagate self-help** and **facilitate mass voluntary participation** in an organized way to enlist the support of millions of small farmers, artisans, craftsmen, cottage and small- scale enterprises. **Rural development** through cooperatives facilitates regional development of the areas neglected so far by the urban capitalists and industrialists. At the same time co-operatives also **reduce disparities** in income and employment because the resultant gains are not polluted by a few but shared by a large number of people. They have become an **effective tool for women empowerment** in India as today's **majority of the cooperatives are run by women members**. Dairy cooperatives through the 'White Revolution' have enabled the country to achieve self-sufficiency in milk production. Housing cooperatives are contributing to the construction of housing units for economically weaker sections and low-income groups at affordable rates. Through fair price shops, cooperatives are supplying essential commodities to the weaker sections of society at concessional rates.

Challenges faced by cooperatives:

The progress that the cooperative movement has made in India, has fallen short of the goals set by its early proponents. After the initial land reforms, two types of cooperatives were observed. First, cooperatives that were formed by taking on a number of agricultural labourers or ex-tenants as bogus members, essentially to evade ceiling laws and tenancy laws and access incentives offered by the state. Second, there were state-sponsored cooperative farms as well, where generally previously uncultivated land was made available to the landless, Harijans, displaced persons, etc. The poor quality of land, lack of proper irrigation facilities, and the fact that these farms were run like government-sponsored projects rather than genuine, motivated, joint efforts of the cultivators, led them to be expensive unsuccessful experiments.

The other problems faced by cooperatives include **lack of trained manpower** in the rural space to manage cooperatives business professionally, lack of access to **affordable credit**, **inadequate access to basic infrastructure** required for aggregation like transport facilities, storage, value addition (cleaning, grading, sorting, etc.) and processing, brand building, marketing, etc. Further, inadequate awareness among the members about the potential benefits of collectivization & non-availability of competent agency for providing handholding support, is a major hindrance in the success path of various cooperatives. Lack of legal and technical knowledge about various Acts and Regulations related to the formation of cooperatives, FPOs, and statutory compliances thereafter, is another challenge to tackle.

Other notable initiatives of government of India for Indian cooperatives:

1. Cooperative Societies are made a **state subject** under entry 32 state list of the Seventh Schedule of the Indian Constitution.
2. Establishment of **National Cooperative Development Corporation (NCDC)** as a statutory Corporation in 1963 under the Ministry of Agriculture & Farmers Welfare.
3. India enacted the **Multi-State Cooperative Societies Act 1984** to remove the plethora of different laws governing the same types of societies.
4. India enacted the **Constitutional (97th Amendment) Act, 2011** to allow forming a Cooperative Society a fundamental right under Article 19 (1) (i) of the constitution. In July 2021, Supreme Court struck down the act partially in Union of India vs Rajendra N. Shah case. Parts that apply to co-operatives owned by a state government have been termed as invalid because the Constitution Amendment Act was not ratified by 50% of the state legislatures.
5. In July 2021, the Government of India established the Union Ministry for Cooperation to provide impetus to the growth of co-operatives in India.

The cooperative movement in India has emerged as one of the largest in the world. Considering India's sizeable population below the poverty line, there is a need to expand the outreach of these cooperatives to the remotest corners.

Examine the role of cooperatives in rural upliftment with specific reference to Operation Flood.

10. POST INDEPENDENCE ENVIRONMENTAL MOVEMENTS

India's developmental projects have often come into conflict with environment conservation and faced with protests from activists. This debate of development versus environment is a long standing one and has its implications for future developmental paradigm. Rapid industrialization and urbanisation are necessary for economic growth but they require exploitation of natural resources. Further, non-compliance to environmental norms, unregulated and unscientific processes, and over-exploitation have led human foot print exceeding the carrying capacity of the ecosystem, environmental degradation and natural hazards. Climate change has already made permanent changes to our weather patterns, causing irrevocable damage to lives and livelihoods in the form of frequent natural disasters, rising sea level and submerging coastal areas. Disproportionate burden of adverse environmental consequences is borne by poor people and developing countries. This has created an existential threat to the progress that we have made so far. Therefore, it is prudent to pursue developmental goals without breaching environment regulations.

Environment movements, as such, can be defined as scientific, social or political movements, for the conservation of the environment or for addressing environmental issues. These green movements favour the sustainable management of natural resources. They often stress on the protection of the environment via changes in public policy by the government or via behavioural changes and range from highly organized and formally institutionalized ones to radically informal activities.

10.1. Important environmental movements in India

1. **Bishnoi movement:** (1700s)

Place: Khejarli, Marwar region, Rajasthan state.

Leaders: Amrita Devi along with Bishnoi villagers in Khejarli and surrounding villages.

Aim: Save sacred trees from being cut down by the King's soldiers for a new palace.

Movement: Bishnoi Community is a Hindu religious sect, motivated by Guru Jambheshwar, mainly located in the Western Thar desert and some northern states. Around 1700 AD, the local King of Jodhpur had ordered the clearing of the forest to build a new royal palace. However, **Amrita Devi**, a female villager could not bear to witness the destruction of both her faith and the village's sacred trees. She hugged the trees and encouraged others to do the same. In the process, some 363 **Bishnoi villagers were killed**. The King, when learned about the events, rushed to the village and apologized, ordering the soldiers to cease logging operations. Soon afterward, the Maharaja also designated the Bishnoi state as a protected area, forbidding harm to trees and animals. This legislation exists till today in the region.

2. **Chipko movement:** (1973)

Place: In Chamoli district and later at Tehri-Garhwal district of Uttarakhand.

Leaders: Sundarlal Bahuguna, Gaura Devi, Sudesha Devi, Bachni Devi, Chandi Prasad Bhatt.

Aim: The main objective was to protect the trees on the Himalayan slopes from the axes of contractors of the forest. This was done mainly by hugging trees.

Movement: The Chipko movement of 1973 gave the Chipko Andolan widespread publicity. The first Chipko action took place spontaneously in April 1973 in the village of Mandal in the upper Alakananda valley and over the next five years spread to many districts of the Himalayas in Uttar Pradesh. It was sparked off by the government's decision to allot a plot of forest area in the Alakananda valley to a sporting goods company. This angered the villagers because of their similar demand to use wood for making agricultural tools had been earlier denied. With encouragement from a local NGO (non-governmental organization), DGSS (Dasholi Gram Swarajya Sangh), the **women** of the area, under the leadership of an activist, Chandi Prasad Bhatt, went into the forest and **formed a circle around the trees** preventing the men from cutting them down. Ultimately the government withdrew its decision under public pressure. Mr. **Sundarlal Bahuguna, a Gandhian activist and philosopher**, appealed to Mrs Indira Gandhi, the then Prime Minister of India, for a ban on green-felling. He also coined the Chipko slogan: 'Ecology is permanent economy'. Mr. Chandi Prasad Bhatt encouraged the

development of local industries based on the conservation and sustainable use of forest wealth for local benefit. The Chipko protests in Uttar Pradesh achieved a major victory in 1980 with a 15-year ban on green felling in the Himalayan forests of that state by the order of Mrs Indira Gandhi, the then Prime Minister of India.

Sundarlal Bahuguna:

Shri Sundarlal Bahuguna was the driving force behind the Chipko movement to guard the trees on the Himalayan slopes. He was of the opinion that developmental goals must coincide with environment protection and preservation and that economy and ecosystem must go together. He campaigned against the Tehri dam and undertook the Kashmir to Kohima padayatra to bring attention to the Himalayan ecosystem which is at threat from climate change. He also supported women led movements like the one against liquor mafia in the hills and the one against indiscriminate use of chemical fertilizers by the Green Revolution states to save agricultural biodiversity. He was awarded the **Padma Vibhushan** in 2009 and recently passed away in 2021 due to COVID-19.

3. **Save Silent valley movement: (1973)**

Place: Silent Valley, an evergreen tropical forest in Palakkad district of Kerala.

Leaders: The Kerala Sastra Sahitya Parishad (KSSP) an NGO, the poet-activist Sugathakumari, Dr. M.S. Swaminathan and Salim Ali, the famous ornithologist also played a vital role.

Aim: In order to protect the Silent Valley, the moist evergreen forest from being destroyed by a hydroelectric project.

Movement: In 1970 Kerala State Electricity Board (KSEB) proposed hydroelectric dam across the Kunthipuzha River that runs through Silent Valley, which would have submerged 8.3 sq. km of untouched moist evergreen forest. In February 1973, the Planning Commission approved the project at a cost of about Rs 25 crores. The project could have damaged the habitat of endangered Lion Tailed Macaque. The Kerala Sasthra Sahitya Parishad (KSSP) effectively aroused **public opinion** on the requirement to save the Silent Valley. They also published a techno-economic and socio-political assessment report on the Silent Valley hydroelectric project. Finally, the **government bucked under the public pressure** and in 1982, a multidisciplinary committee with Prof. M. G. K. Menon as chairman and Madhav Gadgil, Dilip K. Biswas and others as members, was created to decide if the hydroelectric project was feasible without any significant ecological damage. The committee submitted its report in early 1983 and after its careful consideration, the **government of India cancelled the proposed project**. Ultimately a status of National Park was given to Silent Valley in 1984 to comprehensively protect the area and today it is one of the core areas of the Nilgiri Biosphere Reserve.

4. **Appiko movement: (1983)**

Place: Uttara Kannada and Shimoga districts of Karnataka

Leaders: Pandurang Hegde who helped launch the movement in 1983.

Aim: Against the felling and commercialization of natural forest deprivation of livelihood. Appiko means to hug and it was similar in nature with the Chipko movement.

Movement: In 1950, forests covered more than 81 percent of the geographical area in the Uttara Kannada (or North Kanara) district. But being declared as a 'backward' district, the area was selected for major industries—a pulp and paper mill, a plywood factory and a chain of hydroelectric dams constructed to harness the rivers. By 1980, forests in the district were believed to have shrunk to 25 percent. Locals, especially the poor, were displaced by dams. In order to stop further deterioration On Sep.8, 1983, Pandurang Hegde a local activist started the **Appiko (to hug) movement** deriving inspiration from Sundarlal Bahuguna's Chipko movement in Uttar Pradesh. In the words of Pandurang Hegde, "This movement, started to **protest against the felling of trees**, monoculture, forest policy and deforestation, has succeeded in changing the forest policy. This **first-ever people's green movement in south India** to save our natural resources has become a model of sustainable development." Sundarlal Bahuguna too regularly visited the area to guide the local population in their struggle to save the ecosystem of their area. The movement first focused on raising awareness about

trees and thereafter on forestation of the denuded areas. Due to its mass approach, the movement became an instant success and has since inspired many southern parts of India.

5. **Narmada Bachao Andolan:** (1985)

Place: Narmada River, which flows through the states of Gujarat, Madhya Pradesh, and Maharashtra. Leaders: Medha Patkar, Baba Amte, Adivasis, farmers, environmentalists, and human rights activists. Aim: Against the government's decision to build numerous dams across river Narmada including a large dam named Sardar Sarovar.

Movement: As per the award of the Narmada Water Dispute Tribunal in 1979, the government gave approval to the construction of 30 major, 135 medium, and 3000 small dams, including **raising the height of the Sardar Sarovar dam**. In 1985, **Medha Patkar** visited the site of construction and found that there was a non-fulfilment of basic environmental conditions and the lack of completion of crucial studies and plans relating to the construction of dams. The people who were going to be affected by the construction of the dam were given no information but the offer for rehabilitation. Villagers weren't consulted and weren't asked for feedback on the assessment that had taken place. In order to oppose this wrongdoing by the government, she started a **36-day solidarity march** among the neighbouring states of the Narmada valley from Madhya Pradesh to the Sardar Sarovar dam site. It was just the beginning of numerous agitations she initiated on this topic. Another notable participant in the movement was **Baba Amte** who published a book named Cry O Beloved Narmada in 1989 to protest against the construction of the dams. Meanwhile, Patkar's actions **forced World Bank to appoint Morse Commission** and on the recommendation of this commission, World Bank withdrew from the project in 1993. Ultimately the Sardar Sarovar issue went to the **Supreme Court** which gave a final **verdict in favour of the construction of the dams in 2000**. Subsequent to the verdict, Press Information Bureau (PIB) featured an article:

*"The Narmada Bachao Andolan (NBA) has rendered a yeoman's service to the country by **creating a high-level of awareness about the environmental and rehabilitation and relief aspects** of Sardar Sarovar and other projects on the Narmada. But, after the court verdict, it is incumbent on it to adopt a new role. Instead of 'damning the dam' any longer, it could assume the role of vigilant observer to see that the resettlement work is as humane and painless as possible and that the environmental aspects are taken due care of."*

Sardar Sarovar dam's construction finally finished in 2006 and it was inaugurated by the Prime Minister of India in 2017. Medha Patkar and her associates continued their struggle for proper rehabilitation of the affected people by the government.

6. **Tehri dam conflict:** (1980's and 1990's)

Place: Bhagirathi River near Tehri in Uttarakhand.

Leaders: Sundarlal Bahuguna

Aim: The protest was against the displacement of town inhabitants and the environmental consequence of the weak ecosystem.

Movement: The construction of the dam began in 1978 and soon various concerns arose regarding its feasibility. The primary concern was **seismic activity in the area**. Though the dam can withstand an earthquake of 8.5 magnitude, activists are arguing that earthquakes of more magnitude than that can occur in the area. Another concern is potential **damage to serene Himalayan ecosystem** due to dam construction activities. Safety and rights-based issues are also highlighted by various activities. The protest against the construction activities was led by Sundarlal Bahuguna himself. However, the movement failed to gather any significant local or international attention as the government had already taken due precautions in the construction of the dam. Today, the Tehri dam withholds a reservoir for irrigation, municipal water supply and the generation of 1,000 megawatts (1,300,000 hp) of hydroelectricity. The dam's 1,000 MW variable-speed pumped-storage scheme is currently under construction with expected commissioning in May 2018.

7. **Kudankulam nuclear plant protests:** (1988 onwards)

Place: Kudankulam, Tamil Nadu

Aim: To remove the power plant project from its proposed location.

Kudankulam Nuclear plant had faced protests by the local people right from late 1980s, when the project was sanctioned. These protests later intensified and the fear of the people grew manifold following the **Fukushima nuclear accident in Japan**. Since this plant was **located very close to the sea**, in a **seismic level 2 area**, which faced the wrath of the **tsunami** in 2004, people were protesting. They also feared that **discharge of hot water into the sea** would **destroy the rich fishing grounds** which in turn would affect their livelihood. People were apprehensive that any damage to the nuclear plant would expose them to **radiation**. Moreover, some units of the plant had not gone through the due process of Environment Impact Assessment (EIA), which is presented to the local population for their feedback and review. **In spite of the protests, the construction continued** and the plant started operations in 2016.

8. **Sterlite copper smelting plant protests:** (1993 onwards)

Place: Thoothukudi, Tamil Nadu

Aim: The protestors want Sterlite's copper smelting unit in Thoothukudi shut down as it is causing environmental damage to the area.

Sterlite Copper plant has faced protests since it was established in 1993. Earlier it was by local fishermen but since the **2013 gas leak**, entire local population has intensified their resistance. The company has been accused of being **lax regarding environmental regulations**, causing **harm to the health of the locals** in and around Thoothukudi. The protestors claim that the company has continued its operations even after their application to the State pollution control board was rejected. The protestors sought legal recourse and got the **Madras High Court to shut the plant down** in September 2010. But the Supreme Court stayed the High Court's order. The process was repeated after the 2013 gas leak, but they were again let go off with a fine of ₹100 crore. 2011 National Environmental Engineering Research Institute (NEERI) report about the inspection of the copper smelting plant found **high levels of copper, lead, cadmium and fluoride in the groundwater** in the area. During the oxygen crisis in the second wave of the COVID pandemic, the plant was granted approval by the Supreme Court to resume operations for generating medical oxygen. Anti-Sterlite People's Confederation, one of the organisations involved in protesting against the functioning of the copper smelting unit, observed 'Black Day' as a mark of protest against the order citing it as a back door entry to resume prior operations.

9. **Save Aarey forest movement:** (2019)

Place: Mumbai

Aim: To save 2700 trees from getting cut down and to protect tribal rights.

In 2019, Maharashtra government decided to **cut down 2700 trees in Aarey forest to build a car shed for the Metrorail** project. When Bombay High Court refused to quash the Mumbai municipal corporation's decision to allow felling of trees, **protestors swarmed the area to act as human shields and block the bulldozers**. However, under the cover of night, bulldozers rolled into Aarey and trees were cut amid a dramatic stand-off with protesters. Activists even wrote to the Chief Justice of India asking the Supreme Court to intervene. The top court ordered a temporary stay, but the government said it had already cut down the required number of trees. The court then clarified, that it would not stay construction of the car shed - on land that had already been cleared. Later, when a new government came to power, it declared around 800 acres of land in Mumbai's Aarey as a reserve forest adding that the construction of the controversial car shed in the area would be shifted to another location.

Environmental movements in Indian framework:

Ramachandra Guha talks about three events which occurred within the country in 1973, that expedited discussion on environmental issues in India. First, in April 1973, the government of India announced the launching of **Project Tiger**. It was a determined conservation programme aimed at protecting the country's national animal. Second, the publication of an article in Economic and Political Weekly (March 31, 1973)

entitled 'A Charter for the Land' authored by B. B. Vora, a high official in the Ministry of Agriculture, drew **attention to the extent of erosion, waterlogging and other forms of land degradation** in the country. Ultimately, the Department of Environment was set up in 1980 and a full-fledged Ministry of Environment and Forests was formed five years later. Third, on March 27, 1973, in Mandal, a remote Himalayan village, a group of peasants stopped a group of loggers from felling a stand of trees by hugging the trees. This event flashed many protests through the 1970s, jointly known as the "**Chipko**" movement. This movement raised basic questions relating to ecology, equity, and social justice and promoted lively debate and action throughout the country.

In the Indian context, multiple environmental movements have emerged especially after the 1970s and 1980s. They have played a key role in **creating public awareness** about the importance of bringing about a **balance between environment and development** and in **opposing developmental projects** that are **inimical to social and environmental concerns**. They have also helped in organizing model projects that show the way forward towards non-bureaucratic and participative, community-based natural resource management systems. In India, environmental movements have been people oriented and have a social dimension, whereas, western environmentalism is focused on forests and wilderness with little emphasis on the social and human element.

Major reasons for the emergence of environmental movements in India include control over natural resources, faulty developmental policies of the government, socioeconomic disparity, environmental destruction and spread of environmental awareness through media. Environment and its sustainable utilization have gained momentum in the 21st-century world due to the side effects of haphazard development. However, in India, the subject of nature was sacred for ages and hence damage to it always elicited public opposition. The Bishnoi Movement of 1700 is a prime example of it. Be it Chipko Movement or Narmada Bachao Andolan, the environmental movements have shifted the paradigm of development initiatives in India on a wider scale. These movements have highlighted that for the sake of the development of modern civilization, the environment cannot be sacrificed at a disproportionate rate. It is only because of this movement, the concept of sustainable development has gained popularity within India, not only among the general populace but also in policy parlance.

Discuss the causes of emergence of environment movements in India after 1970s with special reference to Chipko movement. How these movements impacted the environment policy in India?